

Differential Geometry

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1 Smooth Manifolds

1.1 Topological manifolds

1.1.1 Definition

A **topological manifold of dimension n** (or an **n -manifold**) is a topological space M such that

- (1) M is Hausdorff (every two points have disjoint open neighborhoods),
- (2) M is second-countable (there is a countable basis for M),
- (3) M is **locally Euclidean** of dimension n : every point is contained in a neighborhood homeomorphic to an open subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

The empty set is a topological manifold of every dimension, but for the most part we will ignore this special case. It can be shown that the dimension of a topological manifold is well-defined: its dimension is unique (other than the empty space). This can be shown via standard tools in algebraic geometry.

The most basic example of an n -manifold is $\mathbb{R}^n$ itself: it is clearly locally Euclidean and Hausdorff, and the set of all balls with rational center and radius forms a countable basis.

1.1.2 Definition

Let M be an n -manifold. A **coordinate chart** on M is a pair (U, φ) with $U \subseteq M$ and $\varphi: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ an embedding (equivalently $\varphi: U \rightarrow \varphi(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ a homeomorphism). U is the **coordinate domain** or **coordinate neighborhood** of the chart, φ is the **(local) coordinate map** the coordinates of φ (i.e. the composition with the projections $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$) are called the **local coordinates** on U .

By the definition of a manifold, every point in M is contained in the domain of some chart. A chart (U, φ) is **centered** at $p \in U$ if $\varphi(p) = 0$. Clearly every point in M is the center of some chart.

1.1.3 Example

Let $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ be open and $f: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ continuous. Define its **graph**:

$$\Gamma(f) = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^k \mid x \in U, f(x) = y\},$$

and endow it with the subspace topology of $\mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^k$.

Now consider the projection $\pi_1: \mathbb{R}^{n+k} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ and its restriction to $\Gamma(f)$: $\varphi: \Gamma(f) \rightarrow U$. This is a continuous map, and it has a continuous inverse $\varphi^{-1}(x) = (x, f(x))$. Thus φ forms a homeomorphism between $\Gamma(f)$ and U , meaning $\Gamma(f)$ is an n -manifold.

1.1.4 Example

For an integer $n \geq 0$, consider the unit n -sphere S^n of all vectors $x \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ with unit norm, endowed with the subspace topology. As a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, it is Hausdorff and second-countable. It is also locally Euclidean of dimension n , and thus an n -manifold.

Indeed, define for each $i = 1, \dots, n+1$:

$$U_i^+ = \{(x^1, \dots, x^{n+1}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid x^i > 0\}, \quad U_i^- = \{(x^1, \dots, x^{n+1}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid x^i < 0\}$$

And consider $f: B^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by $f(u) = \sqrt{1 - |u|^2}$, where B^n is the unit ball on $\mathbb{R}^n$ (all vectors with norm

< 1). Then $U_i^+ \cap S^n$ is the graph of the function

$$x^i = f(x^1, \dots, \hat{x}^i, \dots, x^{n+1}),$$

where the hat means the indicated index is removed, viewed as a function $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Similarly $U_i^- \cap S^n$ is the graph of $x^i = -f(x^1, \dots, \hat{x}^i, \dots, x^{n+1})$.

Thus each $U_i^\pm \cap S^n$ is locally Euclidean of dimension n , as per our previous example. The maps $\varphi_i^\pm: U_i^\pm \cap S^n \rightarrow B^n$ from the example are given by

$$\varphi_i^\pm(x^1, \dots, x^{n+1}) = (x^1, \dots, \hat{x}^i, \dots, x^{n+1}).$$

These are all local homeomorphisms to an open subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$; and furthermore every point in S^n is in some $U_i^\pm \cap S^n$, thus S^n is indeed locally Euclidean of dimension n .

1.1.5 Example

The **n -dimensional real projective space**, denoted $\mathbb{RP}^n$ is the quotient of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1} - 0$ by equating scalar multiples of vectors. Equivalently, it is the set of 1-dimensional subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$. Its quotient topology is given by the natural map $\pi: \mathbb{R}^{n+1} - 0 \rightarrow \mathbb{RP}^n$. Recall that this means the open sets are those $U \subseteq \mathbb{RP}^n$ for which $\pi^{-1}(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1} - 0$ is open (equivalently if $\pi^{-1}(U) \cup 0 \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is open).

$\mathbb{RP}^n$ is an n -manifold. It can be shown to be second-countable (using any countable basis of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$) and Hausdorff. We show now local Euclidean-ness.

For $i = 1, \dots, n+1$ define $\tilde{U}_i \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ to be the set of all vectors whose i th component is nonzero, and define $U_i = \pi(\tilde{U}_i)$. Notice that $\pi^{-1}(U_i) = \tilde{U}_i$, which is open, thus $U_i \subseteq \mathbb{RP}^n$ is open and $\pi|_{\tilde{U}_i}: \tilde{U}_i \rightarrow U_i$ is a quotient map. Now define $\varphi_i: U_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$\varphi_i[\bar{x}] = \frac{1}{x^i}(x^1, \dots, \hat{x}^i, \dots, x^n),$$

where $[\bar{x}]$ is the equivalence class of $\bar{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$. φ_i is continuous since $\varphi_i \circ \pi$ is, and it is a quotient map.

φ_i has an inverse:

$$\varphi_i^{-1}(\bar{u}) = [u^1, \dots, u^{i-1}, 1, u^i, \dots, u^n],$$

and this map is continuous so $\varphi_i: U_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is a homeomorphism. And as before, $U_1, \dots, U_{n+1}$ cover $\mathbb{RP}^n$ so it is locally Euclidean of dimension n .

1.1.6 Proposition

The product of manifolds is a manifold. More specifically if $M_1, \dots, M_k$ are manifolds of dimension $n_1, \dots, n_k$ respectively, then their product space $M_1 \times \dots \times M_k$ is a manifold of dimension $n_1 + \dots + n_k$.

Proof

It is clearly Hausdorff and second countable. Let $\bar{p} \in \prod_1^k M_i$ and let (U_i, φ_i) be a coordinate chart for $p_i \in M_i$. These assimilate into a coordinate chart $(\prod_1^k U_i, \prod_1^k \varphi_i: \prod_1^k U_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n_1 + \dots + n_k})$. ■

Recall that the **n -torus** is the n -fold product $T^n = S^1 \times \dots \times S^1$, and by this proposition and the above example is an n -manifold.

We now turn to some topological properties of topological manifolds. Recall the following definitions:

A topological space X is

- (i) **connected** if it cannot be written as the disjoint union of two non-empty open subsets (equivalently it has no non-trivial clopen sets);

- (ii) **path connected** if every two points in X can be connected by a path (a continuous $\gamma: [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ whose endpoints are the given points);
- (iii) **locally path connected** if X has a basis of path-connected open subsets.

Furthermore, X 's **connected components** is the set of its maximally connected subsets. Its **path components** is the set of its maximally path connected subsets.

1.1.7 Proposition

Let M be a topological manifold, then

- (1) M is locally path connected,
- (2) M is connected iff it is path connected,
- (3) The connected and path components of M coincide,
- (4) M has countably many components, all of which is an open subset of M and a connected topological manifold.

Proof

Every point in M is contained in a coordinate ball (a coordinate chart whose image is a ball). Since balls are path-connected, the coordinate ball is as well. Thus we can form a basis of coordinate balls, which are all path connected.

(2) and (3) are true in any locally path connected space. Furthermore in any locally path connected space, its components are open. Thus the components form an open cover of M , and must have a countable subcover by second-countability. But components are disjoint, and thus form a minimal cover; the cover must be countable already. In general an open subset of a manifold is itself a manifold clearly. ■

1.1.8 Definition

A topological space X is **locally compact** if every point has a **compact neighborhood**. That is to say, for every $x \in X$ there is an open U and compact K such that $x \in U \subseteq K$.

A **precompact** set in X is a subset $Y \subseteq X$ whose closure is compact.

1.1.9 Lemma

Every topological manifold M has a countable basis of precompact coordinate balls.

Proof

First consider the case where M can be covered by a single chart, $\varphi: M \rightarrow \hat{U} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$. Consider the set of all balls with rational center and radius $B_q(x)$ such that $B_{q'}(x) \subseteq \hat{U}$ for some $q' > q$. These form a countable precompact basis of $\hat{U}$ (they are precompact because their closure in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is contained in the closed ball of the same radius, which in turn is contained in $B_{q'}(x)$). φ lifts this precompact basis to a precompact basis of M , as desired.

M can be covered by countably many charts: take all the charts and then take a countable subcover, which exists by second-countability. Each of these charts U_i has a countable precompact basis, and if $V \subseteq U_i$ is precompact then it is precompact in M . Thus the countable union of these countable precompact bases is a countable precompact basis for M , as desired. ■

1.1.10 Corollary

A topological manifold is locally compact.

Proof

The basis of precompact coordinate balls gives the desired result: let $p \in U$ be a precompact coordinate ball, then $p \in U \subseteq \bar{U}$ is compact. ■

1.1.11 Definition

Let X be a topological space. Then a collection $\mathcal{X}$ of subsets of X is **locally finite** if every $x \in X$ has a neighborhood that intersects at most finitely many subsets in $\mathcal{X}$. Given a cover $\mathcal{U}$ of X , a **refinement** of $\mathcal{U}$ is another cover $\mathcal{V}$ such that every set in $\mathcal{V}$ is contained in some set in $\mathcal{U}$. X is **paracompact** if every open cover of X admits an open locally finite refinement.

If $\mathcal{X}$ is locally finite, then so is $\bar{\mathcal{X}} = \{\bar{X} \mid X \in \mathcal{X}\}$ and we have

$$\overline{\bigcup \mathcal{X}} = \bigcup \bar{\mathcal{X}}$$

1.1.12 Theorem

Topological manifolds are paracompact. Moreso, if $\mathcal{U}$ is an open cover of M and $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis, there is a locally finite open refinement of $\mathcal{U}$ consisting of elements from $\mathcal{B}$.

Proof

The above lemma tells us that M can be covered by countably many compact subsets. Recall that the union of finitely many compact subsets is compact, and so we can construct an ascending chain of compact subsets $(K_i)_i$ whose union is M . We can also require that $K_i \subseteq K_{i+1}^\circ$.

Define $V_i = K_{i+1} - K_i^\circ$ and $W_i = K_{i+2}^\circ - K_{i-1}$ for all i (let $K_i = \emptyset$ for negative i). Then V_i is compact, and contained in the open set W_i . For $x \in V_i$ there is some $X_x \in \mathcal{X}$ containing x , and since $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis there is a $B_x \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B_x \subseteq X_x \cap W_i$. Consider then the set of all such B_x as x ranges over V_i , this forms an open cover of V_i and thus has a finite subcover.

The union of all these finite subcovers as i ranges over all integers forms a countable open cover of M that refines $\mathcal{X}$. The finite subcover of V_i consists of sets contained in W_i , and $W_i \cap W_{i'} = \emptyset$ except when $|j - j'| \leq 2$, thus this is a locally finite open cover of M refining $\mathcal{X}$. ■

1.2 Smooth structures

Thus far we have restricted our attention to *topological* manifolds. But in this course we want to do analysis on manifolds, so we must now consider smooth structures on manifolds.

Recall that a function $f: U \rightarrow V$ for $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n, V \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m$ is C^k (for a potentially infinite nonnegative integer k) if it is continuous, and each of its component functions can be continuously differentiated at least k times. That is to say, $f = (f_1, \dots, f_m)$ and each of its partial derivatives

$$\frac{\partial^\alpha f}{\partial x_1^{\alpha_1} \cdots \partial x_n^{\alpha_n}}$$

exist and are continuous, for $\alpha = \alpha_1 + \cdots + \alpha_n \leq k$.

We are mostly concerned with C^∞ functions; those which can be continuously differentiated an arbitrary number of times. Such functions are also called **smooth**. A smooth function with a smooth inverse is called a **diffeomorphism**.

1.2.1 Definition

Let M be an n -manifold. Let $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ be two non-disjoint charts. Consider then the map $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U \cap V) \rightarrow \psi(U \cap V)$, this is called the **transition map** from φ to ψ . As the composition of homeomorphisms, it itself is a homeomorphism. Two charts $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ are **smoothly compatible** if they are either disjoint or their transition map is a diffeomorphism.

An **atlas** for M is a collection of charts whose domains cover M . A **smooth atlas** for M is an atlas whose charts are all smoothly compatible.

To show that an atlas is smooth, we need only show that each transition map is smooth (and not a diffeomorphism). This is because its inverse is a transition map itself: $(\psi \circ \varphi^{-1})^{-1} = \varphi \circ \psi^{-1}$.

1.2.2 Definition

Let M be a manifold, then a **smooth structure** on M is a maximal smooth atlas (i.e. one not contained in any other atlas). A **smooth manifold** is a pair $(M, \mathcal{A})$ where $\mathcal{A}$ is a smooth structure on a topological manifold M .

1.2.3 Proposition

Let M be a topological manifold.

- (1) An atlas for M is contained in a unique maximal smooth atlas (smooth structure),
- (2) Two smooth atlases for M are contained in the same smooth structure iff their union is a smooth atlas.

Proof

Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a smooth atlas for M , and define $\overline{\mathcal{A}}$ to be the set of all charts smoothly compatible with every chart in $\mathcal{A}$. We claim that $\overline{\mathcal{A}}$ is itself a smooth atlas; i.e. that every two charts in it are smoothly compatible. Let $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ be charts in $\overline{\mathcal{A}}$, and let $x = \varphi(p) \in \varphi(U \cap V)$. Then take some chart (W, θ) from $\mathcal{A}$ such that $p \in W$. Now (U, φ) and (V, ψ) are both smoothly compatible with (W, θ) , so $\theta \circ \varphi^{-1}, \psi \circ \theta^{-1}$ are smooth when defined. In particular since $p \in U \cap V \cap W$, $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}$ is smooth, as the composition of these two smooth functions, in a neighborhood of p . This is true for every $p \in U \cap V$, so $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}$ is smooth as desired. Thus $\overline{\mathcal{A}}$ is indeed a smooth atlas. It is also clearly maximal: any chart not in it by definition is not smoothly compatible with some chart in $\mathcal{A} \subseteq \overline{\mathcal{A}}$.

If $\mathcal{B}$ is any other smooth structure containing $\mathcal{A}$, then its charts are smoothly compatible with $\mathcal{A}$ and thus by definition $\mathcal{B} \subseteq \overline{\mathcal{A}}$. By maximality, this is equality. So we have shown the first point.

The second point is clear: if $\mathcal{A}, \mathcal{B}$ are contained in the same smooth structure, then their union is as well and thus must be a smooth atlas. Conversely if $\mathcal{A} \cup \mathcal{B}$ is a smooth atlas, it is contained in a unique smooth structure, and this smooth structure contains $\mathcal{A}$ and $\mathcal{B}$. ■

1.2.4 Definition

Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a smooth atlas for M , and $\mathcal{B}$ a smooth atlas for N . A map $f: M \rightarrow N$ is **smooth** if for every chart $p \in M$ there are charts $(U, \varphi) \in \mathcal{A}, (V, \psi) \in \mathcal{B}$ with $p \in U$ and $f(U) \subseteq V$ such that the composite $\psi \circ f \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U) \rightarrow \psi(V)$ is smooth. A bijection f is a **diffeomorphism** if it is smooth and has a smooth inverse.

Note that this definition should seemingly talk about smooth structures, and not just smooth atlases. But this is unnecessary:

1.2.5 Proposition

$f: (M, \mathcal{A}) \rightarrow (N, \mathcal{B})$ is smooth iff $f: (M, \overline{\mathcal{A}}) \rightarrow (N, \overline{\mathcal{B}})$ is.

Proof

Clearly the right implies the left. Now let (U, φ) be a chart compatible with $\mathcal{A}$ and (V, ψ) compatible with $\mathcal{B}$. For $p \in \varphi(U)$ let (W, θ) be a chart in $\mathcal{A}$ with p in its domain, and (W', θ') a chart in $\mathcal{B}$ with $f(p)$ in its domain. Then we can write

$$\psi \circ f \circ \varphi^{-1} = (\psi \circ \theta'^{-1}) \circ (\theta' \circ f \circ \theta^{-1}) \circ (\theta \circ \varphi^{-1}),$$

a composition of smooth maps, and is thus smooth. So $\psi \circ f \circ \varphi^{-1}$ is smooth on a neighborhood of any element in its domain, thus smooth as desired. ■

Thus we can characterize smoothness by any compatible smooth atlas. An immediate result is the following (expanding definitions):

1.2.6 Lemma

Two smooth atlases $\mathcal{A}, \mathcal{B}$ for M are smoothly compatible iff the identity $(M, \mathcal{A}) \rightarrow (M, \mathcal{B})$ is a diffeomorphism.

Note that two atlases may give diffeomorphic manifolds without them being smoothly compatible. Necessarily the diffeomorphism must be different from the identity.

So instead of talking about maximal smooth atlases, we can concentrate on ordinary smooth atlases, while keeping in mind that distinct smooth atlases can give the same smooth structure.

1.2.7 Example

Clearly Euclidean space $\mathbb{R}^n$ can be given a natural smooth structure: the one induced by the atlas $\text{id}_{\mathbb{R}^n}$. This is called the **standard smooth structure**. These are not the only smooth structures possible: $\varphi(x) = x^3$ is a homeomorphism $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and thus defines a smooth atlas $(\mathbb{R}, \varphi)$. Since φ is not a diffeomorphism, it is not smoothly compatible with the standard structure. Despite this $(\mathbb{R}, \varphi)$ is diffeomorphic to the standard structure, just via a non-identity map.

1.2.8 Example

Let V be a finite-dimensional real vector space, so that it is isomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$. Any two norms on V are equivalent, i.e. they induce the same topology. Thus V can be given a smooth structure by lifting $\mathbb{R}^n$'s, and this agrees with any norm-induced topology.

For example, the space of matrices $M_{n \times m}(\mathbb{R})$ has a natural smooth structure. Similarly for $M_{n \times m}(k)$ for any finite-dimensional $\mathbb{R}$ -algebra k (e.g. the complex numbers or quaternions).

1.2.9 Example

Let M be a manifold and $U \subseteq M$ be open. Then for an atlas $\mathcal{A}$ of M , we can restrict it to U by

$$\mathcal{A}_U = \{(U \cap V, \varphi|_{U \cap V}) \mid (V, \varphi) \in \mathcal{A}\}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ is a smooth structure, this is just all of the charts $(V, \varphi) \in \mathcal{A}$ such that $V \subseteq U$. This is called an **open submanifold** of M .

1.2.10 Example

Consider the general linear group $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}) \subseteq M_n(\mathbb{R})$. This is the preimage of $\mathbb{R} - 0$ under $\det$, and is thus an open subset of $M_n(\mathbb{R})$. As discussed, this means that $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ is an open submanifold of $M_n(\mathbb{R})$.

More generally, consider the subspace of $M_{n \times m}(\mathbb{R})$ of matrices of full rank. This is also an open subspace: if A has full rank, then consider its submatrix given by its linearly independent columns (or rows). We can then define a continuous map $\det: M_{n \times m}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by mapping a matrix to the determinant of this square matrix. Then the inverse image of $\mathbb{R} - 0$ is an open neighborhood of A , and all matrices in it are of full rank. So the set of matrices of full rank is indeed an open submanifold.

1.2.11 Example

We showed previously that S^n is a topological n -manifold with charts $(U_i^\pm, \varphi_i^\pm)$ for $i = 1, \dots, n+1$ where $\varphi_i^\pm$ removes the i th coordinate, and its inverse maps $\bar{x}$ to the coordinate with $\sqrt{1 - |x|^2}$. Thus for $i \neq j$, the transition $\varphi_i^\pm \circ (\varphi_j^\pm)^{-1}$ maps x to the coordinate with x_i removed and $\pm\sqrt{1 - |x|^2}$ in the j th coordinate. This is smooth. For $i = j$ we just get the identity, which is smooth.

Thus S^n is a smooth n -manifold.

1.2.12 Example

Similar to before the n -dimensional topological manifold $\mathbb{RP}^n$ is smooth. Its atlas is given by maps (U_i, φ_i) where $U_i \subseteq \mathbb{RP}^n$ is the set of all $[x]$ where $x_i \neq 0$ and $\varphi_i[x]$ is $1/x^i$ times the vector x with its i th coordinate removed. Then $\varphi_j \circ \varphi_i^{-1}$ maps x to $1/x^j$ times the vector obtained by removing the j th coordinate of x and adding 1 to its i th coordinate. This is smooth.

Recall that if $M_1, \dots, M_n$ were topological manifolds with charts (U_i, φ_i) , then $M_1 \times \dots \times M_n$ was a topological manifold with charts $(U_1 \times \dots \times U_n, \varphi_1 \times \dots \times \varphi_n)$. If these are smooth atlases, then these charts are smoothly compatible, since

$$(\psi_1 \times \dots \times \psi_n) \circ (\varphi_1 \times \dots \times \varphi_n)^{-1} = (\psi_1 \circ \varphi_1^{-1}) \times \dots \times (\psi_n \circ \varphi_n^{-1})$$

which is smooth. So we have proven the following.

1.2.13 Proposition

The finite product of smooth manifolds is a smooth manifold, whose dimension is the sum of the dimensions of the manifolds.

For example, the n -torus is a smooth manifold of dimension n .

1.2.14 Lemma

Let M be a set and suppose we have a collection of subsets $\{U_i\}_{i \in I}$ with maps $\varphi_i: U_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ for some n . Further suppose the following:

- (1) for each i , $\varphi_i(U_i)$ is open and φ_i is injective;

- (2) for each i, j , $\varphi_i(U_i \cap U_j)$ and $\varphi_j(U_i \cap U_j)$ are open in $\mathbb{R}^n$;
- (3) for $\varphi_i \cap \varphi_j^{-1}: \varphi_i(U_i \cap U_j) \rightarrow \varphi_j(U_i \cap U_j)$ is smooth;
- (4) $\{U_i\}_i$ has a countable subcover;
- (5) whenever $p \neq q \in M$ are distinct, there is either a U_i containing them both, or disjoint U_i, U_j such that $p \in U_i$ and $q \in U_j$,

then M has a unique smooth manifold structure such that (U_i, φ_i) are all smooth charts.

Proof

We first need to give M a topology: take $\varphi_i^{-1}(V)$ to be a basis for $V \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ open. In particular $U_i = \varphi_i^{-1}(\mathbb{R}^n)$ is open. To show that this is a basis, we need to show that the intersection $\varphi_i^{-1}(V_i) \cap \varphi_j^{-1}(V_j)$ can be written as a union of base sets:

$$\varphi_i^{-1}(V_i) \cap \varphi_j^{-1}(V_j) = \varphi_i^{-1}(V_i \cap (\varphi_j \cap \varphi_i)^{-1}(V_j)),$$

which is a base set, since $(\varphi_j \cap \varphi_i)^{-1}(V_j)$ is an open subset of the open subset $\varphi_i(U_i \cap U_j)$ and is thus open. Note that this is the unique topology making each φ_i a homeomorphism; thus far we have made no choices. Then M is Hausdorff: for $p \neq q$ either they are in the same U_i which is Hausdorff (as it is Euclidean), or in distinct U_i, U_j which are open. And M is second countable: as U_i are Euclidean, they are second countable, and M is thus second countable as the union of countably many U_i s.

So we have shown that M is a topological n -manifold. And then (U_i, φ_i) are all smoothly compatible charts because we assumed the transition maps were smooth. ■

Note:

We could state a similar result for topological manifolds, whose proof is the same as above. Instead of assuming the transition maps are smooth, we relax this condition to just require they are continuous. Then M has a unique topological manifold structure making (U_i, φ_i) all charts.

1.2.15 Example

Let K be a finite-dimensional real vector space of dimension n . For $0 \leq k \leq n$, define $G_k(V)$ to be the set of all k -dimensional subspaces of V . Using the above lemma, we can turn this into a smooth manifold called the **Grassmanian manifold**. For $U \leq V$ of dimension k , let W be a complementary subspace such that $V = U \oplus W$. Then define $\Gamma_{U,W}: \text{hom}(U, W) \rightarrow G_k(V)$ by $\Gamma_{U,W}(L) = \{u + Lu \mid u \in U\}$.

Then $(\Gamma_{U,W} \text{hom}(U, W), \Gamma_{U,W}^{-1})$ satisfy the conditions above, turning $G_k(V)$ into a $k(n-k)$ -dimensional smooth manifold (since $\text{hom}(U, W)$ has dimension $k(n-k)$). The proof of this is not trivial, and can be found in my homework solutions.

For $k = 1$, notice that $G_1(\mathbb{R}^{n+1}) \cong \mathbb{RP}^n$.

1.3 Manifolds with boundary

Define the **closed n -dimensional upper half-space** $\mathbb{H}^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ as the set of all points whose n th coordinate is nonnegative:

$$\mathbb{H}^n = \{\bar{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid x_n \geq 0\}.$$

Its interior and boundary are

$$\text{Int}\mathbb{H}^n = \{\bar{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid x_n > 0\}, \quad \partial\mathbb{H}^n = \{\bar{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid x_n = 0\}.$$

1.3.1 Definition

An n -dimensional (**topological**) **manifold with boundary** is a second-countable Hausdorff space M such that every point in M lies in a neighborhood homeomorphic to an open subset of $\mathbb{H}^n$.

A **chart** for M is a pair (U, φ) for $U \subseteq M$ open and $\varphi: U \rightarrow \varphi(U)$ a homeomorphism to an open subset $\varphi(U)$ of $\mathbb{H}^n$. Call a chart a **boundary chart** if $\varphi(U) \cap \partial\mathbb{H}^n \neq \emptyset$, and an **interior chart** otherwise (if its image lies in the interior of $\mathbb{H}^n$). An **atlas** for M is a collection of charts whose domains cover M .

Call $p \in M$ a **boundary point** if it lies in the domain of some boundary chart (U, φ) such that $\varphi(p) \in \partial\mathbb{H}^n$, and an **interior point** if it lies in the domain of some interior chart. Define the set of boundary and interior points to be

$$\partial M \text{ and } \text{Int}M$$

respectively.

Open subsets of $\mathbb{H}^n$ are of the form $\mathbb{H}^n \cap U$ for an open subset $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$. In particular we can construct a basis of $\mathbb{H}^n$ by $\mathbb{H}^n \cap B_r(x)$. We can refine this basis by considering only balls of the form $B_r(x)$ for $B_r(x) \subseteq \mathbb{H}^n$ and $B_r(x) \cap \mathbb{H}^n$ for $x \in \partial\mathbb{H}^n$, called **half-balls**. If (U, φ) is a chart with $\varphi(U)$ a half-ball, call U a **coordinate half-ball**.

Note that every point is either a boundary point or an interior point: suppose $p \in M$ is neither on the boundary or interior. So it must be in the domain of a boundary chart (U, φ) , but $\varphi(p) \notin \partial\mathbb{H}^n$. But then we can take a ball around $\varphi(p)$ so that it doesn't intersect the boundary of $\mathbb{H}^n$, and lift it to M ; this gives an interior chart with p in its domain, so p is an interior point.

Note that an ordinary manifold is also a manifold with boundary, but without boundary points. This is because open subsets in $\mathbb{R}^n$ are all homeomorphic to open subsets of $\mathbb{H}^n$: for example a ball $B_r(x) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is homeomorphic to the ball $B_r(x') \subseteq \text{Int}\mathbb{H}^n$ where x' is just x but the last coordinate is raised so that $B_r(x')$ lies within the interior of the half-space. Thus we can view manifolds with boundaries as a generalization of ordinary manifolds. We will still say “manifolds with or without boundary” when discussing manifolds with boundary to emphasize the point that a result holds for ordinary manifolds as well.

As it turns out, the boundary and interior of a manifold are topological invariants.

1.3.2 Theorem

If M is a topological manifold with boundary, then every point is an interior or boundary point, but not both. That is,

$$M = \partial M \sqcup \text{Int}M.$$

This can be proven using standard tools from algebraic topology.

Note that the concept of a manifold boundary and interior is distinct (yet related) to the notion of a topological boundary and interior. The notion of a topological boundary and interior is *relative*: it is defined relative to a larger topological space. While manifold boundaries and interior are not. To see how this can manifest, consider the manifold $\mathbb{R}$. It has an empty boundary as a manifold, and also as a topological space (as is true for all topological spaces, relative to themselves). But viewed as a topological subspace of $\mathbb{R}^2$ say, its boundary is itself.

Thus it is important to distinguish manifold and topological boundaries and interiors.

1.3.3 Proposition

Let M be a topological n -manifold with boundary.

- (1) $\text{Int}M$ is an open subset of M and a topological n -manifold, without boundary.
- (2) ∂M is a closed subset of M , and a topological $(n - 1)$ -manifold, without boundary.
- (3) M is a topological manifold iff ∂M is empty.

Proof

For $p \in \text{Int}M$, the domain of its interior chart also lies in $\text{Int}M$ by definition, so $\text{Int}M$ must be open in M . It is clearly a topological n -manifold, as its charts are to $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Since ∂M is the complement of the open $\text{Int}M$, it is closed. For $p \in \partial M$ consider its boundary chart mapping p to $\partial\mathbb{H}^n$, (U, φ) . Then the restriction of φ to $U \cap \partial M$ is a homeomorphism to an open subset of $\partial\mathbb{H}^n \cong \mathbb{R}^{n-1}$. Indeed, φ must map boundary points to boundary points, otherwise we could lift an open ball to show that a boundary point is also an interior point. So ∂M is locally Euclidean of dimension $n - 1$, as desired.

Point (3) follows directly from the invariance of the boundary and point (1). ■

$\text{Int}M$ being a submanifold of M is true for all open subsets.

1.3.4 Proposition

Let M be a topological n -manifold with boundary, and $U \subseteq M$ open. Then U is a topological n -manifold with boundary $\partial U = U \cap \partial M$.

Proof

For $p \in U$ consider its chart in M and restrict it to U . $p \in U$ is then a boundary point in U iff it is a boundary point in M . ■

1.3.5 Proposition

Let M be a topological n -manifold with boundary. Then

- (1) M has a countable basis of precompact coordinate balls and half-balls.
- (2) M is locally compact.
- (3) M is paracompact.
- (4) M is locally path-connected.
- (5) M has countably many components, each of which is an open subset of M

Recall that a function $f: A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ for $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ arbitrary is **smooth** if A has an open neighborhood U such that f can be extended to $U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ and this is smooth. In particular if $U \subseteq \mathbb{H}^n$ is open, then $f: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ is smooth if there is an open subset $\tilde{U} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ such that $U = \tilde{U} \cap \mathbb{H}^n$ and a lift $\tilde{f}: \tilde{U} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ of f , which is smooth. Notice that if f is smooth, then f 's restriction to $U \cap \text{Int}M$ is smooth in the usual sense.

So say we have a topological manifold with boundary M , and let $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ be charts. Then we have the transition map $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U \cap V) \rightarrow \psi(U \cap V)$, which is a homeomorphism. To say that this is smooth is to say $\varphi(U \cap V)$ has an open neighborhood $W \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ to which we can extend $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}$, and this lift is smooth.

1.3.6 Definition

Let M be a manifold with boundary. Then an **atlas** for M is a set of charts (U_i, φ_i) whose domain covers M . A **smooth atlas** for M is an atlas for which all the transition maps $\varphi_j \circ \varphi_i^{-1}$ are smooth in the sense explained above. A **smooth structure** for M is a maximally smooth atlas. A **smooth manifold with boundary** is a manifold M along with a choice of a smooth structure $\mathcal{A}$.

As before, a smooth atlas uniquely determines a unique smooth structure.

1.3.7 Definition

Let M, N be manifolds with boundary. A map $F: M \rightarrow N$ is **smooth** if for every point $p \in M$, there are smooth charts $(U, \varphi) \in M$ and $(V, \psi) \in N$ such that $p \in U$ and $f(U) \subseteq V$ and $\psi \circ f \circ \varphi^{-1} \circ \varphi(U) \rightarrow \psi(V)$ is smooth.

A **diffeomorphism** is a smooth map with a smooth inverse.

As before, a function is smooth relative to a smooth atlas iff it is smooth relative to the smooth structure induced by that atlas. And two smooth atlases define the same smooth structure iff the identity is a diffeomorphism with respect to them.

1.3.8 Proposition

If M is a smooth manifold with boundary, and $U \subseteq M$ is open, then it is also a smooth manifold with boundary.

Proof

Consider the construction above showing U is a topological manifold with boundary, the smoothness of the chart given is evident. ■

Note:

Consider our equivalent definition of a smooth manifold via a covering of a set by injections into $\mathbb{R}^n$. If we replace $\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\mathbb{H}^n$, then this gives an equivalent definition of smooth manifolds with boundary.

Interestingly, the product of manifolds with boundary is not necessarily a manifold with boundary. This is because the product of half-spaces is not a half-space. But we can take the product of a manifold with boundary with a manifold (without boundary).

1.3.9 Proposition

Let $M_1, \dots, M_n$ be manifolds (without boundary), and N a manifold with boundary. Then their direct product $M_1 \times \dots \times M_n \times N$ is a manifold with boundary

$$\partial(M_1 \times \dots \times M_n \times N) = M_1 \times \dots \times M_n \times \partial N.$$

2 Smooth Maps

2.0.1 Definition

For two smooth manifolds M, N , we define $C^\infty(M, N)$ to be the collection of smooth maps $M \rightarrow N$. In the case of $N = \mathbb{R}$, we just denote $C^\infty(M, \mathbb{R})$ by $C^\infty(M)$.

2.0.2 Proposition

A smooth map between manifolds with or without boundary is continuous.

Proof

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, then for $p \in M$ take smooth charts (U, φ) and (V, ψ) for M, N respectively such that $p \in U$ and $F(U) \subseteq V$. Then $\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U) \rightarrow \psi(V)$ is smooth, and thus $F|_U$ is continuous as the composition

$$\psi^{-1} \circ (\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}) \circ \varphi.$$

Thus F is continuous at p for all points $p \in M$, as desired. ■

2.0.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a map, then

- (1) if every point has a neighborhood in which F is smooth, then F is smooth.
- (2) if F is smooth, its restriction to any open subset is smooth.

This proposition has the useful corollary:

2.0.4 Corollary

Let $\{U_i\}_i$ be an open cover of M , and let $F_i: U_i \rightarrow N$ be a collection of smooth maps. If the maps agree on overlaps: $F_i|_{U_i \cap U_j} = F_j|_{U_i \cap U_j}$, then there exists a unique extension of all these maps to a smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$.

2.0.5 Proposition

The composition of smooth maps is smooth.

Proof

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ and $G: N \rightarrow P$ are smooth, then

$$\theta \circ (G \circ F) \circ \varphi^{-1} = (\theta \circ G \circ \psi^{-1}) \circ (\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}),$$

the composition of the relevant functions, is smooth. ■

Thus the category of smooth manifolds with smooth maps between them forms a category (the identity is clearly smooth), and the hom-sets are $C^\infty(M, N)$. The isomorphisms in this category are the diffeomorphisms. Other maps are the constant maps: for $c \in N$ the map $M \rightarrow N$ mapping every point to c , and the inclusion of an open submanifold in a larger manifold.

The sum of vector-valued smooth functions is also smooth, i.e. $C^\infty(M, \mathbb{R}^n)$ is a real vector space. When $n = 1$ we can also multiply (pointwise) these smooth maps, so that $C^\infty(M)$ becomes a real algebra.

2.0.6 Proposition

The product of manifolds (of which at most one has boundary) defines a product in the category of smooth manifolds, with the usual projection maps.

2.0.7 Example

Consider the map $\varepsilon: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ given by $\varepsilon(t) = e^{2\pi it}$. This is a smooth map.

Thus $\varepsilon^n: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow T^n$ given by $\varepsilon^n(t) = (\varepsilon(t), \dots, \varepsilon(t))$ is smooth as well. This is because T^n is the product of S^1 's, and each of the projections of ε^n is smooth.

2.0.8 Example

The inclusion S^n in $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is smooth, as is the quotient map $\mathbb{R}^{n+1} - 0 \rightarrow \mathbb{RP}^n$. Thus their composition $S^n \rightarrow \mathbb{RP}^n$ is a smooth bijection (but not a diffeomorphism, the spaces are not even homeomorphic).

Diffeomorphisms inherit the usual properties of isomorphisms (compositions of diffeomorphisms are diffeomorphisms, the product of diffeomorphisms is a diffeomorphism, etc). If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a diffeomorphism, and $U \subseteq M$ is an open submanifold, then the restriction of F to $U \rightarrow F(U)$ is a diffeomorphism.

2.1 Partitions of unity**2.1.1 Lemma**

Define $f: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$f(t) = \exp(-1/t), \text{ for } t > 0 \text{ and } 0 \text{ otherwise,}$$

then f is smooth.

Proof

Clearly f is smooth on $\mathbb{R} - 0$, so we need only show that it has continuous derivatives at the origin. It is sufficient to show it derivatives of all order. We show by induction that the k th derivative of f at $t > 0$ is

$$f^{(k)}(t) = p_k(t) \frac{\exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k}},$$

for some polynomial p_k . This is clearly true for $k = 0$ with $p_0 = 1$. Then

$$f^{(k+1)}(t) = p'_k(t) \frac{\exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k}} + p_k(t) \frac{t^{-2} \exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k}} - 2kp_k(t) \frac{\exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k+1}}.$$

Simplifying gives us the desired result with $p_{k+1}(t) = t^2 p'_k(t) + p_k(t) - 2kt p_k(t)$.

Now we show that $f^{(k)}(0) = 0$ for all $k \geq 0$. We show this by induction; for $k = 0$ this is clearly true. To show that it is true for $k + 1$ we show that $f^{(k)}$ has both one-sided derivatives at 0 and they coincide. Clearly the left derivative is zero. The right derivative is

$$\lim_{t \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{p_k(t) \frac{\exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k}}}{t} = p_k(0) \cdot \lim_{t \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{\exp(-1/t)}{t^{2k+1}} = 0,$$

as desired. Thus $f^{(k)}$ is differentiable, as desired. ■

2.1.2 Lemma

Let $r_1 < r_2$ be two real numbers. Then there is a smooth function $h: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, 1]$ such that $h(t) = 1$ for $t \leq r_1$ and $h(t) = 0$ for $t \geq r_2$.

Proof

Take f as in the previous lemma and define

$$h(t) = \frac{f(r_2 - t)}{f(r_2 - t) + f(t - r_1)} \quad \blacksquare$$

Such a function is often called a **cutoff function**.

2.1.3 Lemma

Let $r_1 < r_2$ be real numbers. Then there is a smooth function $H: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow [0, 1]$ such that $H(x) = 1$ on $\overline{B_{r_1}}(0)$, and $H(x) = 0$ on $\mathbb{R} - B_{r_2}(0)$.

Proof

Define $H(x) = h(|x|)$. $\blacksquare$

Such a function is called a **smooth bump function**.

2.1.4 Definition

Let X be a topological space and $f: X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ be a function. Its **support** is defined to be

$$\text{supp } f = \overline{\{x \in X \mid f(x) \neq 0\}},$$

the closure of the preimage of $\mathbb{R}^n - 0$. If $\text{supp } f \subseteq A$, then we say f is **supported** in A . f is **compactly supported** if $\text{supp } f$ is compact.

Note every (vector-valued) function on a compact space is compactly supported.

2.1.5 Definition

Let $\mathcal{U} = \{U_i\}_{i \in I}$ be an open cover for a topological space X . A **partition of unity** subordinate to $\mathcal{U}$ is a collection $\{\varphi_i\}_{i \in I}$ of continuous functions $\varphi_i: X \rightarrow [0, 1]$, such that

- (1) $\text{supp } \varphi_i \subseteq U_i$ for all $i \in I$;
- (2) the set $\{\text{supp } \varphi_i\}_i$ is **locally finite**: every $x \in X$ has a neighborhood intersecting only finitely many of the sets $\text{supp } \varphi_i$;
- (3) $\sum_i \varphi_i(x) = 1$ for all $x \in X$.

Note that the last condition is well-defined, since only finitely many $\varphi_i(x)$ are non-zero by the second condition.

2.1.6 Theorem

Suppose M is a smooth manifold with or without boundary, and $\mathcal{U} = \{U_i\}_i$ an open cover of M . Then there is a partition of unity subordinate to $\mathcal{U}$.

Proof

We show for the case that M has no boundary. Consider for each U_i a basis of regular coordinate balls: these are coordinate balls B such that $B \subseteq B'$ another coordinate ball with coordinate map φ such that $\varphi(B) = B_r$, $\varphi(\overline{B}) = \overline{B}_r$, and $\varphi(B') = B_{r'}$ for $r < r'$. For a regular coordinate ball B_i , let (B'_i, φ_i) be this extension. Define $f_i: M \rightarrow R$ by

$$f_i = \begin{cases} H_i \circ \varphi_i & \text{on } B'_i \\ 0 & \text{on } M - \overline{B}_i \end{cases},$$

where H_i is the smooth bump function positive in B_{r_i} and zero elsewhere, as above. $H_i \circ \varphi_i$ is zero on $B'_i - \overline{B}_i$, so this is well-defined and smooth. Note that $\text{supp} f_i = \overline{B}_i$.

Define $f: M \rightarrow R$ by $f(x) = \sum_i f_i(x)$ which is well-defined since $\overline{B}_i$ is locally finite, and thus also smooth. $f(x)$ is nonnegative and positive on B_i , which cover M , so $f(x)$ is positive. Thus define $g_i(x) = f_i(x)/f(x)$; this is smooth. Immediately we have that $g_i(x) \in [0, 1]$ and $\sum_i g_i(x) = 1$.

These g_i s have support $\overline{B}_i$, and these form a locally finite cover of the corresponding U_α . For each i , choose an α_i such that $\overline{B}_i \subseteq U_{\alpha_i}$, and then let φ_α be the sum of all the g_i s where $\alpha_i = \alpha$. By local finiteness, we have that φ_α 's support is

$$\text{supp} \varphi_\alpha = \overline{\bigcup_{\alpha_i=\alpha} B_i} = \bigcup_{\alpha_i=\alpha} \overline{B}_i \subseteq U_\alpha,$$

as desired. The sum over φ_α is just the sum over g_i s, so 1, as desired. $\blacksquare$

2.1.7 Definition

Let X be a topological space, $A \subseteq X$ a closed subset, and $A \subseteq U$ open. Then a continuous $\varphi: X \rightarrow [0, 1]$ is a **bump function for A supported in U** if $\varphi = 1$ on A and $\text{supp} \varphi \subseteq U$.

2.1.8 Corollary

Let M be a smooth manifold with or without boundary. Then for every closed $A \subseteq M$ and open $A \subseteq U$, there is a bump function for A supported in U .

Proof

Let $\{\varphi_0, \varphi_1\}$ be a partition of unity subordinate to $\{U, M - A\}$. Then φ_0 has the desired property: $\text{supp} \varphi_0 \subseteq U$ and since $\varphi_0 + \varphi_1 = 1$ and $\varphi_1 = 0$ on A , this means $\varphi_0 = 1$ on A . $\blacksquare$

Let M, N be manifolds and $A \subseteq M$ be arbitrary. A map $F: A \rightarrow N$ is called **smooth** similar to before: if for every $p \in A$ there is a neighborhood $p \in U$ and a smooth function $\tilde{F}: W \rightarrow N$ agreeing with F on $W \cap A$.

2.1.9 Lemma

Let M be a smooth manifold with or without boundary, $A \subseteq M$ closed, and $f: A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ smooth. For any open subset U containing A , there is a smooth function $\tilde{f}: M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ restricting to f on A such that $\text{supp} \tilde{f} \subseteq U$.

Proof

For $p \in A$ let W_p be a neighborhood of p and $\tilde{f}_p: W_p \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ restricting to f . Replacing W_p with $W_p \cap U$, we may assume that $W_p \subseteq U$. Then $\{W_p \mid p \in A\} \cup \{M - A\}$ is an open cover of M and thus has a smooth partition of unity $\{\psi_p\}_{p \in A} \cup \{\psi_0\}$ which is subordinate to it: $\text{supp} \psi_p \subseteq W_p$ and $\text{supp} \psi_0 \subseteq M - A$.

We can extend $\psi_p \tilde{f}_p$ to all of M by defining it to be 0 on $M - \text{supp} \psi_p$. This is well-defined since $\tilde{f}_p$ is zero

in the overlap of $M - \text{supp}\psi_p$ and W_p , thus it is also smooth. Now define

$$\tilde{f}(x) = \sum_{p \in A} \psi_p(x) \tilde{f}_p(x),$$

this is well-defined by local finiteness, and is thus smooth.

If $x \in A$ then $\psi_0(x) = 0$ and $\tilde{f}_p(x) = f(x)$ for every p such that $\psi_p(x) \neq 0$ (since then $x \in W_p \cap A$, in which $\tilde{f}_p$ agrees with f). Thus,

$$\tilde{f}(x) = \sum_{p \in A} \psi_p(x) \tilde{f}_p(x) = \left(\psi_0(x) + \sum_{p \in A} \psi_p(x) \right) f(x) = f(x)$$

as desired.

And furthermore

$$\text{supp}\tilde{f} = \overline{\bigcup_{p \in A} \text{supp}\psi_p} = \bigcup_{p \in A} \overline{\text{supp}\psi_p} \subseteq U,$$

as desired. ■

Another application of partitions of unity is the following.

2.1.10 Definition

Let X be a topological space. Then an **exhaustion function** is a continuous map $f: X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that $f^{-1}(-\infty, c]$ is compact in X for every $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

We can show (via a partition of unity, shown in homework) that every smooth manifold with or without boundary admits a smooth nonnegative exhaustion function.

2.2 Einstein summation notation

Sums of the form $\sum_i a^i x_i$ are abundant in differential geometry. Thus common notation, introduced by Einstein, is to write such sums as $a^i x_i$, omitting the summation symbol and leaving the bounds implicit (or explained explicitly). The general rule is this: if in an expression the same index name (e.g. i) occurs twice in any monomial term, once as an upper index and once as a lower index, then that expression is to be taken as implicitly summed over all relevant values of i .

3 Tangent Vectors

3.1 Geometric tangent vectors

3.1.1 Definition

For $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$ define the **geometric tangent space** at a to be $\mathbb{R}_a^n = \{a\} \times \mathbb{R}^n$, endowed with the vector-space structure induced by the obvious bijection $\mathbb{R}_a^n \cong \mathbb{R}^n$. We denote a vector $(a, v) \in \mathbb{R}_a^n$ by v_a or $v|_a$.

For a geometric tangent vector v_a , we can define the **directional derivative** at a in the direction v :

$$D_v|_a: C^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, \quad D_v|_a f = D_v f(a) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} f(a + tv).$$

$D_v|_a$ is a linear map clearly, and it is also a **derivation**: by the product rule,

$$D_v|_a(fg) = f(a)D_v|_a(g) + g(a)D_v|_a(f).$$

Let $e_1, \dots, e_n$ form the standard basis for $\mathbb{R}^n$, the chain rule gives us that for $v_a = v^i e_i|_a$ (Einstein summation), then

$$D_v|_a f = v^i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(a).$$

(Note that to use the summation convention on the right-hand side, we must view that the upper index in the denominator as a lower index.) More succinctly,

$$D_v|_a f = v \cdot \nabla f(a).$$

This leads to the following definition.

3.1.2 Definition

A map $w: C^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is called a **derivation** at $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$ if it is $\mathbb{R}$ -linear, and for all f, g :

$$w(fg) = f(a) \cdot w(g) + g(a) \cdot w(f).$$

Define $T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ to be the set of all derivations at a .

Clearly $T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ has the natural structure of a linear space, via pointwise addition and multiplication, and all directional derivatives are derivations. More surprisingly, $T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ is naturally isomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$.

3.1.3 Lemma

Let $w \in T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ be a derivation at a .

- (1) w is zero on constant functions.
- (2) If $f(a) = g(a) = 0$ then $w(fg) = 0$.

Proof

By linearity, it is sufficient to prove (1) on the constant function $f = 1$. Notice that $f^2 = f$, so

$$w(f) = w(f^2) = f(a)w(f) + f(a)w(f) = 2w(f),$$

so $w(f) = 0$, as desired. The second point is clear. ■

3.1.4 Proposition

Let $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$, then the map $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ given by $v_a \mapsto D_v|_a$ is a linear isomorphism.

Proof

Firstly, clearly this is linear (for a quick proof recall that $D_v|_a = v \cdot \nabla|_a$, and inner products are bilinear). To show that it is injective, suppose $D_v|_a = 0$. In particular $D_v|_a(x^i) = 0$ for all $i = 1, \dots, n$ (x^i denoting the i th projection). But then

$$D_v|_a(x^i) = v \cdot \nabla x^i(a) = v \cdot e_i = v^i,$$

where e_i is the i th basis vector. So $v^i = 0$ for all i , meaning $v = 0$. Thus the map has trivial kernel and is thus injective.

To show surjectivity, notice that we would expect $w = D_v|_a$ where v has components $w(x^i)$, as per the above computation. So let $v = w(x^i)e_i$, and we show that $D_v|_a = w$. Let $f \in C^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$, and recall by Taylor's

theorem we have

$$f(x) = f(a) + \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(a)(x^i - a^i) + \sum_{i,j=1}^n (x^i - a^i)(x^j - a^j) \int_0^1 (1-t) \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^i \partial x^j}(a + t(x-a)) dt.$$

Notice that $x^i - a^i$ are all zero on a , so by the above lemma w maps the right sum to zero ($f = x^i - a^i$ and g is $x^j - a^j$ times the integral). w maps constants to zero, so

$$w(f) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(a) \cdot w(x^i) = v \cdot \nabla f(a) = D_v|_a(f),$$

as desired. ■

3.1.5 Corollary

For any $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the n derivations

$$\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^1} \right|_a, \dots, \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^n} \right|_a, \quad \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_a(f) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(a)$$

form a basis for $T_a\mathbb{R}^n$.

This is simply since these are the derivations corresponding to the standard basis under the natural isomorphism from the above result.

3.2 Tangent vectors on manifolds

In Euclidean space we defined tangent vectors via a geometric construction, and showed that it was natural isomorphic to a more algebraic definition. For general smooth manifolds we do not have the benefit of a geometric construction, and so we turn to the algebraic definition as above.

3.2.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold (with or without boundary) and $p \in M$. A **derivation** at p is a linear map $v: C^\infty(M) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ satisfying

$$v(fg) = f(p)v(g) + g(p)v(f)$$

for all f, g . Denote the space of derivations at p by T_pM : this is a linear space as before.

As before, derivations map constant functions to zero and if p is a zero of both f and g then $v(fg) = 0$.

3.2.2 Definition

The tangent space construction is functorial: if M, N are smooth manifolds, $p \in M$, and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a smooth map, we define F 's **differential** at p to be the map

$$dF_p: T_pM \rightarrow T_{F(p)}N$$

defined by mapping a derivation $v \in T_pM$ to the derivation $dF_p(v) \in T_{F(p)}N$ given by $dF_p(v)(f) = v(f \circ F)$.

dF_p is well-defined, since $f \circ F$ is a composition of smooth maps $M \rightarrow N \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and thus is smooth. $dF_p(v)$ is a derivation at $F(p)$ because clearly it is linear, and for $f, g \in C^\infty(N)$:

$$\begin{aligned} dF_p(v)(fg) &= v((fg) \circ F) = v((f \circ F)(g \circ F)) = \\ &= (f \circ F)(p)v(g \circ F) + (g \circ F)(p)v(f \circ F) = f(F(p))dF_p(v)(g) + g(F(p))dF_p(v)(f) \end{aligned}$$

as desired. dF_p is also clearly linear.

To show functoriality we need to show that it preserves identities and composition. Clearly it does map id_M to $\text{id}_{T_p M}$, and if $M \xrightarrow{F} N \xrightarrow{G} P$ are smooth then

$$d(G \circ F)_p(v): f \mapsto v(f \circ G \circ F), d(G)_{Fp} \circ d(F)_p(v): f \mapsto d(F)_p(v)(f \circ G) = v(f \circ G \circ F),$$

as desired. In particular, for a diffeomorphism F , $dF_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_{Fp} M$ is an isomorphism with inverse $d(F^{-1})_{Fp}$.

3.2.3 Proposition

Let M be smooth and $p \in M$. If $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$ agree on some neighborhood of p , then $v(f) = v(g)$ for all derivations $v \in T_p M$.

Proof

Setting $h = f - g$ and using linearity, it is sufficient to show that v is zero on maps which are zero in a neighborhood of p . Since h is zero in a neighborhood U of p , $\text{supp } h \subseteq M - U \subseteq M - p$, and thus we can take $\psi \in C^\infty(M)$ to be a bump function which is 1 on $\text{supp } h$ and supported in $M - p$. So $\psi h = h$ always, since $\psi = 1$ when h is nonzero. Thus $v(\psi h) = v(h)$, and since $\psi(p) = h(p) = 0$, $v(\psi h) = 0$ as desired. ■

Thus $T_p M$ is determined by the behavior of maps in neighborhoods of p (this will lead to an equivalent definition of $T_p M$ as we will see soon). In particular, we have the following:

3.2.4 Proposition

Let $U \subseteq M$ be an open submanifold and let $\iota: U \rightarrow M$ be the inclusion map. Then for $p \in U$, the differential $d\iota_p: T_p U \rightarrow T_p M$ is an isomorphism.

Proof

To show injectivity, suppose $d\iota_p(v) = 0$ for $v \in T_p U$. Now let $f \in C^\infty(U)$ and let $p \in B \subseteq U$ be a neighborhood such that $\overline{B} \subseteq U$. Then we can extend f to $\tilde{f}: M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that $\tilde{f}$ agrees with f on $\overline{B}$. By the above proposition, since $\tilde{f}$ and f agree on the neighborhood B of p , $v(f) = v(\tilde{f}|_U)$. Restriction is just composition with ι , i.e. we have

$$v(f) = v(\tilde{f}|_U) = v(\tilde{f} \circ \iota) = d\iota_p(v)(\tilde{f}) = 0$$

since $d\iota_p(v) = 0$. Thus $v(f) = 0$ for all $f \in C^\infty(U)$, so $v = 0$ as desired. Thus $d\iota_p$ is injective.

To show surjectivity, for $w \in T_p M$ define $v \in T_p U$ by $v(f) = w(\tilde{f})$ for the extension above. This is well-defined since any extension agree on a neighborhood of p . This is a valuation, as $\tilde{f} + \tilde{g}$, $c\tilde{f}$, and $\tilde{f} \cdot \tilde{g}$ are extensions of $f + g$, cf , fg respectively. Thus linearity follows and

$$v(fg) = w(\tilde{f}\tilde{g}) = f(p)w(\tilde{f}) + g(p)w(\tilde{g}) = f(p)v(f) + g(p)v(g)$$

as desired. Finally since $f \in C^\infty(M)$ is an extension of $f|_U$, $d\iota_p(v)(f) = v(f|_U) = w(f)$, showing surjectivity. ■

3.2.5 Proposition

Let M be a smooth manifold without boundary of dimension n , and $p \in M$. Then $T_p M$ is an n -dimensional real vector space.

Proof

Let (U, φ) be a smooth chart containing p to an open ball $B \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$. In particular φ forms a diffeomorphism $U \cong B$, which is in turn diffeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$, and the above proposition shows us that

$$T_p M \cong T_p U \cong T_{\varphi p} \hat{U} \cong T_{\varphi p} \mathbb{R}^n,$$

which is n -dimensional, as we showed. ■

What about manifolds with boundary? For an interior point $p \in \text{Int} M$ we have $T_p M \cong T_p \text{Int} M$ which is n -dimensional (as $\text{Int} M$ has no boundary). So we need to consider only boundary points. In particular we need to consider $T_a \mathbb{H}^n$ for $a \in \partial \mathbb{H}^n$.

3.2.6 Lemma

Let $\iota: \mathbb{H}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ be the inclusion map. Then for any $a \in \partial \mathbb{H}^n$, $d\iota_a: T_a \mathbb{H}^n \rightarrow T_a \mathbb{R}^n$ is an isomorphism.

Proof

To show injectivity suppose $d\iota_a(v) = 0$ for $v \in T_a \mathbb{H}^n$. Then for $f \in C^\infty(\mathbb{H}^n)$ we can extend f to $\tilde{f} \in C^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ (since $\mathbb{H}^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is closed). This means that $\tilde{f} \circ \iota = f$ and so

$$0 = d\iota_a(v)(\tilde{f}) = v(\tilde{f} \circ \iota) = v(f),$$

meaning $v = 0$, so $d\iota_a$ is injective.

Suppose $w \in T_a \mathbb{R}^n$, then define $v \in T_a \mathbb{H}^n$ by $v(f) = w(\tilde{f})$ for any extension $\tilde{f}$ of f . Now it is not immediately clear that this is well-defined, since two extensions may not agree on a neighborhood of $p \in \mathbb{R}^n$. But we know that $w = w^i \partial / \partial x^i$ with respect to the standard basis of $T_a \mathbb{R}^n$, and so

$$v(f) = w^i \frac{\partial \tilde{f}}{\partial x^i}(a).$$

By continuity, the partial derivatives of $\tilde{f}$ are determined by those of f in a neighborhood of $a \in \mathbb{H}^n$. So for any extension, the partial derivatives at a are the same, so this is indeed well-defined. The proof that v is a derivation and $d\iota_a(v) = w$ is the same as before. ■

3.2.7 Proposition

Let M be a manifold with or without boundary of dimension n . Then for each $p \in M$, $T_p M$ is n -dimensional.

Proof

This is true as explained for interior points. For a boundary point $p \in \partial M$, let (U, φ) be a coordinate half-ball, φ being a diffeomorphism to $B \subseteq \mathbb{H}^n$. Then B is in turn diffeomorphic to $\mathbb{H}^n$ and we have

$$T_p M \cong T_p U \cong T_p B \cong T_p \mathbb{H}^n \cong T_p \mathbb{R}^n,$$

which is n -dimensional. ■

For a Euclidean space $V \cong \mathbb{R}^n$, we can naturally identify $T_p V$ with V itself, as we did with $\mathbb{R}^n$. The construction is the same: map $v \in V$ to the derivation

$$D_v|_p(f) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} f(a + tv).$$

Then the map $V \rightarrow T_p V$ given by $v \mapsto D_v|_p$ is a natural isomorphism. The argument for it being an isomorphism is the same as before. Naturality just means that it commutes with linear maps in the sense that if $L: V \rightarrow W$ is linear, the diagram below commutes

$$\begin{array}{ccc} V & \xrightarrow{\cong} & T_p V \\ L \downarrow & & \downarrow d_p L \\ W & \xrightarrow{\cong} & T_{Lp} W \end{array}$$

In particular, for an open submanifold of a vector space, its tangent space is naturally isomorphic to that vector space. For example, $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}) \subseteq M_n(\mathbb{R})$ is an open submanifold and as such $T_X \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}) \cong M_n(\mathbb{R})$ for every $X \in \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$.

3.2.8 Proposition

Let $M_1, \dots, M_n$ be smooth manifolds (of which at most one has boundary) and let $M = M_1 \times \dots \times M_n$ be their direct product. Let $\pi_i: M \rightarrow M_i$ be the projection maps. Then for every $p = (p_1, \dots, p_n) \in M$ the differentials assemble into an isomorphism,

$$(d\pi_1, \dots, d\pi_n): T_p M \rightarrow \bigoplus_{i=1}^n T_{p_i} M_i.$$

Proof

Let $\alpha = (d\pi_1, \dots, d\pi_n)$, and define the inclusion maps $\iota_i: M_i \rightarrow M$ which maps $\iota_i(q)$ to be the point in M whose i th coordinate is q and for $i \neq j$ the j th coordinate is p_j . ι_i is smooth which gives us maps $(d\iota_i)_{p_i}: T_{p_i} M_i \rightarrow T_p M$. Furthermore $\pi_i \circ \iota_i = \mathrm{id}_{M_i}$ and $\pi_j \circ \iota_i$ is constant, so $d(\pi_j \circ \iota_i) = \delta_{ij}$.

Further define $\beta: \bigoplus_{i=1}^n T_{p_i} M_i \rightarrow T_p M$ by $\beta(v_1, \dots, v_n) = \sum_{i=1}^n (d\iota_i)_{p_i}(v_i)$. Then

$$\alpha \circ \beta(v_1, \dots, v_n) = \sum_{i=1}^n \alpha(d\iota_i)_{p_i}(v_i),$$

and by functorality

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n (d(\pi_1 \iota_i)(v_i), \dots, d(\pi_n \iota_i)(v_i)) = \sum_{i=1}^n (0, \dots, v_i, \dots, 0) = (v_1, \dots, v_n).$$

So $\alpha \circ \beta$ is the identity, and the dimensions of $T_p M$ and $\bigoplus T_{p_i} M_i$ are equal, so they are isomorphisms. ■

3.3 Alternative definitions

There exist many equivalent definitions of the tangent space of a manifold at a point.

3.3.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold and $p \in M$. Consider then the set of all smooth functions $f: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ where $p \in U \subseteq M$ is an open neighborhood of p ; denote this data by (f, U) . We define an equivalence of these functions, where (f, U) and (g, V) are identified if they are equal on a neighborhood of p . Let $C_p^\infty(M)$ denote the set of all these equivalence classes, called **germs**, we denote the germ of a function f at p by $[f]_p$.

Note that the space of germs can naturally be endowed with a real algebra structure. A **derivation** of

$C_p^\infty(M)$ is a linear map $v: C_p^\infty(M) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ satisfying:

$$v[f g]_p = f(p)v[g]_p + g(p)v[f]_p.$$

We can then define the tangent space of M at p to be the space of all such derivations, which can be given a natural real vector space structure.

If we denote by $D_p M$ the space of all derivations of $C_p^\infty(M)$, it is not hard to see that $D_p M$ and $T_p M$ are naturally isomorphic. A derivation of $C^\infty(M)$ defines a derivation of $C_p^\infty(M)$ and vice versa in a unique way. The benefit of this definition via germs is that it is local, and highlights the locality of the tangent space. In analytic manifolds (i.e. C^k ones), this definition gives the desired properties of a tangent space, as the global definition does not reduce to a local one, since bump functions may not exist.

A more geometric definition can also be given.

3.3.2 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold and $p \in M$. Consider the collection of all smooth curves centered at p : all smooth maps $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ where $J \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is an open interval containing 0 and $\gamma(0) = p$. Again we define an equivalence on such curves: consider γ_1, γ_2 equivalent if for every open neighborhood $p \in U \subseteq M$ and every smooth $f: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, $(f \circ \gamma_1)'(0) = (f \circ \gamma_2)'(0)$. Let $\mathcal{V}_p(M)$ be the collection of all these curves.

$\mathcal{V}_p$ does not have an obvious linear structure, but we can give it one, and it is naturally isomorphic to $T_p M$. We can also naturally define the differential of a smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$ to be

$$dF_p: \mathcal{V}_p(M) \rightarrow \mathcal{V}_{F(p)}(N), \quad [\gamma] \mapsto [F \circ \gamma].$$

This is well-defined: if $\gamma_1 \sim \gamma_2$ then for $f: V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ smooth in a neighborhood of $F(p)$, $f \circ F$ is smooth in a neighborhood of p , and thus $(f \circ F \circ \gamma_1)'(0) = (f \circ F \circ \gamma_2)'(0)$ as desired.

3.3.3 Proposition

Let M be a smooth manifold, with or without boundary, and $p \in M$. Then $\Psi: \mathcal{V}_p(M) \rightarrow T_p(M)$ defined by $\Psi[\gamma](f) = (f \circ \gamma)'(0)$ is a bijection.

Proof

Clearly Ψ is well-defined, and it maps to derivations: clearly $\Psi[\gamma]$ is linear, and it is a derivation:

$$\Psi[\gamma](fg) = ((f \circ \gamma) \cdot (g \circ \gamma))'(0) = f(\gamma(0)) \cdot (g \circ \gamma)'(0) + g(\gamma(0)) \cdot (f \circ \gamma)'(0) = f(p)\Psi[\gamma](g) + g(p)\Psi[\gamma](f).$$

Ψ is also injective; we can view this via the equivalence of derivations on $C_p^\infty(M)$ and $C^\infty(M)$. If $\Psi[\gamma_1] = \Psi[\gamma_2]$, then they define the same derivation on $C_p^\infty(M)$ and this clearly shows that $\gamma_1 \sim \gamma_2$.

Now let (U, φ) be a coordinate ball centered at p , so that $T_p M \cong T_p U \cong T_0 B \cong \mathbb{R}^n$. For $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$, consider its tangent vector in $T_0 B$ given by $D_v|_0$, which we can pull back via $d\varphi_0^{-1}$ to give the tangent vector

$$d\varphi_0^{-1}(D_v|_0) \in T_p U, \quad d\varphi_0^{-1}(D_v|_0)(f) = D_v|_0(f \circ \varphi^{-1}).$$

This corresponds naturally to a tangent vector in $T_p M$ (which maps $f \in C^\infty(M)$ to its restriction to U and then via the above formula). Define the curve

$$\gamma_v(t) = \varphi^{-1}(tv)$$

on an open interval $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$ so that $tv \in U$ for all $t \in (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$. Then

$$\Psi[\gamma_v](f) = (f \circ \gamma_v)'(0) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_0 (f \circ \varphi^{-1}(t \cdot v)) = D_v|_0(f \circ \varphi^{-1}),$$

meaning $\Psi[\gamma_v] = d\varphi_0^{-1}(D_v|_0)$, so that Ψ is surjective as desired. ■

Ψ can then be pulled back to give $\mathcal{V}_p(M)$ a vector space structure naturally isomorphic to $T_p M$.

This definition of the tangent space allows us to simply formalize the concept of a **velocity vector**. Let $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ be a smooth curve, then its velocity at 0 is its equivalence class in $\mathcal{V}_{\gamma(0)}(M)$. Its velocity at any $t_0 \in J$ is the equivalence class of $\gamma_{t_0}(t) = \gamma(t_0 + t)$ in $\mathcal{V}_{\gamma(t_0)}(M)$.

3.4 Computations in coordinates

Let M be a smooth manifold without boundary and (U, φ) be a coordinate chart, so that

$$d\varphi_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_{\varphi(p)} \mathbb{R}^n$$

is an isomorphism for $p \in U$. We know that the partial derivatives evaluated at $\varphi(p)$, $\partial/\partial x^i|_{\varphi(p)}$ for $1 \leq i \leq n$, forms a basis for $T_{\varphi(p)} \mathbb{R}^n$. Then their preimages under $d\varphi_p$ forms a basis for $T_p M$. Let us denote by $\partial/\partial x^i|_p$ these preimages, i.e.

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = (d\varphi_p)^{-1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} \right) = d\varphi_{\varphi(p)}^{-1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} \right).$$

Unwinding definitions, this valuation acts by

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p f = \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} (f \circ \varphi^{-1}) = \frac{\partial \hat{f}}{\partial x^i}(\hat{p}),$$

where $\hat{f} = f \circ \varphi^{-1}$ is the coordinate representation of f , and $\hat{p} = (p^1, \dots, p^n) = \varphi(p)$ is the coordinate representation of p .

When M is a manifold with boundary, we need only consider the case of boundary points: for interior points we take interior charts. For a boundary point $p \in \partial M$, the differential becomes an isomorphism

$$d\varphi_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_{\varphi(p)} \mathbb{H}^n,$$

and we can compose this with the differential $d\iota_{\varphi(p)}: T_{\varphi(p)} \mathbb{H}^n \rightarrow T_{\varphi(p)} \mathbb{R}^n$. The preimage of $\partial/\partial x_a^i$ under $d\iota_a$ is the one-sided partial derivative. Then the preimages of $\partial/\partial x^i|_{\varphi(p)}$ of $d(\iota\varphi)_p$ gives us $\partial/\partial x^i|_p$ defined by

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p f = \frac{\partial \hat{f}}{\partial x^i}(\hat{p}),$$

where the partial derivative is one-sided.

So $\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}|_p$ for $1 \leq i \leq n$ forms a basis for $T_p M$, so any valuation $v \in T_p M$ can be uniquely written as

$$v = v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p.$$

The basis $\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}|_p$ is called a **coordinate basis** for $T_p M$, and $(v^1, \dots, v^n)$ the **components** of v . Notice that if we let $\pi_i: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be the i th projection,

$$v(\pi_i \circ \varphi) = \left(v^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} \Big|_p \right) (\pi_i \circ \varphi) = v^j \frac{\partial x^i}{\partial x^j}(\hat{p}) = v^i.$$

Oftentimes $\pi_i \circ \varphi$ is identified with x^i , so we can write this concisely as

$$v^i = v(x^i),$$

giving an easy method of computing the components of v relative to any coordinate basis.

3.4.1 Proposition

Let $p \in M$ be a point in a smooth manifold. Then $\partial/\partial x^1|_p, \dots, \partial/\partial x^n|_p$ form a basis for $T_p M$, and for

$v \in T_p M$ we have

$$v = v^i \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p, \quad \text{where } v^i = v(x^i).$$

Now how can we represent the differential of a smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$ in coordinates? To do so, we must compute the components of $(dF_p)(\partial/\partial x^i|_p)$ in N .

First suppose that $F: U \rightarrow V$ is a map from open Euclidean subsets $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n, V \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m$, and let $p \in U$. Let $(x^1, \dots, x^n)$ denote the coordinates in the domain and $(y^1, \dots, y^m)$ in the codomain. Then let us see how dF_p maps the coordinate basis:

$$dF_p \left(\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p \right) f = \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p (f \circ F) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial y^j} (F(p)) \frac{\partial F^j}{\partial x^i} (p) = \left(\frac{\partial F^j}{\partial x^i} (p) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial y^j} \right|_{F(p)} \right) (f),$$

where the second equality is due to the chain rule. Thus

$$dF_p \left(\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p \right) = \frac{\partial F^j}{\partial x^i} (p) \cdot \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial y^j} \right|_{F(p)},$$

meaning that the representation of F relative to the coordinate bases is the matrix

$$\begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial F^1}{\partial x^1} (p) & \cdots & \frac{\partial F^1}{\partial x^n} (p) \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \frac{\partial F^m}{\partial x^1} (p) & \cdots & \frac{\partial F^m}{\partial x^n} (p) \end{pmatrix},$$

the **Jacobian** of F at p .

Now in general suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a smooth map between smooth manifolds, with $p \in M$. Let (U, φ) be a chart in M containing p , and (V, ψ) a chart in N containing $F(p)$. Then let $\hat{F} = \psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U \cap F^{-1}(V)) \rightarrow \psi(V)$ be its coordinate representation, $\hat{p} = \varphi(p)$ be the coordinate representation of p . Then since $F \circ \varphi^{-1} = \psi^{-1} \circ \hat{F}$,

$$dF_p \left(\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p \right) = dF_p \left(d(\varphi^{-1})_{\hat{p}} \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_{\hat{p}} \right) = d(\psi^{-1})_{\hat{F}(\hat{p})} \left(d\hat{F}_{\hat{p}} \left(\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_{\hat{p}} \right) \right).$$

We just computed the representation of $\hat{F}$:

$$= d(\psi^{-1})_{\hat{F}(\hat{p})} \left(\frac{\partial \hat{F}^j}{\partial x^i} (\hat{p}) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial y^j} \right|_{\hat{F}(\hat{p})} \right) = \frac{\partial \hat{F}^j}{\partial x^i} \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial y^j} \right|_{F(p)},$$

where the last equality is due to the definition of $\partial/\partial y^j|_{F(p)}$. Thus the representation of dF_p is the Jacobian of $\hat{F}$ at $\hat{p}$.

3.4.2 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a map of smooth manifolds, with or without boundary, and $p \in M$. Then the matrix representation of dF_p with respect to the coordinate bases of M, N is the Jacobian of its coordinate representation $\hat{F}$ at the coordinate $\hat{p}$ of p .

Now how are two coordinate bases related? Suppose (U, φ) and (V, ψ) be two charts with $p \in U \cap V$. Let x^i be the coordinate functions of φ and $\tilde{x}^i$ those of ψ , so we can represent $v \in T_p M$ with respect to either $\partial/\partial x^i|_p$ or $\partial/\partial \tilde{x}^i|_p$.

Let us denote the transition map $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U \cap V) \rightarrow \psi(U \cap V)$ by

$$\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(x) = (\tilde{x}^1(x), \dots, \tilde{x}^n(x)).$$

Then from our computation above,

$$d(\psi \circ \varphi^{-1})_{\varphi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} \right) = \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(\varphi(p)) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_{\psi(p)}.$$

Now, by definition

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = d(\varphi^{-1})_{\varphi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} \right) = d(\psi^{-1})_{\psi(p)} \circ d(\psi \circ \varphi^{-1})_{\varphi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi(p)} \right) = d(\psi^{-1})_{\psi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(\varphi(p)) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_{\psi(p)} \right),$$

and then again by the same definition,

$$= \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(\varphi(p)) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_p.$$

So if $v = v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p$ then

$$v = v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = v^i \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(\varphi(p)) \cdot \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_p,$$

meaning v 's components with respect to ψ are

$$\tilde{v}^j = \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(\varphi(p)) \cdot v^i.$$

3.4.3 Example

Let φ be the standard chart of $\mathbb{R}^2$, and ψ be the **polar coordinates**: it is the map on $\mathbb{R}^2 - 0$ mapping $(r \cos \theta, r \sin \theta)$ to (r, θ) . So here $\tilde{x}_1, \tilde{x}_2$ in the above discussion are r, θ respectively.

We see that

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r} \Big|_p = \frac{\partial x}{\partial r}(\hat{p}) \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \Big|_p + \frac{\partial y}{\partial r}(\hat{p}) \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \Big|_p, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta} \Big|_p = \frac{\partial x}{\partial \theta}(\hat{p}) \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \Big|_p + \frac{\partial y}{\partial \theta}(\hat{p}) \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \Big|_p.$$

Now, $x = r \cos \theta$ so that $\frac{\partial x}{\partial r} = \cos \theta$, and so on. So we have

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r} \Big|_p = \cos \theta \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \Big|_p + \sin \theta \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \Big|_p, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta} \Big|_p = -r \sin \theta \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \Big|_p + r \cos \theta \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \Big|_p.$$

So for example, if p 's representation in polar coordinates is $(r, \theta) = (2, \pi/2)$ we see that

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r} \Big|_p = \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \Big|_p, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta} \Big|_p = -2 \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \Big|_p.$$

3.5 The tangent bundle

3.5.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold with or without boundary. Then we define M 's **tangent bundle** to be the disjoint union

$$TM = \coprod_{p \in M} T_p M.$$

We denote an element in TM by (p, v) or v_p for $p \in M$ and $v \in T_p M$. There is an obvious **projection map** $\pi: TM \rightarrow M$ mapping $(p, v) \mapsto p$.

When $M = \mathbb{R}^n$ we see that quite naturally

$$T\mathbb{R}^n = \coprod_{a \in \mathbb{R}^n} T_a \mathbb{R}^n \cong \coprod_{a \in \mathbb{R}^n} \mathbb{R}_a^n = \coprod_{a \in \mathbb{R}^n} \{a\} \times \mathbb{R}^n = \mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^n.$$

Obviously by similar considerations in general TM is in bijection with $M \times \mathbb{R}^n$, but in general this does not lift to an isomorphism with richer structure; as we will see now TM has a natural topology making it into a smooth manifold.

3.5.2 Proposition

For a smooth n -manifold M , TM has a natural topology making it into a smooth manifold of dimension $2n$ and for which the projection $\pi: TM \rightarrow M$ is smooth. The boundary of TM is

$$\partial TM = \coprod_{p \in \partial M} T_p M.$$

Proof

For a chart (U, φ) of M , notice that $\pi^{-1}(U) \subseteq TM$ is the collection of all tangent vectors tangent to points in U . Let $x^1, \dots, x^n$ be the coordinate functions of φ , and define $\tilde{\varphi}: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{2n}$ by

$$\tilde{\varphi} \left(v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \right) = (x^1(p), \dots, x^n(p), v^1, \dots, v^n),$$

the vector whose first n components are $\varphi(p)$, and then $v^1, \dots, v^n$. The image of $\tilde{\varphi}$ is $\varphi(U) \times \mathbb{R}^n$, which is open in $\mathbb{R}^{2n}$, and $\tilde{\varphi}$ is a bijection onto this: we can explicitly write its inverse as

$$\tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(x^1, \dots, x^n, v^1, \dots, v^n) = v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi^{-1}(\bar{x})}.$$

Now suppose we have two smooth charts $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ with corresponding charts $(\pi^{-1}(U), \tilde{\varphi}), (\pi^{-1}(V), \tilde{\psi})$ in TM . Then we have

$$\tilde{\varphi}(\pi^{-1}(U) \cap \pi^{-1}(V)) = \varphi(U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^n,$$

which is open in $\mathbb{R}^{2n}$, and similar for $\tilde{\psi}$. And the transition map $\tilde{\psi} \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}: \varphi(U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \psi(U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^n$ can be computed explicitly:

$$\tilde{\psi} \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(x^1, \dots, x^n, v^1, \dots, v^n) = \tilde{\psi} \left(v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\varphi^{-1}(x^1, \dots, x^n)} \right) = (\tilde{x}^1, \dots, \tilde{x}^n, \tilde{v}^1, \dots, \tilde{v}^n).$$

Where $\tilde{x} = \psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(x)$ is smooth, and $\tilde{v}^i$ are given as above,

$$\tilde{v}^i = \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^i}{\partial x^j}(x) v^j = \frac{\partial \pi_i \circ \psi \circ \varphi^{-1}}{\partial x^j} v^j,$$

which is smooth as well.

A countable cover $\{U_i\}$ of M by coordinate domains covers TM by $\{\pi^{-1}U_i\}$. For the Hausdorff condition, for v_p, u_q , either p and q are in the same coordinate domain U , in which case $v_p, u_q \in \pi^{-1}U$, or they have disjoint coordinate domains $p \in U, q \in V$ so that $v_p \in \pi^{-1}U, u_q \in \pi^{-1}V$ are disjoint as well. Thus this construction endows TM with a smooth structure, of dimension $2n$.

π is then smooth, as

$$\psi \circ \pi \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(\bar{x}, \bar{v}) = \psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(\bar{x})$$

is smooth.

If $p \in \partial M$ then its boundary chart (U, φ) maps vectors in $T_p M$ to vectors in $\varphi(p) \times \mathbb{R}^n$, on the boundary. All other points are mapped to the interior. ■

The tangent bundle is functorial: for $F: M \rightarrow N$ smooth, we define its **global differential** $dF: TM \rightarrow TN$ to be the map whose restriction to $T_p M \subseteq TM$ is dF_p ; it maps $v_p \in TM$ to $dF_p(v)$.

3.5.3 Proposition

The global differential is smooth, and functorial.

Proof

Let (U, φ) be a chart for M and (V, ψ) a chart for N . We need to show that $\tilde{\psi} \circ dF \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}$ is smooth: let $\varphi(p) = \bar{x}$, then

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{\psi} \circ dF \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(x^1, \dots, x^n, v^1, \dots, v^n) &= \tilde{\psi} \circ dF \left(v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \right) \\ &= \tilde{\psi} \left(v^i \frac{\partial \hat{F}^j}{\partial x^i}(\psi(p)) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_{F(p)} \right) \\ &= \left(\hat{F}^1(x), \dots, \hat{F}^n(x), v^i \frac{\partial \hat{F}^1}{\partial x^i}(\tilde{x}), \dots, v^i \frac{\partial \hat{F}^n}{\partial x^i}(\tilde{x}) \right), \end{aligned}$$

where $\hat{F} = \psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}$ is the coordinate representation, and $\tilde{x} = \psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(x)$ is the transition function. This is smooth, as desired.

Functoriality is clear from the functoriality of local differentials. ■

Now notice that if M has a global chart φ , then the construction of TM gives us a global chart $\tilde{\varphi}: TM \rightarrow \varphi(M) \times \mathbb{R}^n$. Thus TM is diffeomorphic to $\varphi(M) \times \mathbb{R}^n$, which is diffeomorphic to $M \times \mathbb{R}^n$. So we do have that $TM \cong M \times \mathbb{R}^n$ when M can be covered with a global chart (i.e. is diffeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$ or $\mathbb{H}^n$). In general we will see that this is not true.

3.6 Velocity vectors of curves

3.6.1 Definition

A **curve** on a smooth manifold M is a smooth map $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$, from an interval $J \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. For a point $t_0 \in J$, we define γ 's **velocity** at t_0 to be

$$\gamma'(t_0) = d\gamma \left(\frac{d}{dt} \Big|_{t_0} \right) \in T_{\gamma(t_0)}(M),$$

where $d/dt \in T_{t_0}(\mathbb{R})$ is the standard basis vector.

Spelled out, $\gamma'(t_0)$ is the derivation given by

$$\gamma'(t_0)(f) = \frac{d(f \circ \gamma)}{dt}(t_0) = (f \circ \gamma)'(t_0).$$

If $t_0 \in J$ is an endpoint, this derivative is taken as one-sided. Now let (U, φ) be a chart containing $\gamma(t_0)$, so that $\varphi \gamma(t_0) = t_0$. Then we see

$$\gamma'(t_0) = d\gamma \left(\frac{d}{dt} \Big|_{t_0} \right) = \frac{\partial \hat{\gamma}^i}{\partial t}(t_0) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\gamma(t_0)},$$

where $\hat{\gamma} = \varphi \circ \gamma$ is its coordinate representation, with projections $\hat{\gamma}^i = \pi_i \circ \hat{\gamma}$. Thus $\gamma'(t_0)$ is given by essentially the same formula as in Euclidean space: by taking the partial derivatives of each component.

3.6.2 Proposition

Let M be a smooth manifold, with or without boundary, and $p \in M$. Then every $v \in T_p M$ is the velocity of some smooth curve in M .

Proof

For an interior point p , let (U, φ) be an interior chart centered at p . For $v \in T_p M$, let $v = v^i \partial/\partial x^i|_p$ be its coordinate representation with respect to φ , let $\bar{v} = (v^1, \dots, v^n)$. Then define

$$\gamma: (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \rightarrow M, \quad \gamma(t) = \varphi^{-1}(t\bar{v})$$

for $\varepsilon > 0$ small enough so that $t\bar{v} \in \varphi(U)$ for all t in the domain. This is a smooth curve with $\gamma(0) = p$, and its velocity at 0 is

$$\gamma'(0) = \frac{\partial \varphi \gamma^i}{\partial t}(0) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = \frac{\partial t v^i}{\partial t}(0) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = v,$$

as desired.

If $p \in \partial M$ then take a smooth chart as before and consider its coordinate representation again. The above formula is only defined when $t v^n \geq 0$, so we take the appropriate subinterval of $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$ so that γ is defined, and we get the same result. ■

3.6.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ a smooth curve. Then for $t_0 \in J$, the velocity of the composite curve $F \circ \gamma$ is given by

$$(F \circ \gamma)'(t_0) = dF(\gamma'(t_0)).$$

Proof

By definition and functoriality,

$$(F \circ \gamma)'(t_0) = d(F \circ \gamma) \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \Big|_{t_0} = dF \circ d\gamma \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \Big|_{t_0} = dF(\gamma'(t_0)). \quad \blacksquare$$

While this may seem like a good way to compute the velocity vectors of composite curves, it turns out that in general it is more helpful to view this proposition as a method of computing differentials:

3.6.4 Corollary

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, $p \in M$, and $v \in T_p M$. Then for any curve $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ where $0 \in J$ and whose velocity at 0 is v , we have that

$$dF_p(v) = (F \circ \gamma)'(0).$$

4 Submersions, Immersions, and Embeddings

4.1 Maps of constant rank

4.1.1 Definition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, and $p \in M$. Then F 's **rank** at p is the rank of the linear transformation $dF_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_p N$.

Taking the coordinate bases of the tangent spaces, F 's rank is just the rank of the Jacobian of F at p . Equivalently it is the dimension of dF_p 's image in $T_p N$. A matrix's rank is bound by the dimensions of its domain and codomain, so $\text{rank}_p F \leq \min \{\dim M, \dim N\}$. If F 's rank at p is equal to this minimum, we say that F has **full rank** at p .

4.1.2 Definition

$F: M \rightarrow N$ has **constant rank** if its rank is equal at every point in M . F is a **smooth submersion** if its differential is surjective at every point, equivalently if F has constant rank $\dim N$. F is a **smooth immersion** if its differential is injective at every point, equivalently if F has constant rank $\dim M$.

4.1.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth and at $p \in M$, F has full rank. Then there is a neighborhood U of p such that $F|_U$ has full constant rank. That is to say, if F has full rank at a point, there is a neighborhood where F is a smooth immersion or submersion.

Proof

Let (U, φ) and (V, ψ) be charts of M and N respectively, and let $\hat{F}$ be F 's coordinate representation. Then the map $p \mapsto J\hat{F}_{\varphi(p)}$ is continuous. The space of full-rank matrices is open, so its preimage under this map is open. This gives a neighborhood of p where F has full rank. ■

4.1.4 Example

Let $M = M_1 \times \cdots \times M_n$ be the direct product of smooth manifolds, and consider the projection $\pi = \pi_i: M \rightarrow M_i$: this is a smooth submersion. Indeed, for $p \in M$ let (U_j, φ_j) be charts containing p^j , so that π 's representation is

$$\hat{\pi} = \varphi_i \circ \pi \circ (\varphi_1^{-1}, \dots, \varphi_n^{-1}),$$

which maps $\bar{x}$ to x^i : i.e. $\hat{\pi}$ is the projection of $\mathbb{R}^{n_1+\cdots+n_k} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n_i}$. The Jacobian of this has full rank, as desired.

4.1.5 Example

Let M be smooth, and $\pi: TM \rightarrow M$ is a smooth submersion. Indeed, if (U, φ) is a chart of M and $(\pi^{-1}(U), \tilde{\varphi})$ is its corresponding chart in TM , then

$$\hat{\pi} = \varphi \circ \pi \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}: (\bar{x}, \bar{v}) \mapsto \bar{x},$$

which clearly has full rank.

4.2 Local diffeomorphisms

4.2.1 Definition

A smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a **local diffeomorphism** if for every $p \in M$, there is a neighborhood $p \in U$ such that $F(U) \subseteq N$ is open and $F|_U: U \rightarrow F(U)$ is a diffeomorphism.

4.2.2 Theorem

Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth between manifolds without boundary. If dF_p is invertible at some $p \in M$, there are connected neighborhoods $p \in U_0$ and $F(p) \in V_0$ such that $F|_{U_0}: U_0 \rightarrow V_0$ is a diffeomorphism.

Proof

dF_p being an isomorphism implies M and N have the same dimension. Take a chart centered at p , (U, φ) , and a chart containing $F(p)$, (V, ψ) , centered at $F(p)$. Then $\hat{F} = \psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}: \varphi(U) \rightarrow \psi(V)$ has $\hat{F}(\hat{p}) = 0$ and $\hat{F}$'s Jacobian at $\hat{p}$ is invertible. The inverse function theorem (the ordinary Euclidean one) implies that there are connected neighborhoods $\hat{U}_0 \subseteq \varphi(U)$ and $\hat{V}_0 \subseteq \psi(V)$ where $\hat{F}|_{\hat{U}_0}: \hat{U}_0 \rightarrow \hat{V}_0$ is a diffeomorphism. Lifting these to M and N shows that $F|_{U_0}: U_0 \rightarrow V_0$ is a diffeomorphism for $U_0 = \varphi^{-1}\hat{U}_0$ and $V_0 = \psi^{-1}\hat{V}_0$. ■

4.2.3 Corollary

A smooth map between manifolds without boundary is a local diffeomorphism iff its differential is invertible at every point.

The following are obvious properties of local diffeomorphisms.

4.2.4 Proposition

- (1) The composition of local diffeomorphisms is a local diffeomorphism;
- (2) Every finite product of local diffeomorphisms is a local diffeomorphism;
- (3) Every local diffeomorphism is a local homeomorphism and an open map;
- (4) The restriction of a local diffeomorphism to an open submanifold with or without boundary is a local diffeomorphism;
- (5) Every diffeomorphism is a local diffeomorphism;
- (6) A bijective local diffeomorphism is a diffeomorphism;

Proof

The only non-obvious claim is the last. Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a bijective local diffeomorphism, then $F^{-1}: N \rightarrow M$ is smooth. This is because for every $F(p) \in N$, there is a neighborhood $F(p) \in V$ where $F^{-1}|_V$ is smooth. Thus by the gluing lemma, F^{-1} is smooth. ■

4.2.5 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a smooth map between manifolds without boundary.

- (1) F is a local diffeomorphism iff it is a smooth immersion and a smooth submersion.
- (2) If $\dim M = \dim N$ then if F is either a smooth immersion or submersion, then F is a local diffeomorphism.

Proof

The first point is clear, and if F is a smooth immersion or submersion, then it must be the other (as injectivity or surjectivity of a linear map between spaces of the same dimension must be invertible). ■

4.2.6 Example

Recall the map $\varepsilon: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ by $\varepsilon(t) = \exp(2\pi it)$. Then ε 's representations are $t \mapsto \cos(2\pi t), \sin(2\pi t)$ which are local diffeomorphisms. So ε is a local diffeomorphism, and its n -fold product $\varepsilon^n: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow T^n$ is as well.

4.2.7 Theorem (Rank theorem)

Suppose M, N are smooth manifolds without boundary with dimensions m, n , and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a map of constant rank r . Then for every $p \in M$ there exist smooth charts (U, φ) centered at p and (V, ψ) centered at $F(p)$ containing $F(U)$, relative to which F has coordinate representation

$$\hat{F}(x^1, \dots, x^r, x^{r+1}, \dots, x^n) = (x^1, \dots, x^r, 0, \dots, 0).$$

In particular, if F is a smooth submersion then $\hat{F}: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^r$ is projection, and if F is a smooth immersion then $\hat{F}: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^r$ is inclusion (appending zeroes).

Proof

Without loss of generality, we can assume $F: U \rightarrow V$ is a smooth map between open subsets of Euclidean space, $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n, V \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m$. The Jacobian $JF(0)$ having rank r means that it has some $r \times r$ minor with nonzero determinant. By reordering coordinates we can assume this is the upper-left minor. Let us label the standard coordinates as $(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^r \times \mathbb{R}^{m-r}$ in the domain and $(v, w) \in \mathbb{R}^r \times \mathbb{R}^{m-r}$ in the codomain.

Then $F(x, y) = (Q(x, y), R(x, y))$ for smooth maps $Q: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^r$ and $R: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{m-r}$, and our assumption means that $JQ(0)$ is non-singular. Define $\varphi: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ by $\varphi(x, y) = (Q(x, y), y)$ so that its Jacobian is

$$J\varphi(0, 0) = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial Q^i}{\partial x^j}(0) & \frac{\partial Q^i}{\partial y^j}(0) \\ 0 & \delta_{ij} \end{pmatrix}.$$

This is non-singular and thus φ restricts to a diffeomorphism in a neighborhood of 0, say U_0 and $\varphi(U_0) = \tilde{U}_0$. We can assume that $\tilde{U}_0$ is an open cube, potentially by shrinking these two sets.

Write $\varphi^{-1}(x, y) = (A(x, y), B(x, y))$ for $A: \tilde{U}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^r$ and $B: \tilde{U}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{m-r}$. Then we have

$$(x, y) = \varphi(A(x, y), B(x, y)) = (Q(A(x, y), B(x, y)), B(x, y)),$$

so $B(x, y) = y$ and φ^{-1} has the form $(x, y) \mapsto (A(x, y), y)$. On the other hand, we have

$$(x, y) = \varphi^{-1}\varphi(x, y) = \varphi^{-1}(Q(x, y), y) = (A(Q(x, y), y), y),$$

and so $A(Q(x, y), y) = x$ and $Q(A(x, y), y) = x$.

Thus

$$F \circ \varphi^{-1}(x, y) = (Q(A(x, y), y), R(A(x, y), y)) = (x, \tilde{R}(x, y))$$

for $\tilde{R}(x, y) = R(A(x, y), y)$. The Jacobian of this map is

$$J(F \circ \varphi^{-1}) = \begin{pmatrix} \delta_{ij} & 0 \\ \frac{\partial \tilde{R}^i}{\partial x^j} & \frac{\partial \tilde{R}^i}{\partial y^j} \end{pmatrix},$$

which has rank r as the product of F and φ^{-1} 's Jacobians, the latter of which is invertible. The first r columns here are obviously linearly independent, and thus the rank of this map is r iff $\partial \tilde{R}^i / \partial y^j$ are zero on $\tilde{U}_0$. Since $\tilde{U}_0$ is a cube, this implies $\tilde{R}$ is independent of $(y^1, \dots, y^{m-r})$ so that if we define $S(x) = \tilde{R}(x, 0)$ then $R(x, y) = S(x)$ for all y and we have

$$F \circ \varphi^{-1}(x, y) = (x, S(x)).$$

Now we want to define a smooth chart in some neighborhood of 0 in V such that

$$\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1} = \psi(x, S(x)) = (x, 0).$$

Let $V_0 = \{(v, w) \in V \mid (v, 0) \in \tilde{U}_0\}$, which is open. Then $F \circ \varphi^{-1}(\tilde{U}_0) \subseteq V_0$ since $\tilde{U}_0$ is an open cube, and thus $F(U_0) \subseteq V_0$. Define $\psi: V_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ by $\psi(v, w) = (v, w - S(v))$, which has inverse $\psi^{-1}(x, y) = (x, y + S(x))$. And then

$$\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}(x, y) = \psi(x, S(x)) = (x, 0)$$

as desired. ■

4.2.8 Corollary

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a smooth map between manifolds without boundary, and M is connected. Then F has constant rank iff for every $p \in M$, F has a coordinate representation which is linear.

Proof

If F has a linear representation in a neighborhood of each point, then F has constant rank in a neighborhood of each point. By connectedness, F has constant rank.

Conversely, if F has constant rank, then apply the rank theorem as above. ■

4.2.9 Theorem (Global rank theorem)

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is as above of constant rank, then

- (1) if F is surjective, it is a smooth submersion;
- (2) if F is injective, it is a smooth immersion;
- (3) if F is bijective, it is a diffeomorphism.

Proof

Let m, n be the dimensions of M, N respectively, and r the rank of F . If F is not a smooth submersion then $r < n$. Consider then a coordinate representation of F with respect to $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ which is a projection. Without loss of generality, $F(\bar{U}) \subseteq V$.

Then $F(\bar{U})$ is a compact subset of $\{y \in V \mid y^{r+1} = \dots = y^n = 0\}$, and is thus closed in N . But it can't

contain any open subset of N , and thus is nowhere dense. If we choose countably many charts covering M , (U_i, φ_i) , then $F(M)$ is the union of the nowhere dense sets $F(\overline{U_i})$, and thus has empty interior. So F cannot be surjective.

If F is not a smooth immersion, then for $p \in M$ we have a coordinate representation as in the rank theorem. But such a coordinate representation is not injective, so F cannot be.

The last point is because the previous two points imply F is a bijective local diffeomorphism, thus it is a diffeomorphism. ■

4.3 Embeddings

4.3.1 Definition

A **smooth embedding** is a smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$ which is a topological embedding (a homeomorphism onto its image), and a smooth immersion.

A smooth embedding is not just a smooth topological embedding!

4.3.2 Example

The inclusion of an open subset of a manifold in the manifold is a smooth embedding.

4.3.3 Example

For $M = M_1 \times \cdots \times M_n$ and $p_i \in M_i$, the maps

$$\iota_j: M_j \rightarrow M, \quad \iota_j(q) = (p_1, \dots, q, \dots, p_n)$$

are smooth embeddings. They can be given coordinate representations $\bar{x} \mapsto (\bar{x}, 0)$ which is clearly a smooth embedding.

4.3.4 Proposition

Suppose M, N are smooth manifolds and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is an injective smooth immersion. If any of the following hold, it is a smooth embedding.

- (1) F is open or closed;
- (2) F is proper (preimages of compact subsets are compact);
- (3) M is compact;
- (4) M has empty boundary and $\dim M = \dim N$.

Proof

If F is open or closed and injective, it is a topological embedding, proving (1). If F is proper, it is closed. If M is compact, then F is proper (since preimages of compact subspaces are closed in M and thus compact). Now suppose M has empty boundary and $\dim M = \dim N$. Since dF_p is an isomorphism, we must have $F(M) \subseteq \text{Int}N$. Thus $F: M \rightarrow \text{Int}N$ is a local diffeomorphism, and thus open. So F is a composition of open maps, and by (1) is a smooth embedding. ■

4.3.5 Theorem (Local embedding theorem)

If M, N are manifolds with or without boundary and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, then F is a smooth immersion iff every point in M has a neighborhood U such that $F|_U: U \rightarrow N$ is a smooth embedding.

Proof

If every point has a neighborhood where F is a smooth embedding, then F has full rank and is thus a smooth immersion.

Conversely if F is a smooth immersion, then the rank theorem shows that F has a coordinate representation of the form $F(\bar{x}) = (\bar{x}, 0)$, which is injective, so $F|_U$ is injective. So we have that for some neighborhood $F|_U$ is injective. Now if $V \subseteq U$ is precompact, then $F|_V$ is a topological embedding as it is injective and proper. Thus $F|_V$ is a topological embedding and a smooth immersion, as desired. ■

4.4 Embedded and immersed submanifolds**4.4.1 Definition**

Let M be a manifold, then an **embedded submanifold** is a subset $S \subseteq M$ which is a manifold without boundary such that the inclusion $S \hookrightarrow M$ is a smooth embedding. For an embedded submanifold $S \subseteq M$, its **codimension** is $\dim M - \dim S$.

Note:

Embedded submanifolds are also called **regular submanifolds**.

Note that $S \hookrightarrow M$ being a smooth embedding is the same as saying that it is a smooth immersion, and S has the subspace topology.

4.4.2 Proposition

The embedded submanifolds of M with codimension 0 are precisely the open subsets of M .

Proof

For $\iota: U \hookrightarrow M$ the inclusion map, we need only show it is a smooth immersion. And ι 's coordinate representation relative to any point in U is just the identity (take the same chart), which is a smooth immersion.

Conversely, if $\iota: U \hookrightarrow M$ is a smooth embedding of codimension 0, then it is a local diffeomorphism. Thus it is open, and so U must be an open subset of M . ■

4.4.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a smooth embedding, then $S = F(M)$ has a unique smooth structure making it an embedded submanifold of N diffeomorphic to M .

Proof

We need to give S the subspace topology relative to N , and then by assumption it is homeomorphic to M .

We need to lift the smooth structure of M to S , that is take charts $(F(U), \varphi \circ F^{-1})$ for a chart (U, φ) for M . This is a smooth structure, and it turns F into a diffeomorphism onto S , and $\iota: S \hookrightarrow N$ into a smooth embedding. ■

4.4.4 Example

Consider the product manifold $M \times N$ where M doesn't have boundary. Then for $p \in N$, $M \times \{p\}$ is an embedded submanifold diffeomorphic to M . Indeed, $F: M \rightarrow M \times N$ given by $x \mapsto (x, p)$ is a smooth embedding with image $M \times \{p\}$.

This embedded submanifold is called a **slice** of the product manifold.

4.4.5 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold, then an **immersed submanifold** is a subset $S \subseteq M$ endowed with a smooth structure making the inclusion $\iota: S \hookrightarrow M$ a smooth immersion. The **codimension** of an immersed submanifold is defined still to be $\dim M - \dim S$.

Since the inclusion is not necessarily a topological embedding, S 's topology need not be the subspace topology.

4.4.6 Proposition

Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is an injective smooth immersion, and let $S = F(M)$. Then S has a unique topology and smooth structure making it an immersed submanifold of N , and $F: M \rightarrow S$ a diffeomorphism onto its image.

Proof

The proof is similar to the one above. Give S the topology where $U \subseteq S$ is open iff $F^{-1}U \subseteq M$ is. Then charts $(F(U), \varphi \circ F^{-1})$ for a chart (U, φ) for M . ■

4.4.7 Proposition

Suppose $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold. Then if any of the following hold, S is embedded:

- (1) S has codimension 0,
- (2) The inclusion map $S \hookrightarrow M$ is proper (preimages of compact sets are compact),
- (3) S is compact.

Proof

If S is compact, then the inclusion map is proper (closed subsets of compact sets are compact), so (2) implies (3). We need only prove the first two points.

If S has codimension 0, then a smooth immersion is a smooth submersion is a local diffeomorphism. Thus the inclusion map is an injective local diffeomorphism, thus a topological embedding. ■

4.4.8 Proposition

If $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold, then for every $p \in S$ there is a neighborhood $p \in U \subseteq S$ which is an embedded submanifold of M .

Proof

We showed above that smooth immersions are locally smooth embeddings. ■

Note that if $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, then

$$F \circ \iota = F|_S: S \rightarrow N$$

is smooth. Thus we can restrict smooth maps to immersed submanifolds. But we can't always restrict the codomains of smooth maps, as the topology of an immersed submanifold differs, and thus the restriction may not even be continuous.

4.4.9 Theorem

Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth and $S \subseteq N$ is an immersed submanifold containing F 's image. If the restriction $F: M \rightarrow S$ is continuous, it is smooth.

Proof

Let $p \in M$ arbitrary, and let $q = f(p) \in S$. Then $\iota: S \rightarrow N$ locally has the representation $\bar{x} \mapsto (\bar{x}, 0)$, let $(V, \psi) \subseteq S$ and $(W, \tilde{\psi}) \subseteq N$ be charts centered at q giving this representation. This means that $\tilde{\psi} \circ \iota \circ \psi^{-1}: \bar{x} \mapsto (\bar{x}, 0)$. If we let π be the projection $(\bar{x}, \bar{y}) \mapsto \bar{x}$, then we have

$$\pi \circ \tilde{\psi} \circ \iota \circ \psi^{-1} = \text{id} \implies \psi = \pi \circ \tilde{\psi} \circ \iota.$$

Since F is continuous, $U = F^{-1}(V_0)$ is an open neighborhood of p in M . Choose a smooth chart (U_0, φ) centered at p with $p \in U_0 \subseteq U$. Then if we denote by $\tilde{F}: M \rightarrow S$ the restriction onto the codomain, we have $\iota \circ \tilde{F} = F$, and

$$\psi \circ \tilde{F} \circ \varphi^{-1} = \pi \circ \tilde{\psi} \circ \iota \circ \tilde{F} \circ \varphi^{-1} = \pi \circ \tilde{\psi} \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1},$$

which is smooth, as F and π are. ■

4.4.10 Corollary

Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth and $S \subseteq N$ is an embedded submanifold containing F 's image. Then the restriction of F to $M \rightarrow S$ is smooth.

Proof

The restriction of a continuous map to its image is continuous with respect to the subspace topology, which S has. ■

Note that if $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold, then by definition $d\iota_p: T_p S \rightarrow T_p M$ is an injection for every $p \in S$. Thus we can and will identify $T_p S$ with its image in $T_p M$. Recall that for $f \in C^\infty(M)$ and $v \in T_p S$,

$$d\iota_p v(f) = v(f \circ \iota) = v(f|_S).$$

4.4.11 Proposition

Let $S \subseteq M$ be an immersed submanifold, with a point $p \in S$. Then the tangent space $T_p S \subseteq T_p M$ is characterized by

$$T_p S = \{v \in T_p M \mid v f = 0 \text{ for all smooth real-valued functions } f \text{ which are zero on } S\}.$$

Proof

If $v \in T_p S$ then clearly $d\iota_p v(f) = v(f|_S) = 0$ if $f|_S = 0$. So clearly the lefthand side is contained in the right. Conversely if $v(f) = 0$ for all $f|_S = 0$, then we need to find a origin for v in $T_p S$.

Let $(U, \varphi) \subseteq S$ and $(V, \psi) \subseteq M$ be charts centered at p for which ι 's coordinate representation is $\bar{x} \mapsto (\bar{x}, 0)$ for $\bar{x} = (x^1, \dots, x^k)$. Then we see that $T_p S \subseteq T_p M$ is spanned by $\partial/\partial x^1|_p, \dots, \partial/\partial x^k|_p$. Now we write v in terms of the entire basis set,

$$v = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p.$$

Consider a bump function h supported in U which is equal to 1 in a neighborhood of p , and define $f(x) = h(x)x^j$ for $j > k$. Then f vanishes on S , but is identically 1 in a neighborhood of p so that

$$0 = v(f) = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \frac{\partial h(x)x^j}{\partial x^i}(p) = v^j,$$

as desired. ■

4.4.12 Definition

Let $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ be any map and $c \in N$. Then Φ 's preimage on c , $\Phi^{-1}c$, is called a **level set** of Φ .

4.4.13 Proposition

Let $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth with constant rank r . Then each level set of Φ is an embedded submanifold of M of codimension r .

Proof

Let $m = \dim M, n = \dim N, k = m - r$, and choose $c \in N$. Let $S = \Phi^{-1}c \subseteq M$ be the level set at c . Then for every $p \in S$, there are smooth charts centered at $p \in (U, \varphi)$ and $c \in (V, \psi)$ such that Φ has the representation

$$\psi \circ \Phi \circ \varphi^{-1}: (x^1, \dots, x^m) \mapsto (x^1, \dots, x^r, 0, \dots, 0).$$

Then for $q \in U \cap S$, we have that $\psi \circ \Phi(q) = \psi(c) = 0$ meaning $\varphi(q) = (x^1, \dots, x^r, x^{r+1}, \dots, x^m)$ where $x^1, \dots, x^r = 0$. Thus we can define $\tilde{\varphi}: U \cap S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ as the projection of φ onto its last k coordinates. These are homeomorphisms as they just map $\varphi(S \cap U) \cong 0 \times \mathbb{R}^k \cong \mathbb{R}^k$, and they are smoothly compatible. Thus they form a smooth atlas for S .

The inclusion is a smooth embedding, as $\varphi \circ \iota \circ \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}: \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is just the inclusion and thus has full rank. ■

4.4.14 Corollary

If $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ is a smooth submersion, then each level set of Φ is an embedded submanifold of M with codimension $\dim N$.

4.4.15 Definition

If $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, then a point $p \in M$ is a **regular point** of Φ if Φ 's rank at p is $\dim N$, and otherwise is a **critical point**.

A point $c \in N$ is a **regular value** if each $p \in \Phi^{-1}c$ is a regular value, and a **critical value** otherwise.

If $c \in N$ is a regular value, then $\Phi^{-1}c$ is called a **regular level set**. That is, it is a level set all of whose points are regular.

Note that if $\Phi^{-1}c = \emptyset$, then c is a regular value. If Φ is a smooth submersion, then every point is regular (these are of course equivalent), and thus all of its level sets are regular. We can then improve the above corollary.

4.4.16 Corollary

Every regular level set of a smooth map is an embedded submanifold of the domain whose codimension is equal to the dimension of the codomain.

Proof

Let $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, and $c \in N$ a regular value. Let $U \subseteq M$ be the set of points $p \in M$ where $d\Phi_p = \dim N$. For $p \in U$ we can take a coordinate representation of Φ in a neighborhood of U , call it $\hat{\Phi}$. Then $J\hat{\Phi}(p)$ has full rank, and then must have full rank in a neighborhood of p , since $q \mapsto J\hat{\Phi}(q)$ is continuous and the set of matrices of full rank is open. Thus U is an open set, and thus an embedded submanifold of M , and contains $\Phi^{-1}c$ by assumption.

Thus $\Phi|_U: U \rightarrow N$ is a smooth submersion, and by the above corollary $\Phi^{-1}c \subseteq U$ is an embedded submanifold. An embedded submanifold of an embedded submanifold is an embedded submanifold (the composition of smooth embeddings is a smooth embedding), so $\Phi^{-1}c$ is an embedded submanifold of M . ■

4.5 Submersions

A **section** of a map $\pi: M \rightarrow N$ is a map $\sigma: N \rightarrow M$ which is a right inverse: $\pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}_N$. If our maps are continuous or smooth, we speak of continuous or smooth sections. A **local section** is a continuous map $\sigma: U \rightarrow M$ defined in an open subset of N where $\pi \circ \sigma_U = \text{id}_U$.

4.5.1 Theorem

If $\pi: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, then it is a smooth submersion iff every point of M is in the image of a smooth local section.

Proof

If π is a smooth submersion, then it has the local representation $(x^1, \dots, x^m) \mapsto (x^1, \dots, x^n)$ around any point $p \in M$. For $\varepsilon > 0$ small enough, the coordinate cube $C_\varepsilon = \{x \mid |x^i| < \varepsilon \text{ for } i = 1, \dots, m\}$ is an open neighborhood centered at p whose image under π is the coordinate cube $C'_\varepsilon = \{y \mid |y^i| < \varepsilon \text{ for } i = 1, \dots, n\}$. Then defining $\sigma: C'_\varepsilon \rightarrow C_\varepsilon$ by $\sigma(y) = (y, 0)$ gives a local section of π and $p = \sigma(0)$ as desired.

Conversely let $\sigma: U \rightarrow M$ be a local section with p in its image, say $p = \sigma(q)$. Then since $\pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}_U$, we have that $d\pi_p \circ d\sigma_q = \text{id}_{T_q N}$, which means $d\pi_p$ must be surjective. ■

This allows us to extend the definition of a smooth submersion to a topological one: a **topological submersion** is a continuous map $X \rightarrow Y$ such that every point of X is in the image of a local section of the map. This theorem shows that a smooth submersion is just a smooth topological submersion.

4.5.2 Definition

Recall that a continuous map $\pi: X \rightarrow Y$ is a **quotient map** if it is surjective and Y 's topology is the quotient topology induced by π . That is, $U \subseteq Y$ is open iff $\pi^{-1}U \subseteq X$ is.

Note that a quotient map is just a surjective, continuous, and open (equivalently closed) map.

4.5.3 Proposition

Let $\pi: M \rightarrow N$ be a smooth submersion. Then π is an open map, and if it is surjective it is a quotient map.

Proof

Let $W \subseteq M$ open, and $q \in \pi(W)$. Then for any $p \in W$ such that $\pi(p) = q$, there is a neighborhood U of p and a local section $\sigma: U \rightarrow M$ such that $\sigma(q) = p$. (Note that p being in the image of σ requires $\sigma(q) = p$, since if $\sigma(r) = p$ then $r = \pi\sigma(r) = \pi(p) = q$.) Then for $y \in \sigma^{-1}(W)$, since $\sigma(y) \in W$ we have that $y \in \pi(W)$. And then $\sigma^{-1}(W)$ is an open subset of $\pi(W)$ containing q , and so $\pi(W)$ is open.

Thus π is an open map. Surjective open continuous maps are quotient maps. ■

4.5.4 Theorem

Let $\pi: M \rightarrow N$ be a surjective smooth submersion. Then for any manifold P , a map $F: P \rightarrow N$ is smooth iff $F \circ \pi: M \rightarrow P$ is smooth.

Proof

If F is smooth then so is $F \circ \pi$. Conversely if $F \circ \pi$ is smooth, let $q \in N$ and since π is surjective, there is a $p \in M$ with $\pi(p) = q$. And then there is a local section $\sigma: U \rightarrow M$ with U a neighborhood of q , and $\sigma(q) = p$. Then $\pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}_U$ implies

$$F|_U = F|_U \circ \text{id}_U = F|_U \circ (\pi \circ \sigma) = (F \circ \pi) \circ \sigma,$$

which is smooth. So for every point in N , there is a neighborhood around it in which F is smooth. Thus F is smooth. ■

4.5.5 Theorem

Let $\pi: M \rightarrow N$ be a surjective smooth submersion. If $F: M \rightarrow P$ is smooth which is constant on the fibers of π , there is a unique map $\tilde{F}: N \rightarrow P$ such that $F = \tilde{F} \circ \pi$.

Proof

As a quotient space, there is a continuous $\tilde{F}$ satisfying this. Then since $\tilde{F} \circ \pi$ is smooth, so is $\tilde{F}$. ■

5 Sard's Theorem

5.1 Sets of measure zero

5.1.1 Definition

Recall that a subset $S \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is said to be of **measure zero** if for every $\varepsilon > 0$, S can be covered by a countable collection of open rectangles where the sum of their volume is less than ε . Equivalently, S literally has zero measure with respect to the Lebesgue measure on $\mathbb{R}^n$.

5.1.2 Lemma

Suppose that $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is measurable (including Borel subsets), such that for every $c \in \mathbb{R}$, A 's intersection with $\{c\} \times \mathbb{R}^{n-1}$ has $(n-1)$ -dimension measure zero. Then A has measure zero.

Proof

A is measurable and so its indicator function χ_A is integrable. By Fubini's theorem,

$$\mu(A) = \int_{\mathbb{R}^n} \chi_A d(x^1, \dots, x^n) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \int_{\mathbb{R}^{n-1}} \chi_A(c, x^2, \dots, x^n) d(x^2, \dots, x^n) dx^1,$$

where μ is the Lebesgue measure. Now the integral of $\chi_A(c, \bar{x})$ is the measure of the intersection of A with $\{c\} \times \mathbb{R}^{n-1}$, which we assumed to be zero. Thus the integral is zero and A has measure zero. ■

5.1.3 Proposition

Let A be open or closed in $\mathbb{R}^{n-1}$ or $\mathbb{H}^{n-1}$, and $f: A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ continuous. Then f 's graph has measure zero in $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof

Note that f 's graph is closed: it is the preimage of 0 under the map $g: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ mapping $(\bar{x}, a)$ to $f(\bar{x}) - a$. For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, f 's graph's intersection with $\{c\} \times \mathbb{R}^{n-1}$ is the graph of the function mapping $x \in \mathbb{R}^{n-2}$ to $f(c, x)$, i.e. the graph of the restriction of f to $\mathbb{R}^{n-2}$. We can then induct, showing that for every $c \in \mathbb{R}$ these have measure zero, and then appeal to the above lemma. ■

5.1.4 Corollary

Every proper affine subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ has measure zero.

Proof

If S is an affine subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ of dimension $n-1$, it is the graph of an affine function $\mathbb{R}^{n-1} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. By the above proposition, it has measure zero. ■

5.1.5 Proposition

Suppose $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ has measure zero and $F: A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is smooth. Then $F(A)$ has measure zero.

Proof

For $p \in A$, F extends to an open ball around p . By potentially shrinking the ball, we can extend F to its closure, a compact set $\bar{U}$. A can be covered by countably many $A \cap \bar{U}_s$, so it is sufficient to show that $F(A \cap \bar{U})$ has measure zero.

Since $\bar{U}$ is compact, $|JF(x)|$ is bound by some constant C on it (this is true for all continuous real-valued functions on compact sets). Then we see that $|F(x) - F(y)| \leq C|x - y|$ for all $x, y \in \bar{U}$. Since A has measure zero, for any $\varepsilon > 0$ we can cover $A \cap \bar{U}$ with balls $\{B_j\}$ of total measure $< \varepsilon$. By Lipschitz continuity, $F(B_j)$'s measure is bound by C times B_j 's, so that

$$\mu F(A \cap \bar{U}) \leq \sum_j \mu F(B_j) \leq \sum_j C \mu(B_j) < C\varepsilon.$$

Since ε is arbitrary, we have the desired result. ■

Note:

In the above proof we used the fact that smooth functions from a compact set are Lipschitz continuous. Indeed, if $F: \bar{U} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is smooth (even C^1), then let $|JF(x)| \leq C$ for all $x \in \bar{U}$, then

$$F(y) - F(x) = \int_0^1 \frac{d}{dt} F(x + t(y - x)) dt$$

by the fundamental theorem of calculus. Now,

$$\frac{d}{dt} F(x + t(y - x)) = (y - x) JF(x + t(y - x))$$

so we have that

$$|F(y) - F(x)| = \left| \int_0^1 (y - x) JF(x + t(y - x)) dt \right| \leq \int_0^1 |y - x| |JF(x + t(y - x))| dt.$$

We can bound the Jacobian by C , giving us

$$\leq |y - x| \int_0^1 C = C |y - x|$$

as desired.

5.1.6 Definition

If M is a smooth n -manifold, with or without boundary, a subset $A \subseteq M$ has **measure zero** if for every smooth chart (U, φ) for M , $\varphi(A \cap U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ has measure zero.

5.1.7 Lemma

Let $(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)$ be a collection of smooth charts covering M . If $A \subseteq M$ is a subset where $\varphi(A \cap U_\alpha)$ has measure zero for all α , then A has measure zero.

Proof

Let (V, ψ) be an arbitrary smooth chart, we need to show $\psi(A \cap V)$ has measure zero. For each α , consider

$$\psi(A \cap V \cap U_\alpha) = (\psi \circ \varphi_\alpha)^{-1} \circ \varphi_\alpha(A \cap V \cap U_\alpha),$$

which has measure zero by the above proposition. Since $\psi(A \cap V)$ is covered by countably many of these, it has measure zero. ■

5.1.8 Proposition

Let $A \subseteq M$ be a subset with measure zero. Then $M - A$ is dense in M .

Proof

If not, then there is an open subset U contained in A . Let (V, φ) be a chart contained in $U \subseteq V$, then $\varphi(A \cap V) = \varphi(V)$, which is nonempty open in $\mathbb{R}^n$. But open subsets of $\mathbb{R}^n$ cannot have measure zero (they contain an open ball/rectangle which by definition has positive measure), a contradiction. ■

5.1.9 Theorem

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, and $A \subseteq M$ of measure zero. Then $F(A) \subseteq N$ has measure zero.

Proof

Let $(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)$ cover M , and let (V, ψ) be a chart for N . Then $\psi(F(A) \cap V)$ can be covered by $\psi \circ F \circ \varphi_\alpha^{-1}(\varphi_\alpha(A \cap U_\alpha \cap F^{-1}(V)))$. Now $\psi \circ F \circ \varphi_\alpha^{-1}$ is a smooth Euclidean map, and $\varphi_\alpha(A \cap U_\alpha \cap F^{-1}(V))$ has measure zero by assumption, so these coverings have measure zero. Thus so does $\psi(F(A) \cap V)$ as desired. ■

5.1.10 Definition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth. A point $p \in M$ is a **regular point** of F if F has rank $\dim N$ at p , otherwise it is a **critical point**. The image of a regular point is called a **regular value**, and the image of a critical point is a **critical value**.

In other words, a point is a regular point iff $dF_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_p N$ is a surjection. Notice that if $\dim M < \dim N$, every point is critical.

5.1.11 Theorem (Sard's theorem)

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth map. Then the set of critical values has measure zero in N .

Proof

Let $m = \dim M, n = \dim N$, we induct on m . For $m = 0$ it is clear: either $n = 0$ for which F has no critical points, or $n > 0$ and all points are critical but M is countable and thus $F(M) \subseteq N$ has measure zero.

By covering F with countably many smooth charts, we can reduce this to the case that F is a smooth map from an open subset U of $\mathbb{R}^m$ or $\mathbb{H}^m$ to $\mathbb{R}^n$. Let $C \subseteq U$ be the set of critical points of F . Define

$$C_k = \{x \in C \mid \text{For } 1 \leq i \leq k, \text{ all of the } i\text{th partial derivatives of } F \text{ vanish at } x\}.$$

Then C_k is decreasing, $C \supseteq C_1 \supseteq C_2 \supseteq \dots$, and by continuity they are all closed in U .

Now we prove in three parts that $F(C)$ has measure zero.

- (1) Firstly, $F(C - C_1)$ has measure zero. Because C_1 is closed in U , we can take $U = U - C_1$ and assume $C_1 = \emptyset$. Let $a \in C$, so we assumed that F 's first partial derivatives are not all 0 at a . Without loss of generality, $\partial F / \partial^1 x^1(a) \neq 0$. So we can define new smooth coordinates $(u, v) = (u, v^2, \dots, v^m)$ in a neighborhood of a , where $u = F^1$ and $v^i = x^i$. This is because the Jacobian of these coordinates is invertible at a and thus locally a diffeomorphism. Let V_a be the neighborhood of a using these coordinates, and potentially shrinking it, we can assume $\bar{V}_a$ is compact in U .

In these coordinates, F has representation

$$F(u, v^2, \dots, v^m) = (u, F^2(u, v), \dots, F^n(u, v)),$$

so its Jacobian is

$$JF(u, v) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ * & \frac{\partial F^i}{\partial v^j} \end{pmatrix}.$$

Thus $C \cap \bar{V}_a$ consists of points the $(n-1) \times (m-1)$ matrix $\frac{\partial F^i}{\partial v^j}$ has rank $< n-1$.

We wish to show that $F(C \cap \bar{V}_a)$ has measure zero in N . This set is compact, and thus measurable, so it is sufficient to show that its intersection with the hyperplane $y^1 = c$ has $n-1$ -dimensional measure zero. For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, define $B_c = \{v \mid (c, v) \in \bar{V}_a\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{m-1}$, and define $F_c: B_c \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n-1}$ by

$$F_c(v) = (F^2(c, v), \dots, F^n(c, v)).$$

Because $F(c, v) = (c, F_c(v))$, the critical values of $F|_{\bar{V}_a}$ which lie in the hyperplane $y^1 = c$ are precisely the points of the form (c, w) where w is a critical value of F_c . By induction, these have $n-1$ -dimensional measure zero, so $F(C \cap \bar{V}_a)$ has measure zero.

We can cover U with countably many sets of the form $\bar{V}_a$, and thus C by countably many sets of the form $C \cap \bar{V}_a$. Thus $F(C)$ is the countable union of sets of measure zero, and thus has measure zero.

- (2) For the second step, we claim $F(C_k - C_{k+1})$ has measure zero for each k . As before, we can take $U = U - C_{k+1}$ and assume that every point in C_k has a $k+1$ th partial derivative which does not vanish. Let $a \in C_k$, and denote by $y: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ some k th partial derivative of F which has a nonvanishing partial derivative at a . Since $a \in C_k$ we have that $y(a) = 0$.

Then a is a regular point of y , so it has a neighborhood V_a consisting of regular points of y . Let Y be the zero set of y in V_a , i.e. $Y = y^{-1}0$. Since V_a are regular points of y , by definition Y is a regular level set, and thus an embedded submanifold of V_a of codimension 1. Since V_a is open, Y is an embedded submanifold of M of dimension $m-1$.

For any $p \in C_k \cap V_a$, dF_p is not surjective (by assumption, p is critical), so then neither is $d(F|_Y)_p = (dF_p)|_{T_p Y}$. So $F(C_k \cap V_a)$ is contained in the critical values of $F|_Y: Y \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$, which by induction has measure zero. Since U can be covered by countably many V_a , the result follows.

- (3) Now, notice that the intersection of all $C - C_1$ and $C_k - C_{k+1}$ need not be all of C : we may have points in C all of whose partial derivatives vanish. So for our final step, we claim that for $k > m/n + 1$, $F(C_k)$ has measure zero.

For $a \in U$, let $E \subseteq U$ be a closed cube containing a . Since U can be covered by countably many such cubes, we will show $F(C_k \cap E)$ has measure zero for all such closed cubes.

Since E is compact, we can find a value $A > 0$ which bounds the absolute values of all of F 's $k+1$ th partial derivatives in E . Let R be the side length of E , and let K be some integer to be chosen. Then we can subdivide E into K^m subcubes of side length R/K , denoted by $(E_1, \dots, E_{K^m})$. If E_i is a cube and there is an $a_i \in E_i \cap C_k$, then for all $x \in E_i$ we have

$$|F(x) - F(a_i)| \leq A' |x - a_i|^{k+1}$$

for some value A' dependent only on A, k, m . This means that $F(E_i)$ is contained in a ball of radius $A'(R/K)^{k+1}$, so of measure $A''(R/K)^{nk+n}$. Then $F(C_k \cap E)$ is contained in the union of K^m balls of this radius. So its measure is bound by

$$K^m \cdot A''(R/K)^{nk+n} = A'' R^{nk+n} K^{nk+n-m}.$$

By assumption $nk + n - m < 1$, so this can be made arbitrarily small by taking large enough K , so $F(C_k \cap E)$ has measure zero.

Now, we just note that

$$C = (C - C_1) \cup \bigcup_k (C_k - C_{k+1}) \cup \bigcup_{k > m/n + 1} C_k,$$

a countable union of sets of measure zero, and thus C has measure zero. ■

Note:

In the above proof we had a point where we had a bound like

$$|F(x) - F(a)| \leq A |x - a|^{k+1}.$$

We obtain this bound by considering each of F 's coordinate's Taylor expansions.

If $f: W \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is smooth and defined in some convex subset W , then take f 's k th order Taylor expansion $P_k(x)$ around $a \in W$. Its remainder can be bound by

$$|f(x) - P_k(x)| \leq \frac{n^{k+1}M}{(k+1)!} |x - a|^{k+1},$$

as well as

$$|P_k(x) - f(a)| \leq \frac{kn^k M}{k!} |x - a|^k$$

(Just take a good look at the remainder and polynomial expressions, here M is a bound on the partial derivatives.) Then we have

$$|f(x) - f(a)| \leq |f(x) - P_k(x)| + |P_k(x) - f(a)| \leq A |x - a|^{k+1}$$

for some absolute constant A dependent only on n, k , and M (a bound on the partial derivatives). We then get that

$$|F(x) - F(a)| = \sqrt{\sum_i |F^i(x) - F^i(a)|^2} \leq nA |x - a|^{k+1}.$$

6 Orientations

6.0.1 Definition

An atlas $\mathcal{A}$ on a smooth manifold M is **oriented** if for every two charts $(U, \varphi), (V, \psi)$ in $\mathcal{A}$ and $p \in U \cap V$,

$$\det(d(\psi \circ \varphi^{-1})_{\varphi p}) > 0$$

where the differential of $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is taken with respect to the standard basis, i.e. the Jacobian.

A pair $(M, \mathcal{A})$ where $\mathcal{A}$ is an oriented atlas on the smooth manifold M is called an **oriented smooth manifold**.

6.0.2 Definition

Let $(M, \mathcal{A}), (N, \mathcal{B})$ be oriented manifolds. A diffeomorphism $F: M \rightarrow N$ **preserves orientation** if for every two charts $(U, \varphi) \in \mathcal{A}, (V, \psi) \in \mathcal{B}$:

$$\det(d(\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1})_{\varphi p}) > 0$$

for all $p \in U \cap F^{-1}V$.

Note that $\det(d(\varphi \circ F^{-1} \circ \psi^{-1}))$ is the multiplicative inverse of $\det(d(\psi \circ F \circ \varphi^{-1}))$ and so F preserves orientation $(M, \mathcal{A}) \rightarrow (N, \mathcal{B})$ iff $F^{-1}: (N, \mathcal{B}) \rightarrow (M, \mathcal{A})$ does. Furthermore, by multiplicativity of the determinant and functoriality of the differential, the composition of orientation-preserving maps is also orientation-preserving.

6.0.3 Definition

Two oriented atlases on M are equivalent if id_M preserves orientation. An **orientation** on M is a choice of one of these equivalence classes.

A smooth manifold M is **orientable** if it has an orientation.

By the above discussion, this is indeed an equivalence and thus well-defined. Not every smooth manifold is orientable!

6.0.4 Lemma

If M has an atlas $\mathcal{A}$ consisting of just two charts $(U_1, \varphi_1), (U_2, \varphi_2)$ such that $\varphi_1(U_2)$ is connected, then M is orientable.

Proof

If $\mathcal{A}$ is already an oriented atlas, then we are finished. Otherwise $\det(d\varphi_2 \circ \varphi_1^{-1})$ is not positive for all $p \in \varphi_1(U_2)$. Since $\varphi_1(U_2)$ is connected and the determinant is continuous and never zero, it must always be negative. So define $\varphi'_2 = r \circ \varphi_2$ and $U'_2 = \varphi_2^{-1}(r^{-1} \circ \varphi_2(U_2))$ where r is the map

$$r: \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n, (x_1, \dots, x_n) \mapsto (-x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n).$$

r 's Jacobian has determinant -1 , and so

$$\det(d\varphi'_2 \circ \varphi_1^{-1}) = \det(dr) \cdot \det(d\varphi_2 \circ \varphi_1^{-1}) = -\det(d\varphi_2 \circ \varphi_1^{-1}) > 0.$$

Thus this new atlas is oriented, as desired. ■

6.0.5 Example

S^n is orientable: recall that we have atlases $(U_i^\pm, \varphi_i^\pm)$ where $U_i^\pm = \{\bar{x} \in S^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid \pm x^i > 0\}$ and $\varphi_i^\pm$ removes the i th coordinate. We see that all the φ_i^+ and φ_i^- are compatible orientation-wise amongst themselves but not together. Thus we can swap φ_i^- with $r\varphi_i^-$ to get an orientation.

7 Lie Groups

7.1 Basic definitions

7.1.1 Definition

A **Lie group** is a smooth manifold G without boundary, along with smooth maps

$$m: G \times G \rightarrow G, \quad i: G \rightarrow G$$

turning G into a group with multiplication given by m and inversion given by i .

Note:

A Lie group is a special type of **topological group**, which is a group which is also a topological space

making multiplication and inversion into continuous functions.

Note that G is a Lie group iff the map $(g, h) \mapsto gh^{-1}$ is smooth. This map is a composition of multiplication and inversion, so if G is a Lie group it is smooth, and conversely we note that it being smooth implies i is smooth, and then that m is smooth.

For a Lie group G and $g \in G$, define **left translation** and **right translation** by

$$L_g, R_g: G \rightarrow G, \quad L_g(h) = gh, \quad R_g(h) = hg.$$

These are smooth maps, as they are simply compositions of m with a suitable inclusion $G \rightarrow G \times G$. Moreso, they are diffeomorphisms: the inverse of L_g is $L_{g^{-1}}$ and similar for right translations.

7.1.2 Example

Euclidean space $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a Lie group under addition, clearly.

7.1.3 Example

The general linear group $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ is an open submanifold of the Euclidean space $\mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R})$. Furthermore it is a Lie group, with multiplication and inversion given by usual multiplication and inversion of matrices. These are smooth, as the coordinates of multiplication are polynomial in their inputs and inversion can be written as

$$A^{-1} = 1/\det(A) \cdot \mathrm{adj}(A),$$

the product of smooth functions (the coordinates of the adjugate are determinants of minors).

Denote by $\mathrm{GL}_n^+(\mathbb{R})$ the subgroup of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ with positive determinant. This is an open subspace of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ (the preimage of $(0, \infty)$) and the restriction of multiplication and inversion to it is still smooth (this is true for embedded submanifolds in general).

Continuing the above example, if G is a Lie group and $H \subseteq G$ is a subgroup which is also an open set, then it is also a Lie group.

7.1.4 Example

The complex general linear group $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{C})$ is the group of invertible matrices in $\mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C})$. This is an open subset of $\mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C}) \cong \mathbb{R}^{2n^2}$ and thus a $2n^2$ -dimensional Lie group.

7.1.5 Definition

If G and H are Lie groups, a **Lie group morphism** $G \rightarrow H$ is a smooth map which is also a group morphism. A **Lie group isomorphism** is a Lie group morphism which is also a diffeomorphism (and in particular a group isomorphism).

7.1.6 Example

Consider $\mathbb{R}$ as a Lie group under addition, and $\mathbb{R}^\times$ a Lie group under multiplication. (We need not show that these are Lie groups again, $\mathbb{R}$ is Euclidean and $\mathbb{R}^\times = \mathrm{GL}_1(\mathbb{R})$.) Then the exponential map, $\exp: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^\times$, is a Lie group morphism. Its image is $\mathbb{R}^+$, and it has an inverse $\log: \mathbb{R}^+ \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, so that $\mathbb{R}^+$ (with multiplication) and $\mathbb{R}$ (with addition) are isomorphic Lie groups.

7.1.7 Example

The determinant $\det: \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{C}) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^\times$ is a Lie group morphism.

Most importantly, if G is a Lie group and $g \in G$, then **conjugation** by g ,

$$C_g: G \rightarrow G, \quad C_g(h) = ghg^{-1}$$

is a Lie group morphism. It is clearly smooth, as a composition of multiplication and inversion, and it is an isomorphism with inverse $C_{g^{-1}}$. Recall that $H \subseteq G$ is **normal** if $C_g(H) = H$ for all $g \in G$.

7.1.8 Theorem

Every Lie group morphism has constant rank.

Proof

Let $F: G \rightarrow H$ be a Lie group morphism, with $e, \bar{e}$ the respective units of the groups. Now let $g_0 \in G$ and notice that

$$F(L_{g_0}(g)) = F(g_0g) = F(g_0)F(g) = L_{F(g_0)}F(g)$$

so that $F \circ L_{g_0} = L_{F(g_0)} \circ F$. Thus we get that

$$dF_{g_0} \cdot d(L_{g_0})_e = d(L_{F(g_0)})_{\bar{e}} \cdot dF_e.$$

Since left translations are diffeomorphism, they do not change rank, and thus dF_{g_0} and dF_e have the same rank, meaning F has constant rank. ■

7.1.9 Corollary

A Lie group morphism is an isomorphism iff it is bijective.

Proof

A bijective Lie group morphism is a bijective immersion (by constant rank), thus a diffeomorphism. ■

7.2 Lie subgroups**7.2.1 Definition**

Let G be a Lie group. A **Lie subgroup** of G is a subgroup $H \leq G$ endowed with a smooth structure making it a Lie group and an immersed submanifold.

7.2.2 Proposition

Let G be a Lie group, and $H \leq G$ a subgroup which is an embedded submanifold. Then H is also a Lie group, and thus a Lie subgroup of G .

Proof

Since H is embedded, multiplication $G \times G \rightarrow G$ restricts both on its domain (for all submanifolds) and its codomain (as H is embedded), to give H 's multiplication $H \times H \rightarrow H$. Same for inversion. ■

7.2.3 Lemma

Let G be a Lie group and $H \subseteq G$ an open subgroup. Then H is an embedded Lie subgroup. Moreover, H is also closed, and thus a union of connected components of G .

Proof

By the above proposition, H is an embedded Lie subgroup. Furthermore, each coset gH is open in G as the image of H under the diffeomorphism L_g . Then $G - H = \bigcup_{g \in G-H} gH$ is open, and so H is closed. Clopen sets are unions of connected components. ■

7.2.4 Proposition

Let G be a Lie group, and $W \subseteq G$ an open, then

- (1) W generates an open subgroup of G ,
- (2) if W is a connected neighborhood of the identity, it generates a connected open subgroup of G ,
- (3) if G is connected, then W generates G .

Proof

Denote for arbitrary sets A, B ,

$$AB = \{ab \mid a \in A, b \in B\}, \quad A^{-1} = \{a^{-1} \mid a \in A\}.$$

For each $k > 0$ define by W_k the set of all elements in G that can be written as a product of k or fewer elements of $W \cup W^{-1}$. Then W 's generated subgroup is $\bigcup_{k \geq 0} W_k$.

Note that $W_1 = W \cup W^{-1}$ (we do not allow empty products, defined to be the identity, so if $e \notin W$ then it is not in W_1 , but is in W_2). This is open, as $W^{-1} = i(W)$ is the diffeomorphic image of an open set. And inductively we have

$$W_k = W_1 W_{k-1} = \bigcup_{g \in W_1} L_g(W_{k-1})$$

is open. Thus the subgroup generated by W is a union of open sets and thus open.

If W is a connected neighborhood of e , then so is W^{-1} (as it is the diffeomorphic image of a connected set, and contains e). Then $W_1 = W \cup W^{-1}$ is also a connected neighborhood of e , and inductively so are $W_k = m(W_1 \times W_{k-1})$, thus so is their union. This is because $W_1 \times W_{k-1}$ is connected, and the continuous image of a connected space is connected, and the union of connected spaces with nontrivial intersection is connected (each W_k contains e).

If G is connected, then the subgroup W generates is open by point (1), and thus closed. Only trivial subspaces of a connected space are clopen, so W generates G . ■

For a Lie group G , the connected component containing the identity is called the **identity component**.

7.2.5 Proposition

Let G_0 be the identity component of G . Then G_0 is a normal subgroup of G , and it is the only connected open subgroup. Every connected component of G is diffeomorphic to G_0 .

Proof

Any connected open neighborhood of the identity generates G_0 by the above proposition. It is normal since $C_g(G_0)$ is a connected neighborhood of the identity, and thus contained in G_0 for all g . And L_g maps G_0 diffeomorphically to the connected component of $g \in G$. ■

7.2.6 Proposition

Let $F: G \rightarrow H$ be a Lie group morphism, then $\ker F$ is a properly embedded Lie subgroup of G , whose codimension is equal to F 's rank.

Proof

$\ker F$ is the level set $F^{-1}e$, and since F has constant rank, it is a properly embedded submanifold of G . We already showed that subgroups which are embedded submanifolds of Lie groups are Lie subgroups. ■

7.2.7 Proposition

If $F: G \rightarrow H$ is an injective Lie group morphism, its image has a unique smooth manifold structure turning it into a Lie subgroup of H with F an isomorphism onto its image.

Proof

F is injective of constant rank, and thus an immersion. Thus $F(G)$ has a unique smooth manifold structure turning it into an immersed submanifold of H diffeomorphic to G . Since it is diffeomorphic to G , it is also a Lie group and a subgroup (for obvious algebraic reasons). Thus it is a Lie subgroup. ■

7.2.8 Example

The set $\mathrm{SL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ of $n \times n$ real matrices of determinant 1 is a properly embedded Lie subgroup of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$, as the kernel of the determinant. The rank of the determinant map is 1, so $\mathrm{SL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ has dimension $n^2 - 1$.

7.2.9 Example

The set $\mathrm{SL}_n(\mathbb{C})$ of $n \times n$ complex matrices of determinant 1 is the kernel of the determinant map to $\mathbb{C}^\times$. This is a surjective map, and thus has rank 2 (since $\mathbb{C}^\times$ does). Thus $\mathrm{SL}_n(\mathbb{C})$ is a properly embedded submanifold of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{C})$ of dimension $2n^2 - 2$.

7.2.10 Theorem

Let $H \subseteq G$ be a Lie subgroup. Then H is closed iff it is embedded.

Proof

If H is embedded, let g be a limit point of H (recall that in Hausdorff spaces, a set is closed iff it contains its limit points). Then there is a sequence of elements $h_i \in H$ converging to g . Let (U, φ) be a chart for G containing the identity such that ι 's coordinate representation is concatenation with 0. Then we can take W to be a smaller neighborhood so that $\overline{W} \subseteq U$. We can take a neighborhood V of e such that $g_1 g_2^{-1} \in W$ whenever $g_1, g_2 \in V$. Consider the smooth map $G \times G \rightarrow G$ by $g_1, g_2 \mapsto g_1 g_2^{-1}$ and then take W 's preimage, which is open and thus contains a neighborhood $V_1 \times V_2$ of the identity, and we can shrink them to give $V_1 = V_2 = V$.

Since $h_i g^{-1} \rightarrow e$, we can assume that $h_i g^{-1} \in V$ for all i (since eventually this is true). Thus

$$h_i h_j^{-1} = (h_i g^{-1})(h_j g^{-1})^{-1} \in W$$

for all i, j . Fixing j and letting $i \rightarrow \infty$, we see that $h_i h_j^{-1} \rightarrow g h_j^{-1} \in \overline{W} \subseteq U$. By our assumption, $H \cap U$ is closed and thus $g h_j^{-1} \in H$, so $g \in H$.

Conversely let H be a closed Lie subgroup with $m = \dim H, n = \dim G$. If $m = n$ then it must be embedded as full-rank immersed submanifolds are embedded. So assume $m < n$.

It is sufficient to show that for some $h_1 \in H$ there is a neighborhood $U_1 \subseteq G$ such that $H \cap U_1$ is an embedded submanifold of U_1 . For any other $h \in H$, consider the right translation $L_{h h_1^{-1}}: G \rightarrow G$ which maps H to H and U_1 to a neighborhood U'_1 of h . Then $U'_1 \cap H$ is embedded in U'_1 . So for every $h \in H$ there is a neighborhood $U \subseteq G$ such that $U \cap H$ is embeddable in U . Then by the local slice criterion, H is embeddable in G .

Every immersion is locally an embedding, so let $h_1 \in V \subseteq G$ such that $\iota|_V: V \cap H \rightarrow V$ is an embedding.

TODO: Above

7.3 Lie group actions

Recall that a (left) group action of a group G on a set X is a map $\theta: G \times X \rightarrow X$ written by juxtaposition satisfying

$$g_1(g_2 x) = (g_1 g_2)x, \quad ex = x.$$

A right group action is defined similarly.

7.3.1 Definition

Let G be a topological group and X a topological space. A **continuous (left) group action** of G on X is a group action $\theta: G \times X \rightarrow X$ which is continuous. A **smooth group action** is a group action of a Lie group on a smooth manifold which is smooth.

There is a duality between left and right group actions: a left group action defines a right group action by $xg = g^{-1}x$ and vice versa.

Note that regular group actions can be equivalently characterized as group morphisms $G \rightarrow \text{Sym}(X)$ where $\text{Sym}(X)$ is the set of permutations of X . For continuous group actions, since the category of topological spaces doesn't in general have a right adjoint to products, there isn't in general a topological space like $\text{Sym}(X)$.

But $\cdot \times X$ does have a right adjoint if X is locally compact and Hausdorff. Its right adjoint is Z^X , the set of continuous maps $X \rightarrow Z$, given the compact-open topology: for compact $K \subseteq X$ and open $U \subseteq Z$, we add base sets $V(K, U)$, which are continuous maps $f: X \rightarrow Z$ where $f(K) \subseteq U$. Let $\text{Aut}(X)$ be the topological group of automorphisms of X , viewed as a subspace of X^X . In this case, a continuous group action is the same as a continuous group morphism

$$G \rightarrow \text{Aut}(X).$$

But when $X = M$ is a smooth manifold, we then need to give $\text{Aut}(M)$ a Lie group structure.

For a group action $\theta: G \times M \rightarrow M$, for $g \in G$ we write the map $\theta_g: M \rightarrow M$. These are smooth maps, as θ is, and satisfy

$$\theta_g \circ \theta_h = \theta_{gh}, \quad \theta_e = \text{id}_M.$$

Thus θ_g is a diffeomorphism with inverse $\theta_{g^{-1}}$.

7.3.2 Definition

For a group action of G on M , define

- (1) the **orbit** of $p \in M$ to be $G \cdot p = \{gp \mid g \in G\}$,
- (2) the **stabilizer** of $p \in M$ to be $G_p = \{g \in G \mid gp = p\}$ (also called the **isotropy group**).

The isotropy group is indeed a subgroup of G . The action is

- (1) **transitive** if for every $p, q \in M$ there is a $g \in G$ such that $gp = q$, equivalently M has a single orbit.
- (2) **free** if every isotropy group is trivial: if $gp = p$ then $g = e$.

7.3.3 Example

If G is a Lie group and M a smooth manifold, the **trivial action** of G on M is $gp = p$ for all $g \in G, p \in M$.

7.3.4 Example

$\text{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ has a natural action on $\mathbb{R}^n$ by matrix multiplication: $(A, v) \mapsto Av$. This is clearly a group action, and smooth since its components are all polynomially dependent on the inputs. $\text{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ almost acts transitively: for every $v, u \in \mathbb{R}^n$ which are nonzero there is an invertible matrix A such that $Av = u$. So this action has two orbits: $\mathbb{R}^n - 0$ and 0 .

If $H \subseteq G$ is a Lie subgroup, and G acts on M , then we can restrict the action to H , and it remains smooth. This is because $H \times M$ is an immersed submanifold of $G \times M$.

7.3.5 Example

Left translation defines a smooth action of a Lie group on itself (right translation defines a right smooth action). This is transitive, as $g_2g_1^{-1}$ maps g_1 to g_2 , and it is free. The restriction of this to a Lie subgroup remains free and smooth, but not necessarily transitive.

7.3.6 Example

Conjugation forms a smooth group action of a Lie group on itself.

7.3.7 Definition

If G acts smoothly on two manifold M and N , a **G -equivariant** map $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a smooth map which is equivariant in the usual way:

$$F(g \cdot p) = g \cdot F(p)$$

for all $g \in G, p \in M$.

If the actions of G on M and N are given by θ, φ respectively, this is the same as saying that the following diagram commutes for all $g \in G$:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xrightarrow{\quad F \quad} & N \\ \theta_g \downarrow & & \downarrow \varphi_g \\ M & \xrightarrow{\quad F \quad} & N \end{array}$$

7.3.8 Theorem

Let G act smoothly on M and N such that it acts transitively on M . If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is G -equivariant, it has constant rank.

Proof

For $p, q \in M$ let $g \in G$ be such that $gp = q$ (by transitivity). Then we have $\varphi_g \circ F = F \circ \theta_g$ and thus

$$d(\varphi_g)_{F(p)} \cdot dF_p = dF_q \cdot d(\theta_g)_p,$$

and since the actions are diffeomorphisms, we have that dF_p and dF_q have the same rank, as desired. $\blacksquare$

For a smooth action $\theta: G \times M \rightarrow M$, consider the smooth maps for $p \in M$ defined by

$$\theta^{(p)}: G \rightarrow M, \quad \theta^{(p)}(g) = gp.$$

This is called the **orbit map**, as its image is the orbit $G \cdot p$. The preimage $(\theta^{(p)})^{-1}(p)$ is the isotropy group G_p .

7.3.9 Corollary

For any smooth action θ and $p \in M$, $\theta^{(p)}: G \rightarrow M$ is smooth and has constant rank. Thus the isotropy group $G_p = (\theta^{(p)})^{-1}(p)$ is a properly embedded Lie subgroup of G . If $G_p = \{e\}$, then $\theta^{(p)}$ is injective and thus a smooth immersion, so $G \cdot p$ is an immersed submanifold of M .

Proof

$\theta^{(p)}$ is equivariant relative to the group action of G on itself and G on M :

$$\theta^{(p)}(g_1 g_2) = g_1 g_2 p = g_1 \theta^{(p)}(g_2),$$

and since G acts transitively on above, this has constant rank as above. Thus G_p is a level set of a constant rank map, and thus a properly embedded smooth manifold, and thus a Lie subgroup. If G_p is trivial, then $\theta^{(p)}$ is clearly injective, and thus a smooth immersion, and the result follows. $\blacksquare$

7.3.10 Example

A matrix $A \in \text{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R})$ is **orthogonal** if it preserves the Euclidean dot product:

$$(Ax) \cdot (Ay) = x \cdot y,$$

or equivalently its columns are orthonormal, i.e. $A^\top A = I_n$. Let $O(n)$ be the set of all orthogonal real $n \times n$ matrices. So define $\Phi: GL_n(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$ by $\Phi(A) = A^\top A$, so that $O(n)$ is the level set $\Phi^{-1}I_n$.

To show that $O(n)$ is an embedded submanifold of the general linear group, we will show that it is equivariant for some group action. There is the clear transitive smooth action of $GL_n(\mathbb{R})$ on itself, and define its action on $Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$ by a sort of conjugation:

$$A \cdot X = AXA^\top.$$

Then Φ is equivariant:

$$\Phi(AB) = (AB)(AB)^\top = ABB^\top A^\top = A \cdot \varphi(B),$$

as desired.

$O(n)$ is compact, as it is closed and bounded in $Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$: closed as the preimage of a closed set, and bounded since norms of orthogonal matrices are

$$|A|^2 = \text{tr}(A^\top A) = \text{tr}(I_n) = n,$$

so bound by $\sqrt{n}$.

To compute $O(n)$'s dimension we need to compute Φ 's rank, which we can do at any matrix of our choosing, so take I_n . To do this, we compute $d\Phi$'s image on tangent vectors, viewed as velocity curves. So for $B \in Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$ we consider the curve $\gamma: (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \rightarrow GL_n(\mathbb{R})$ by $\gamma(t) = I_n + tB$. Since $T_{I_n}GL_n(\mathbb{R}) \cong Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$, all curves are uniquely of this form. Then

$$d\Phi_{I_n}(B) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} \Phi \circ \gamma(t) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} (I_n + tB)^\top (I_n + tB) = B^\top + B.$$

Thus $d\Phi$'s image is precisely the symmetric matrices, which has dimension $n + n(n-1)/2 = n(n+1)/2$. And so $O(n)$'s dimension is $n^2 - n(n+1)/2 = n(n-1)/2$.

7.3.11 Example

The **special orthogonal group** of degree n is the set of real orthogonal matrices of determinant 1. That is, $SO(n) = O(n) \cap_n (\mathbb{R})$. Notice that for $A \in O(n)$ we have

$$1 = \det I_n = \det(A^\top A) = \det(A)^2,$$

so that $SO(n)$ is the set of orthogonal matrices of positive determinant, thus an open submanifold of $O(n)$.

7.4 Quotient manifolds

7.4.1 Definition

Let G be a Lie group acting on a smooth manifold M . Define the **orbit space** as usual to be the set of all orbits:

$$M/G = \{G \cdot p \mid p \in M\}.$$

It can be equivalently viewed as the quotient of M by the equivalence that two points are identified if they have the same orbit. This is made into a topological space via the quotient topology: let $\pi: M \rightarrow M/G$ be the projection $p \mapsto G \cdot p$, then $U \subseteq M/G$ is open iff $\pi^{-1}U \subseteq M$ is.

7.4.2 Lemma

The projection map $\pi: M \rightarrow M/G$ is an open map.

Proof

We need to show that for $U \subseteq M$ open, $\pi^{-1} \circ \pi(U) \subseteq M$ is open. We have

$$\pi^{-1} \circ \pi(U) = \{p \in M \mid G \cdot p = G \cdot q \text{ for some } q \in U\} = \bigcup_{g \in G} gU.$$

Where $gU = \theta_g(U)$, which is open as the diffeomorphic image of an open set. Thus $\pi^{-1} \circ \pi(U)$ is open, as desired. ■

7.4.3 Definition

A map between topological spaces is **proper** if its inverse image of compact subsets are compact. A smooth action of G on M is **proper** if the map $\Theta: G \times M \rightarrow M \times M$ given by $\Theta(g, p) = (gp, p)$ is proper.

Note that proper continuous maps $\Theta: X \rightarrow Y$ where Y is locally compact and Hausdorff (e.g. a manifold), then Θ is closed.

7.4.4 Lemma

If a topological group acts continuously and properly on a topological manifold, then its orbit space is Hausdorff.

Proof

Let G be a topological group acting continuously and properly on M , let $\Theta: G \times M \rightarrow M \times M$ be the proper map, and $\pi: M \rightarrow M/G$ the quotient map. Define the relation $\mathcal{O} \subseteq M \times M$ by

$$\mathcal{O} = \Theta(G \times M) = \{(gp, p) \mid g \in G, p \in M\},$$

so that $(p, q) \in \mathcal{O}$ iff they are in the same orbit. Since Θ is proper and thus closed, $\mathcal{O} \subseteq M \times M$ is closed. Now if $Gp \neq Gq$ so that $(p, q) \notin \mathcal{O}$ there is an open neighborhood $V \times U$ containing (p, q) disjoint from $\mathcal{O}$. Then $\pi(U), \pi(V)$ are neighborhoods of $\pi(p), \pi(q)$, since π is open, and they are disjoint. ■

7.4.5 Lemma

Let G be a topological group acting continuously on M . Then the following are equivalent:

- (1) the action is proper;
- (2) if (p_i) is a sequence in M and (g_i) a sequence in G such that both (p_i) and $(g_i p_i)$ converge, then a subsequence of (g_i) converges;
- (3) for every compact $K \subseteq M$, the set $G_K = \{g \in G \mid (gK) \cap K \neq \emptyset\}$ is compact.

Proof

If Θ is proper, and we have sequences as in the first point, then let U, V be precompact neighborhoods of

$p = \lim p_i$ and $q = \lim g_i p_i$ respectively. Then eventually $\Theta(g_i, p_i)$ lie in the compact set $\overline{V} \times \overline{U}$, we can assume they always do. Then $(g_i, p_i) \in \Theta^{-1}(\overline{V} \times \overline{U})$ is compact, and thus there is a subsequence of (g_i, p_i) which converges, and so there is a subsequence of g_i which converges.

Now suppose we have the second point, and let $K \subseteq M$ be compact. Let $g_i \in G_K$ be any sequence of points, so that there are $p_i \in (g_i K) \cap K$, meaning $p_i \in K$ and $g_i^{-1} p_i \in K$. There are then subsequences of p_i and $g_i^{-1} p_i$ which converge, and thus by assumption g_i^{-1} has a subsequence which converges. Thus g_i has a subsequence which converges in G , let its limit be g . Then $g \in G_K$ since if p is the limit of p_i , we have $p \in (gK) \cap K$.

Finally assume that G_K is always compact for compact K . Suppose $L \subseteq M \times M$ is compact, and let $K = \pi_1(L) \cup \pi_2(L) \subseteq M$ where $\pi_i: M \times M \rightarrow M$ are the projections. These are compact as the continuous image of compact sets, then

$$\Theta^{-1}(L) \subseteq \Theta^{-1}(K \times K) = \{(g, p) \mid p \in K, gp \in K\} \subseteq G_K \times K.$$

L is closed and thus compact, so $\Theta^{-1}(L)$ is a closed subset of a compact space, and thus compact. ■

7.4.6 Corollary

Every smooth action by a compact Lie group is proper. ■

Proof

If $(p_i), (g_i)$ are sequences as in the above lemma, then a subsequence of (g_i) converges because G is compact and every sequence has a convergent subsequence. ■

7.4.7 Proposition

If θ is a smooth action of G on M , then for every $p \in M$ the map $\theta^{(p)}$ is proper. Thus the orbit $G \cdot p = \theta^{(p)}(G)$ is closed in M . If G_p is trivial, then $\theta^{(p)}$ is a smooth embedding and thus $G \cdot p$ is a properly embedded submanifold.

Furthermore, the isotropy groups G_p are compact. ■

Proof

For $K \subseteq M$ compact, $(\theta^{(p)})^{-1}(K)$ is a closed subset contained in the compact set $G_{K \cup \{p\}}$, and is thus compact. The rest follows, as $\theta^{(p)}$ is then closed, and if it is also an injection it is a homeomorphism onto its image (as it is closed and continuous).

The isotropy groups G_p are just $G_{\{p\}}$, compact by assumption. ■

7.4.8 Theorem

If G acts freely and properly on M , then M/G has a unique smooth structure making $\pi: M \rightarrow M/G$ into a smooth submersion. ■

Proof

The proof is long, but can be found in Lee's book for example. ■

7.4.9 Theorem

Quotienting is functorial. If G acts freely and properly on both M and N , and $F: M \rightarrow N$ is G -equivariant, there is a unique map $\tilde{F}: M/G \rightarrow N/G$ making the following diagram commute

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xrightarrow{F} & N \\ \pi_M \downarrow & & \downarrow \pi_N \\ M/G & \xrightarrow{\tilde{F}} & N/G \end{array}$$

Proof

Note that $\pi_N \circ F$ is a smooth map which is constant on the fibers of π_M . This is because the fibers of π_M are of the form $\pi_M^{-1}(G \cdot p) = G \cdot p$, and $\pi_N \circ F(G \cdot p) = \pi_N(G \cdot F(p)) = G \cdot F(p)$. Thus there exists a unique smooth $\tilde{F}: M/G \rightarrow N/G$ such that $\tilde{F} \circ \pi_M = \pi_N \circ F$, as desired. ■

Note that $\tilde{F}$ is given by $\tilde{F}(G \cdot p) = G \cdot F(p)$.

7.4.10 Corollary

If $F: G \rightarrow H$ is a Lie group morphism, then $\text{im} F \subseteq H$ is a Lie subgroup.

Proof

We already proved this for injective F , so we reduce this to that case by quotienting F by its kernel. So we show that $\tilde{F}: G/\ker F \rightarrow H$ is a Lie group morphism; it is injective and has image $\text{im} F$, so this will be sufficient. Notice that $\ker F$ is closed, and thus its action on G is proper: if $k_n \in \ker F$ and $g_n \in G$ are sequences such that $g_n, k_n g_n$ converge in G , then k_n converges in G , and since $\ker F$ is closed its limit is in $\ker F$. It is also free, as it inherits this from G 's action on itself, and it is smooth (again as the restriction of G 's multiplication).

Thus $G/\ker F$ is a quotient manifold. It is a Lie group, since the obvious map $G \times G \rightarrow (G/\ker F) \times (G/\ker F)$ is smooth, surjective, and $\ker F$ -equivariant, and the diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccc} G \times G & \xrightarrow{\text{mult}} & G \\ \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ (G/\ker F) \times (G/\ker F) & \xrightarrow{\text{mult}} & G/\ker F \end{array}$$

commutes. Similar for inversion. And $\tilde{F}$ obviously preserves group structure, and is smooth (compose with the projection), so it is an injective Lie group morphism as desired. ■

8 Vector Fields

8.1 Vector fields on manifolds

8.1.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold and TM its tangent bundle. A **vector field** is a section of the map

$\pi: TM \rightarrow M$, meaning a continuous map $X: M \rightarrow TM$ where $\pi \circ X = \text{id}_M$. A vector field is **smooth** if X is. A **rough vector field** is any set-theoretic function $X: M \rightarrow TM$ satisfying $\pi \circ X = \text{id}_M$.

For a vector field X and $p \in M$, we write its value at p as X_p instead of $X(p)$. The requirement that $\pi \circ X = \text{id}_M$ just means that $X(p) \in T_p M$ for all $p \in M$.

If X is a rough vector field on M , then for any point $p \in M$ and a chart (U, φ) containing p , we can write X_p with respect to this chart:

$$X_p = X^i(p) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p.$$

So we have defined functions $X^i: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, called the **component functions** of X .

8.1.2 Proposition

Let X be a rough vector field on a smooth manifold M , and let (U, φ) be a chart for M . The restriction of X to U is smooth iff its component functions with respect to it are.

Proof

Consider the chart for TM corresponding to (U, φ) , i.e. $(\pi^{-1}U, \tilde{\varphi})$. Then X 's representation with respect to these coordinates are

$$\tilde{\varphi} \circ X \circ \varphi^{-1}(\tilde{p}) = \tilde{\varphi} \left(X^i(p) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p \right) = (\tilde{p}, X^1(p), \dots, X^n(p)),$$

which is clearly smooth iff X^i are. ■

8.1.3 Example

If $(U, (x^i))$ is any coordinate chart for M , then the map

$$p \mapsto \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p$$

is a smooth vector field on U , called the i th **coordinate vector field**. It is also denoted $\partial/\partial x^i$.

8.1.4 Example

The vector field V on $\mathbb{R}^n$ whose value at x is

$$V_x = x^i \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_x$$

is smooth, as its coordinates are linear. It is called the **Euler vector field**.

If $U \subseteq M$ is open, then identifying $T_p U$ with $T_p M$, we can identify TU with the open subset $\pi^{-1}U \subseteq TM$. So a vector field on U can be viewed either as a map $U \rightarrow TU$ or $U \rightarrow TM$. The restriction of a vector field on M to U is smooth when the vector field is.

Let $A \subseteq M$ arbitrary, then a **vector field along** A is a continuous map $X: A \rightarrow TM$ satisfying $\pi \circ X = \text{id}_A$, i.e. $X_p \in T_p M$ for each $p \in A$. It is a smooth vector field if it can be extended to a smooth vector field at every point $p \in A$.

8.1.5 Lemma

If $A \subseteq M$ is closed and $X: A \rightarrow TM$ is a smooth vector field along A , then for any open $U \supseteq A$, there is a smooth vector field $\tilde{X}$ on M such that $\tilde{X}|_A = X$ and $\text{supp } \tilde{X} \subseteq U$.

Proof

This proof is similar to the usual extension lemma for Euclidean-valued smooth maps. For $p \in A$ let W_p be a neighborhood of p and $\tilde{X}^p: W_p \rightarrow TM$ a smooth vector field agreeing with X on $W_p \cap A$. Then $\{W_p\} \cup \{M - A\}$ is an open cover of M and thus has a subordinate partition of unity, $\{\varphi_p\} \cup \{\varphi_0\}$.

Define $\tilde{X}: M \rightarrow TM$ for $x \in M$ by

$$\tilde{X}_x = \sum_{p \in A} \varphi_p(x) \tilde{X}_x^p.$$

This is a smooth map, as for a neighborhood of x we can consider the coordinates of $\tilde{X}_x^p$, and this is just a (finite) smooth sum of them. If $x \in A$ then $\tilde{X}_x^p = X_x$ and $\varphi_0(x) = 0$ so that $\tilde{X}_x = X_x$. Furthermore,

$$\text{supp } \tilde{X}_x = \overline{\bigcup_{p \in A} \text{supp } \varphi_p} \subseteq \bigcup_{p \in A} \overline{\text{supp } \varphi_p} \subseteq U$$

as desired. ■

8.1.6 Corollary

For any $p \in M$ and $v \in T_p M$, there is a smooth vector field on M which maps p to v .

Proof

The vector field along $\{p\}$ mapping $p \mapsto v$ is smooth: it can be extended to any chart containing p (as it then has constant components). By the above lemma it can be extended. ■

8.1.7 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold, then the set of its vector fields is denoted $\mathfrak{X}(M)$.

Notice that $\mathfrak{X}(M)$ is a real linear space: for $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ we can define their sum by

$$(X + Y)_p = X_p + Y_p,$$

and for $a \in \mathbb{R}$ we can define

$$(aX)_p = aX_p.$$

These are smooth vector fields by considering their components in each open chart. Clearly these form a real linear space with the zero vector field being the zero vector.

But more so, they actually form a $C^\infty(M)$ -module. For $f \in C^\infty(M)$ and $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ define

$$fX: M \rightarrow TM, \quad (fX)_p = f(p)X_p.$$

Again this is smooth by considering components in each chart.

Thus when we wrote above

$$X_p = X^i(p) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p$$

we could write this relation as a linear combination of fields above $C^\infty(M)$:

$$X = X^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}.$$

More than just being a $C^\infty(M)$ -module, smooth vector fields are also derivations in a sense to be explained. For an open set $U \subseteq M$, $f \in C^\infty(U)$, and $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, we define the function $Xf: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$(Xf)(p) = X_p f,$$

recalling that $X_p \in T_p M$ is a derivation at p . This is a smooth map, again considering components.

Note:

While the notations fX and Xf may seem similar, they are distinct. We could write them more distinctly as $f \cdot X$ and $X(f)$: the former is multiplication in the $C^\infty(M)$ module, while the second is a sort of evaluation.

Because the actions of tangent vectors are locally determined, for $V \subseteq U$ we have that

$$(Xf)|_V = X(f|_V).$$

8.1.8 Proposition

Let $X: M \rightarrow TM$ be a rough vector field, then the following are equivalent:

- (1) X is smooth,
- (2) for every $f \in C^\infty(M)$, the function Xf is smooth on M ,
- (3) for every open $U \subseteq M$ and $f \in C^\infty(U)$, Xf is smooth on U .

Proof

If X and f are smooth, then so is Xf . Indeed, for any chart $(U, (x^i))$ and $x \in U$, we have that

$$Xf(x) = \left(X^i(x) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_x \right) f = X^i(x) \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(x),$$

which is a smooth function of x , since X^i and f are smooth.

To prove the second implication, let $f \in C^\infty(U)$ and $p \in U$, let ψ be a bump function identically equal to one in a neighborhood of p and supported in U . Then $\tilde{f} = \psi f$ is identically equal to f in a neighborhood of p and supported in U . By assumption, $X\tilde{f}$ is smooth, and equal to Xf in a neighborhood of p . Thus Xf is smooth.

For the final implication, if Xf is smooth for any $f \in C^\infty(U)$, let $(U, (x^i))$ be a chart for M and notice that

$$Xx^i = X^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}(x^i) = X^i$$

is then smooth for all i , meaning X is smooth. ■

Note then that a vector field $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ defines a map $C^\infty(M) \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$ by $f \mapsto Xf$. This map is clearly $\mathbb{R}$ -linear, and since $X_p \in T_p M$ we see that

$$X(fg) = fXg + gXf$$

for all $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$, by simply plugging in p . Such a map is called a **derivation**:

8.1.9 Definition

A **derivation** of a commutative R -algebra A is a map $D: A \rightarrow A$ which is R -linear (a module morphism) and satisfies

$$D(fg) = fD(g) + gD(f).$$

8.1.10 Proposition

The derivations of $C^\infty(M)$ are precisely the smooth vector fields over M .

Proof

As we showed, a smooth vector field is a derivation. Conversely let D be a derivation of $C^\infty(M)$; we want to find an $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ such that $Xf = Df$ for all $f \in C^\infty(M)$. For $p \in M$, we must have that

$$X_p f = (Df)(p),$$

so simply define X_p to be this. Since D is a derivation, this is a rough vector field. Furthermore, $Xf = Df$ is smooth for all f (since $Df \in C^\infty(M)$), and by the above proposition means that X is a smooth vector field. ■

Thus we can naturally identify $\mathfrak{X}(M)$ with derivations of $C^\infty(M)$.

8.2 Vector fields and smooth maps**8.2.1 Definition**

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a smooth map, $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{X}(N)$. Then X and Y are **F -related** if for all $p \in M$,

$$dF_p(X_p) = Y_{F(p)}.$$

Not every vector field on M is F -related to a vector field on N . If F is not surjective, then there isn't a clear way to define Y on points outside of F 's image, and if F is not injective we may have conflicting definitions.

8.2.2 Proposition

$X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{X}(N)$ are F -related iff for every smooth real-valued f defined on an open subset of N ,

$$X(f \circ F) = (Yf) \circ F.$$

Proof

For a $p \in M$ and $f \in C^\infty(U)$ for $F(p) \in U \subseteq N$ open

$$X(f \circ F)(p) = X_p(f \circ F) = dF_p(X_p)(f)$$

and

$$((Yf) \circ F)(p) = (Yf)(F(p)) = Y_{F(p)}(f).$$

Thus equality holds iff they are F -related. ■

8.2.3 Proposition

If F is a diffeomorphism, then for every $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ there is a unique vector field on N which is F -related to X . This is called the **pushforward** of X by F , denoted F_*X .

Proof

If Y is F -related to X , we must have

$$Y_q = dF_{F^{-1}q}(X_{F^{-1}q}).$$

This definition is a rough vector field, and it is smooth as the composition

$$Y: N \xrightarrow{F^{-1}} M \xrightarrow{M} TM \xrightarrow{dF} .$$

■

If $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold, then a vector field on M doesn't necessarily restrict to one on S . We say that a vector field $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is **tangent to S at $p \in S$** if $X_p \in T_pS \subseteq T_pM$. It is **tangent to S** if it is tangent to S at every point of S .

8.2.4 Proposition

$X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is tangent to S iff $X(f)|_S = 0$ for all $f \in C^\infty(M)$ such that $f|_S = 0$.

Proof

Recall that

$$T_pS = \{v \in T_pM \mid vf = 0 \text{ for } f \in C^\infty(M) \text{ when } f|_S = 0\},$$

and the result follows. ■

Let $S \subseteq M$ be immersed and $\iota: S \rightarrow M$ the immersion. If $Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is *iota*-related to a vector field $X \in \mathfrak{X}(S)$, then $Y_p = d\iota_p(X_p)$ (the inclusion $T_pS \subseteq T_pM$) is in T_pS and thus tangent to S .

8.2.5 Proposition

If $S \subseteq M$ is immersed and $Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is tangent to S , then there is a unique smooth vector field on S which is ι -related to Y . We denote this vector field by $Y|_S$.

Proof

Since ι is an immersion, $d\iota_p$ is an injection for all $p \in S$ and thus $Y|_S$ is unique if it exists. To show it exists, let $p \in S$ and take a neighborhood $p \in V \subseteq S$ such that $\iota|_V$ is an embedding. Let $(U, (x^i))$ be a slice chart for V centered at p so that $V \cap S$ is the subset where $x^{k+1} = \dots = x^n = 0$, and $(x^1, \dots, x^k)$ form local coordinates for S in $V \cap U$. Now if $Y = Y^1 \frac{\partial}{\partial x^1} + \dots + Y^n \frac{\partial}{\partial x^n}$ in U , then X must have the coordinate representation $Y^1 \frac{\partial}{\partial x^1} + \dots + Y^k \frac{\partial}{\partial x^k}$, which is clearly smooth. ■

8.3 Lie brackets

Vector fields $X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$ are maps $C^\infty(M) \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$, and thus we can compose vector fields: for $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ we have a linear map $XY: C^\infty(M) \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$. But the composition of two vector fields need not be a vector field itself. We can get something closed though.

8.3.1 Definition

For two vector fields $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, define their **Lie bracket** to be the map $[X, Y]: C^\infty(M) \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$ given by

$$[X, Y] = XY - YX.$$

8.3.2 Lemma

The Lie bracket of two vector fields is a vector field.

Proof

Let $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$ be real-valued, then

$$\begin{aligned} [X, Y](fg) &= XY(fg) - YX(fg) = X(fYg + gYf) - Y(fXg + gXf) \\ &= fXYg + YgXf + gXYf + YfXg - fYXg - XgYf - gYXf - XfYg \\ &= fXYg + gXYf - fYXg - gYXf \\ &= f[X, Y](g) + g[X, Y](f). \end{aligned}$$

As desired. ■

By definition,

$$[X, Y]_p f = X_p(Yf) - Y_p(Xf).$$

8.3.3 Proposition

Let $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ with coordinate representations $X = X^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}$ and $Y = Y^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}$ in some local coordinate chart (x^i) for M . Then their Lie bracket has the representation

$$[X, Y] = \left(X^i \frac{\partial Y^j}{\partial x^i} - Y^j \frac{\partial X^i}{\partial x^j} \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j},$$

or more concisely

$$[X, Y] = (XY^j - YX^j) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}.$$

Proof

$[X, Y]$ is smooth, and thus determined by its actions locally. So it is sufficient to compute its components in a single smooth chart, here we have

$$[X, Y]f = X^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \left(Y^j \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^j} \right) - Y^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} \left(X^i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} \right) = X^i \frac{\partial Y^j}{\partial x^i} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^j} + X^i Y^j \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^i \partial x^j} - Y^j \frac{\partial X^i}{\partial x^j} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} - Y^j X^i \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^j \partial x^i}.$$

By symmetry of the second partial derivative, this is equal to

$$[X, Y](f) = X^i \frac{\partial Y^j}{\partial x^i} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^j} - Y^j \frac{\partial X^i}{\partial x^j} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}.$$

This gives the desired result. ■

Notice then for the coordinate vector fields $\partial/\partial x^i$, we have

$$\left[\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} \right] = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \delta_{tj} - \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} \delta_{it} \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^t} = 0,$$

since derivations of constants are zero.

8.3.4 Proposition

The Lie bracket satisfies the following properties.

- (1) The Lie bracket is bilinear:

$$[aX + bY, Z] = a[X, Z] + b[Y, Z], \quad [Z, aX + bY] = a[Z, X] + b[Z, Y].$$

- (2) The Lie bracket is antisymmetric:

$$[X, Y] = -[Y, X].$$

- (3) The Lie bracket satisfies the **Jacobi identity**:

$$[X, [Y, Z]] + [Z, [X, Y]] + [Y, [Z, X]] = 0.$$

- (4) For $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$:

$$[fX, gY] = fg[X, Y] + (fXg)Y - (gYf)X.$$

Proof

By standard computations. ■

8.3.5 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$, $X_1, X_2 \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y_1, Y_2 \in \mathfrak{X}(N)$ such that X_i is F -related to Y_i for $i = 1, 2$. Then $[X_1, X_2]$ is F -related to $[Y_1, Y_2]$.

Proof

We have that

$$X_1 X_2 (f \circ F) = X_1 ((Y_2 f) \circ F) = (Y_1 Y_2 f) \circ F,$$

and similarly

$$X_2 X_1 (f \circ F) = (Y_2 Y_1 f) \circ F.$$

Thus

$$[X_1, X_2](f \circ F) = X_1 X_2 (f \circ F) - X_2 X_1 (f \circ F) = (Y_1 Y_2 f - Y_2 Y_1 f) \circ F = ([Y_1, Y_2] f) \circ F,$$

as desired. ■

8.3.6 Corollary

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a diffeomorphism, and $X_1, X_2 \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ then $F_*[X_1, X_2] = [F_*X_1, F_*X_2]$.

Proof

By above, and the uniqueness of F -relationships for diffeomorphisms. ■

8.3.7 Corollary

If $S \subseteq M$ is immersed, and Y_1, Y_2 are smooth vector fields on M tangent to S , then so is $[Y_1, Y_2]$.

Proof

Being tangent to S is the same as being ι -related to some vector field on S . ■

8.4 Lie algebras of Lie groups

8.4.1 Definition

Let G be a Lie group. A vector field $X \in \mathfrak{X}(G)$ is **left invariant** if it is L_g -related to itself for all $g \in G$. Explicitly,

$$d(L_g)_{g'}(X_{g'}) = X_{g'g}$$

for all $g, g' \in G$.

Since L_g is a diffeomorphism, we can write this as $(L_g)_*X = X$ for all $g \in G$. Because $(L_g)_*$ is linear, the set of all left invariant vector fields over G is an $\mathbb{R}$ -linear subspace of $\mathfrak{X}(G)$.

8.4.2 Proposition

If $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(G)$ are left-invariant, then so is $[X, Y]$.

Proof

For $g \in G$, we have

$$(L_g)_*[X, Y] = [(L_g)_*X, (L_g)_*Y] = [X, Y].$$
■

8.4.3 Definition

An **Lie algebra** over a ring R is an R -module $\mathfrak{g}$ equipped with a **Lie bracket**: an R -bilinear map

$$[\bullet, \bullet]: \mathfrak{g} \times \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{g},$$

which is antisymmetric (meaning $[X, Y] = -[Y, X]$ for all $X, Y \in \mathfrak{g}$), and satisfying the Jacobi identity:

$$[X, [Y, Z]] + [Z, [X, Y]] + [Y, [Z, X]] = 0.$$

We consider here only real Lie algebras (where $R = \mathbb{R}$).

Note:

The Jacobi identity and antisymmetry come together to give a slightly stronger property. Extend the Lie bracket of $\mathfrak{g}$ to finite words over $\mathfrak{g}$: $[\bullet]: \mathfrak{g}^* \rightarrow \mathfrak{g}$, by mapping a word $(X_1, \dots, X_n)$ to

$$[X_1, \dots, X_n] = [X_1, [X_2, \dots, [X_{n-1}, X_n]] \cdots].$$

Define the Lie bracket of the empty word to be 0 and $[X] = X$ for $X \in \mathfrak{g}$. Then for words $W \in \mathfrak{g}^*$ of length ≥ 2 , we have that

$$\sum_{\sigma} [\sigma W] = 0,$$

where the sum is over all cycles in S_n , and σW is obtained by permuting the indices of the word accordingly.

8.4.4 Definition

If $\mathfrak{g}$ is a Lie algebra, a **Lie subalgebra** of $\mathfrak{g}$ is a submodule $\mathfrak{h} \subseteq \mathfrak{g}$ which is closed under the Lie bracket.

A **Lie algebra morphism** is a map between Lie algebras $A: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}$ which is a morphism of modules, and preserves the Lie bracket: $A[X, Y] = [AX, AY]$. A Lie algebra morphism with an inverse is a **Lie algebra isomorphism**. The set-theoretic inverse of a bijective Lie algebra morphism is a Lie algebra morphism, so this is the same as a bijective Lie algebra morphism.

8.4.5 Example

The space of vector fields over M , $\mathfrak{X}(M)$, is a Lie algebra. The space of left-invariant vector fields over a Lie group G is a Lie subalgebra of $\mathfrak{X}(G)$.

8.4.6 Example

If A is an associative algebra (an algebra in the usual sense), then it is also a Lie algebra whose bracket is defined by

$$[X, Y] = XY - YX.$$

In particular $\text{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R})$ is a Lie algebra. When considering $\text{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R})$ as a Lie algebra with this bracket, we denote it by $\mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R})$ (to be explained). Similarly $\text{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C})$ is a Lie algebra, which we denote $\mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{C})$.

Every space can be made into a Lie algebra by making the Lie bracket identically zero. Such Lie algebras are called **Abelian**. If A is an associative commutative algebra, the Lie bracket defined above by $[X, Y] = XY - YX$ is Abelian.

8.4.7 Definition

Let G be a Lie group. Its **Lie algebra** is the space of all left-invariant vector fields in $\mathfrak{X}(G)$. We denote it by $\text{Lie}(G)$.

8.4.8 Theorem

Let G be a Lie group with identity $e \in G$. Then the **evaluation map** $\varepsilon: \text{Lie}(G) \rightarrow T_e(G)$ defined by $\varepsilon(X) = X_e$ is a vector space isomorphism. Thus $\text{Lie}(G)$ is a finite-dimensional space of dimension $\dim G$.

Proof

Clearly the evaluation map is linear. By left-invariance, if $X_e = 0$ then $X_g = d(L_g)_g(X_e) = 0$ for all $g \in G$ so that ε is injective.

Now let $v \in T_e G$, and define the rough vector field v^L on G by

$$v^L|_g = d(L_g)_e(v).$$

That is, v^L 's value at $g \in G$ is the derivation $d(L_g)_e(v)$, which maps $f \in C^\infty(G)$ to $v(f \circ L_g)$. Notice that this is left invariant:

$$d(L_g)_{g'}(v^L|_{g'}) = d(L_g)_{g'}d(L_{g'})_e(v) = d(L_{gg'})_e(v) = v^L_{gg'}.$$

And clearly $\varepsilon(v^L) = v$, so all that remains to show is that v^L is smooth.

It is sufficient to show that $v^L f$ is smooth for all $f \in C^\infty(G)$. Take a curve $\gamma: (-\delta, \delta) \rightarrow G$ such that $\gamma(0) = e$ and $\gamma'(0) = v$. Then for $g \in G$,

$$(v^L f)(g) = v^L|_g f = d(L_g)_e(v)f = v(f \circ L_g) = \gamma'(0)(f \circ L_g) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} (f \circ L_g \circ \gamma)(t).$$

Now define $\varphi: (-\delta, \delta) \times G \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by $\varphi(t, g) = f \circ L_g \circ \gamma(t) = f(g\gamma(t))$. So we have $(v^L f)(g) = \partial\varphi/\partial t(0, g)$. Now, φ is the composition of smooth maps, and thus is smooth. Thus $v^L f$ is smooth, as desired. ■

We will continue to use the notation $\bullet^L$ for ε 's inverse.

8.4.9 Corollary

Every left-invariant rough vector field on a Lie group is smooth.

Proof

If X is a rough vector field on G , then $v = X_e$ is in $T_e G$. X 's left invariance implies that $X = v^L$, which is smooth. ■

This isomorphism induces a Lie algebra structure on $T_e G$:

$$[v, u] = \varepsilon[v^L, u^L] = [v^L, u^L]_e,$$

which maps

$$[v, u]f = [v^L, u^L]_e f = (v^L u^L - u^L v^L)_e f = v^L(u^L f) - u^L(v^L f) = v(u^L f) - u(v^L f).$$

Take for instance $G = \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$. We know that its tangent spaces are isomorphic to $\mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R})$, thus we have natural linear isomorphisms

$$\mathrm{Lie}(\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})) \rightarrow T_{I_n} \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow \mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R}),$$

but is this also a Lie algebra morphism? Yes.

8.4.10 Proposition

The above natural isomorphism is an isomorphism of Lie algebras.

Proof

The natural isomorphism $T_{I_n} \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}) \leftrightarrow \mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R})$ is the map

$$A_j^i \frac{\partial}{\partial X_j^i} \Big|_{I_n} \leftrightarrow (A_j^i).$$

We use Einstein summation here, viewing a lower index in a denominator as an upper index. Let $\mathfrak{g}$ be the Lie algebra of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$, then $A = (A_j^i) \in \mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R})$ maps through the isomorphisms to $A^L \in \mathfrak{g}$, defined by

$$A^L|_X = (dL_X)_{I_n}(A) = d(L_X)_{I_n} \left(A_j^i \frac{\partial}{\partial X_j^i} \Big|_{I_n} \right), \quad X \in \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R}).$$

The map L_X is given by $A \mapsto XA$, whose differential is the $n^2 \times n^2$ matrix whose $(i, j), (i, j)$ coordinate is X_j^i , and zero elsewhere. Thus

$$A_X^L = X_j^i A_k^j \frac{\partial}{\partial X_k^i} \Big|_X.$$

Thus for $A, B \in \mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R})$, we have that (in local coordinates),

$$[A^L, B^L] = \left[X_j^i A_k^j \frac{\partial}{\partial X_k^i}, X_q^p B_r^q \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^p} \right] = X_j^i A_k^j \frac{\partial}{\partial X_k^i} (X_q^p B_r^q) \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^p} - X_q^p B_r^q \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^p} (X_j^i A_k^j) \frac{\partial}{\partial X_k^i}.$$

Now, A and B are constants, and $\frac{\partial X_q^p}{\partial X_k^i} = \delta_{i=p, q=k}$ so that this is equal to

$$= X_j^i A_k^j B_r^k \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^i} - X_q^p B_r^q \frac{\partial}{\partial X_k^p} = (X_j^i A_k^j B_r^k - X_j^i B_k^j A_r^k) \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^i}.$$

Evaluating this at $X = I_n$ gives

$$[A^L, B^L]_{I_n} = (A_k^i B_r^k - B_k^i A_r^k) \frac{\partial}{\partial X_r^i} \Big|_{I_n},$$

which corresponds to the matrix commutator $[A, B]$. That is, $[A, B]_{I_n}^L = [A^L, B^L]_{I_n}$, and since left invariant vector fields are determined by their values at the identity, we see that $[A, B]^L = [A^L, B^L]$ so this is indeed a Lie algebra morphism. ■

For arbitrary Euclidean spaces V , we have $\mathrm{GL}(V)$ as the set of linear automorphisms, and $\mathfrak{gl}(V)$ as the Lie algebra of all linear endomorphisms. By choosing a basis for V , we see that there is an isomorphism of Lie algebras

$$\mathrm{Lie}(\mathrm{GL}(V)) \rightarrow T_{\mathrm{id}} \mathrm{GL}(V) \rightarrow \mathfrak{gl}(V).$$

8.4.11 Theorem

Let G, H be Lie groups with respective Lie algebras $\mathfrak{g}, \mathfrak{h}$. If $F: G \rightarrow H$ is a Lie group morphism, then for every $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ there is a unique vector field in $\mathfrak{h}$ that is F -related to X . Denoting this vector field by F_*X , $F_*: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}$ becomes a Lie algebra morphism.

Proof

If $Y \in \mathfrak{h}$ is F -related to X , it must satisfy $Y_e = dF_e(X_e)$ and thus is uniquely determined by

$$Y = (dF_e(X_e))^L.$$

We must now show that Y is indeed F -related to X . Since F is a Lie group morphism, $F(L_g g') = L_{Fg} F(g')$ i.e. $F \circ L_g = L_{Fg} \circ F$. Thus $dF \circ d(L_g) = d(L_{Fg}) \circ dF$, and so

$$dF(X_g) = dF(d(L_g)X_e) = d(L_{Fg})(dF(X_e)) = d(L_{Fg})(Y_e) = Y_g$$

as desired.

By naturality of Lie brackets, $F_*[X, Y] = [F_*X, F_*Y]$ (because F_*X is unique). Furthermore, F_* is clearly linear, by linearity of differentials and $\bullet^L$. ■

The map $F_*: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}$ is called an **induced Lie algebra morphism**.

8.4.12 Proposition

The correspondence $G \mapsto \text{Lie}(G)$, $F \mapsto F_*$ is functorial. In particular isomorphic Lie groups have isomorphic Lie algebras.

Proof

By functoriality of the differential, and since F_*X is determined by its value on the identity, we get the desired result. ■

Note that if $F: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}$ is a morphism of Lie algebras, then $\ker F \subseteq \mathfrak{g}$ and $\text{im} F \subseteq \mathfrak{h}$ are Lie subalgebras. They are subspaces, and closed under brackets: for $X, Y \in \ker F$ then

$$F[X, Y] = [FX, FY] = [0, 0] = 0,$$

and for $X, Y \in \mathfrak{g}$, $[FX, FY] = F[X, Y]$ so that both $\ker F, \text{im} F$ are Lie subalgebras. Note further that $\ker F$ is an *ideal* in the sense that for $X \in \ker F$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{g}$,

$$F[X, Y] = [FX, FY] = [0, FY] = 0,$$

so that $[X, Y], [Y, X] \in \ker F$.

8.4.13 Theorem

Let $H \subseteq G$ be a Lie subgroup, and $\iota: H \hookrightarrow G$ the inclusion. Then the induced map $\iota_*: \text{Lie}(H) \rightarrow \text{Lie}(G)$ is an embedding of Lie algebras (meaning it is injective). So we can identify $\text{Lie}(H)$ with its image in $\text{Lie}(G)$,

$$\mathfrak{h} = \iota_*(\text{Lie}(H)) = \{X \in \text{Lie}(G) \mid X_e \in T_e H\}.$$

Proof

The differential of an immersion is injective, so ι_* must be: if $\iota_*X = \iota_*Y$ then they are equal at e and so

$$d\iota_e(X_e) = d\iota_e(Y_e) \implies X_e = Y_e \implies X = Y.$$

ι_* 's image are left invariant vector fields $X \in \text{Lie}(G)$ whose values at the identity is of the form $d\iota_e(v)$ for $v \in T_e H$. We identify $T_e H$ in $T_e G$ via $d\iota_e$, so that the two characterizations of $\mathfrak{h}$ above are equal. ■

Note:

We make the following observation, that if $\Phi: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth of constant rank k , and $S = \Phi^{-1}n$ is a level set, then $T_p S$ is the kernel of $d\Phi_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_p N$ for all $p \in M$.

We know that S is an embedded submanifold of M of codimension k . First of all, $d\Phi_p \circ d\iota_p = d(\Phi \circ \iota)_p$, and $\Phi \circ \iota$ is constant and thus its differential is zero. Thus $T_p S \subseteq \ker d\Phi_p$, and they have equal dimension ($\ker d\Phi_p$ is $\dim M - k$ by rank-nullity), so they are equal.

8.4.14 Example

Recall that $O(n)$ is the Lie subgroup of $GL_n(\mathbb{R})$ given by orthogonal matrices. That is, it is the level set at I_n of $\Phi: GL_n(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$ given by $\Phi(A) = A^\top A$. Then $T_{I_n}O(n)$ is the kernel of $d\Phi_{I_n}: T_{I_n}GL_n(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow T_{I_n}Mat_n(\mathbb{R})$. The differential is given by $d\Phi_{I_n}(B) = B^\top + B$, so that

$$T_{I_n}O(n) = \{B \in GL_n(\mathbb{R}) \mid B^\top + B = 0\} = \{\text{Skew-symmetric } n \times n \text{ matrices}\}.$$

Denote this subspace by $\mathfrak{o}(n)$; by the above proposition it is a Lie subalgebra of $GL_n(\mathbb{R})$.

9 Integral Curves and Flows

9.1 Integral curves

9.1.1 Definition

Let V be a vector field on a smooth manifold M . An **integral curve** for V is a smooth curve $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ (with J an interval in the real line) such that $\gamma'(t) = V_{\gamma(t)}$. If $0 \in J$, then $\gamma(0)$ is called the **starting point** of γ .

Recall that $\gamma'(t) \in T_{\gamma(t)}M$ is viewed as the derivation

$$\gamma'(t)f = (f \circ \gamma)'(t).$$

Equivalently, the differential $d\gamma_t$ is a map $\mathbb{R} \cong T_tJ \rightarrow T_{\gamma(t)}M$, and then $\gamma'(t)f = d\gamma_t(1)(f)$, where $1 \in \mathbb{R}$ corresponds to the directional derivative in the direction of 1 (the usual 1-dimensional derivative).

Note:

In this section we will use the notation $\dot{\gamma}(t)$ for the derivative of a curve with respect to t . This is because often, the superscript is already being used as an index.

9.1.2 Example

Consider $\mathbb{R}^2$ and let $V = \partial/\partial x$ be the first-coordinate vector field. A curve $\gamma(t) = (\gamma^1(t), \gamma^2(t))$ has derivative $\gamma'(t) = \dot{\gamma}^1(t)\partial/\partial x + \dot{\gamma}^2(t)\partial/\partial y$. Then γ is an integral curve of V when it is of the form $\gamma(t) = (a+t, b)$.

Finding integral curves boils down to solving ODEs. For a vector field V , let $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ be a smooth curve. On a coordinate domain $U \subseteq M$ we can write γ in local coordinates $\gamma(t) = (\gamma^1(t), \dots, \gamma^n(t))$ as well as V as $V^i(p) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p$. Then the requirement that $\gamma'(t) = V_{\gamma(t)}$ is just

$$\dot{\gamma}^i(t) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\gamma(t)} = V^i(\gamma(t)) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_{\gamma(t)},$$

which is just the system of ODEs:

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\gamma}^1(t) &= V^1(\gamma^1(t), \dots, \gamma^n(t)) \\ &\vdots \\ \dot{\gamma}^n(t) &= V^n(\gamma^1(t), \dots, \gamma^n(t)) \end{aligned}$$

Recall the existence and uniqueness of a solution to ODEs. Since everything here is smooth, so we can derive the following simple consequence.

9.1.3 Proposition

Let V be a smooth vector field on M . Then for every $p \in M$ there exists an $\varepsilon > 0$ and a unique smooth curve $\gamma: (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \rightarrow M$ that is an integral curve of V starting at p .

9.1.4 Lemma

Let V be a smooth vector field on M , $J \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ an interval, and $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ an integral curve of V . For any $a \in \mathbb{R}$, the curve $\tilde{\gamma}: a^{-1}J \rightarrow M$ defined by $\tilde{\gamma}(t) = \gamma(at)$ is an integral curve of aV .

Similarly $\hat{\gamma}: J - a \rightarrow M$ defined by $\hat{\gamma}(t) = \gamma(t + a)$ is an integral curve of V .

Proof

We look at how $\tilde{\gamma}$ acts on C^∞ functions defined in a neighborhood of t_0 .

$$\tilde{\gamma}'(t_0)f = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t_0} (f \circ \tilde{\gamma})(t) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t_0} (f \circ \gamma)(at),$$

which by the chain rule is just

$$= a(f \circ \gamma)'(at_0) = a\gamma'(at_0)f = aV_{\gamma(at_0)}f = aV_{\tilde{\gamma}(t_0)}f.$$

The translation $\hat{\gamma}$ is proven similarly.

9.1.5 Proposition

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, then $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M), Y \in \mathfrak{X}(N)$ are F -related iff F takes integral curves of X to integral curves of Y . Meaning if γ is integral for X , then $F \circ \gamma$ is integral for Y .

Proof

If X and Y are F -related, let $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ be integral for X , and define $\sigma: J \rightarrow N$ by $\sigma = F \circ \gamma$. Then

$$\sigma'(t) = (F \circ \gamma)'(t) = dF_{\gamma(t)}(\gamma'(t)) = dF_{\gamma(t)}(V_{\gamma(t)}) = Y_{F \circ \gamma(t)} = Y_{\sigma(t)},$$

as desired.

Conversely suppose F maps integral curves of X to integral curves of Y . Let $p \in M$ and let $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ be an integral curve of X starting at p . Then $\sigma = F \circ \gamma$ is integral for Y so

$$Y_{F(p)} = (F \circ \gamma)'(0) = dF_{\gamma(0)}(\gamma'(0)) = dF_p(X_p),$$

meaning X and Y are F -related. ■

9.2 Flows

Let M be a smooth manifold and $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$. Now suppose that for every $p \in M$, V has a unique integral curve starting at p which is defined for all $t \in \mathbb{R}$ (this is a big assumption, but will suffice for the explanation), denoted by $\theta^{(p)}: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow M$. Now for each $t \in \mathbb{R}$ we define $\theta_t: M \rightarrow M$ by mapping $p \in M$ to $\theta^{(p)}(t)$. In other words we have

$$\theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow M.$$

Translation implies that $t \mapsto \theta^{(p)}(s + t)$ is an integral curve for V starting at $q = \theta^{(p)}(s)$. Uniqueness implies that $\theta^{(q)}(t) = \theta^{(p)}(t + s)$, so that

$$\theta_t \circ \theta_s(p) = \theta_t(\theta^{(p)}(s)) = \theta^{(q)}(t) = \theta_{s+t}(p).$$

Since $\theta_0(p) = \theta^{(p)}(0) = p$, we see that $\theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow M$ is an action of the additive group $\mathbb{R}$ on M . This motivates the following definition.

9.2.1 Definition

A **global flow** on M is a continuous left action of $\mathbb{R}$ on M . In other words, a continuous map

$$\theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow M$$

satisfying

$$\theta(0, p) = p, \quad \theta(t + s, p) = \theta(t, \theta(s, p)).$$

Note:

Global flows are also called **one-parameter group actions**.

Given a global flow θ on M we define

$$\theta_t: M \rightarrow M, \quad \theta_t(p) = \theta(t, p), \quad \theta^{(p)}: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow M, \quad \theta^{(p)}(t) = \theta(t, p),$$

as with Lie group actions. The image of the curve $\theta^{(p)}$ is the orbit of p under the action θ . And the requirement that θ be an action is equivalent to requiring

$$\theta_{t+s} = \theta_t \circ \theta_s.$$

If $\theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow M$ is a global flow, define a tangent vector $V_p \in T_p M$ by

$$V_p = \theta^{(p)'}(0).$$

The assignment $p \mapsto V_p$ is a rough vector field on M , called the **infinitesimal generator** of θ .

9.2.2 Proposition

Let θ be a smooth global flow on M . Its infinitesimal generator V is then a smooth vector field on M , and each $\theta^{(p)}$ is an integral curve of V starting at p .

Proof

To show that V is smooth, it is sufficient to show that Vf is smooth for all $f \in C^\infty(M)$. Now, for $p \in M$,

$$Vf(p) = V_p f = \theta^{(p)'}(0)f = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_0 f(\theta^{(p)}(t)) = \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \right|_{(0,p)} f(\theta(t, p)).$$

Since $f \circ \theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is smooth by assumption, its partial derivatives are smooth as well. Thus Vf is smooth, as desired.

Now we need to show that $\theta^{(p)}$ is an integral curve of V . For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, let $q = \theta^{(p)}(t) = \theta(t, p)$ so that

$$V_{\theta^{(p)}(t)} = V_q = \theta^{(q)'}(0).$$

We want to show that this is equal to $\theta^{(p)'}(t)$. Now,

$$\theta^{(q)}(s) = \theta(s, q) = \theta(s, \theta(t, p)) = \theta(t + s, p) = \theta^{(p)}(t + s).$$

And so we have that

$$\theta^{(q)'}(0) = \theta^{(p)'}(t),$$

as desired. ■

While every global flow gives rise to a vector field, its infinitesimal generator, the converse is not true in general. The issue is the globalness: a vector field's integral curve does not in general need to be defined at every point on the real line.

9.2.3 Example

Let $M = \mathbb{R}^2 - 0$, and $V = \partial/\partial x$. The unique integral curve starting at $(-1, 0)$ is $\gamma(t) = (-1 + t, 0)$. But γ then cannot be defined at $t = 1$, as this is a removable singularity and defining it at $t = 1$ would require defining it to be equal to $0 \notin M$.

Another example is $M = \mathbb{R}^2$ and $V = x^2\partial/\partial x$. An integral curve $\gamma(t) = (\gamma^1(t), b)$ must satisfy $\dot{\gamma}^1(t) = \gamma^1(t)^2$ and thus has the solution $\gamma^1(t) = 1/(a - t)$. If we require it to start at $(1, 0)$, then we have

$$\gamma(t) = \left(\frac{1}{1-t}, 0 \right).$$

This also cannot be defined at $t = 1$.

Thus we must somehow localize the idea of a global flow.

9.2.4 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold. A **flow domain** for M is an open subset $\mathcal{D} \subseteq \mathbb{R} \times M$ with the property that for every $p \in M$, the set $\mathcal{D}^{(p)} = \{t \in \mathbb{R} \mid (t, p) \in \mathcal{D}\}$ is an open interval containing 0.

A **(local) flow** on M is a continuous map $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ where $\mathcal{D} \subseteq \mathbb{R} \times M$ is a flow domain, which satisfies the usual group action laws when defined. Explicitly, for all $p \in M$, $\theta(0, p) = p$ and

$$\theta(t, \theta(s, p)) = \theta(t + s, p),$$

for all $s \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$, and $t \in \mathcal{D}^{(\theta(s, p))}$ such that $s + t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$.

As with global flows, we define $\theta_t(p) = \theta^{(p)}(t) = \theta(t, p)$ when $(t, p) \in \mathcal{D}$. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$ we define

$$M_t = \{p \in M \mid (t, p) \in \mathcal{D}\}$$

so that $p \in M_t$ iff $t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ iff $(t, p) \in \mathcal{D}$, and $\theta^{(p)}: \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \rightarrow M$, $\theta_t: M_t \rightarrow M$.

If θ is smooth, its **infinitesimal generator** is defined by $V_p = \theta^{(p)'}(0)$.

Note:

The term **local one-parameter group action** is also used for local flows.

9.2.5 Proposition

The infinitesimal generator of a flow is a smooth vector field, and $\theta^{(p)}$ is an integral curve for V for each $p \in M$.

Proof

The proof is the same as in the global case. Just verify that all terms are defined locally (in close enough neighborhoods). ■

9.2.6 Definition

A **maximal integral curve** is an integral curve which cannot be extended to a larger interval. A **maximal flow** is a flow that cannot be extended to a larger flow domain.

9.2.7 Theorem (Fundamental theorem on flows)

Let V be a smooth vector field on M . Then there is a unique maximal flow $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ whose infinitesimal generator is V . The flow has the following properties:

- (1) For each $p \in M$, the curve $\theta^{(p)}: \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \rightarrow M$ is the unique maximal integral curve of V starting at p .
- (2) If $s \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ then $\mathcal{D}^{(\theta(s,p))}$ is the interval $\mathcal{D}^{(p)} - s = \{t - s \mid t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}\}$.
- (3) For each $t \in \mathbb{R}$, M_t is open in M and $\theta_t: M_t \rightarrow M_{-t}$ is a diffeomorphism with inverse θ_{-t} .

Proof

Suppose that $\gamma, \tilde{\gamma}: J \rightarrow M$ are two integral curves of V defined on the same interval such that they agree at some point $t_0 \in J$. Then let $\mathcal{S} = \{t \in J \mid \gamma(t) = \tilde{\gamma}(t)\}$. This is nonempty since $t_0 \in \mathcal{S}$ by assumption, and it is closed by continuity (for $t \notin \mathcal{S}$ then by Hausdorff there are open sets around $\gamma(t), \tilde{\gamma}(t)$ which don't intersect, their preimages under $\gamma, \tilde{\gamma}$ are open and the intersection doesn't intersect $\mathcal{S}$). But $\mathcal{S}$ is also open: for $t_1 \in \mathcal{S}$, $\gamma, \tilde{\gamma}$ are both solutions to the same ODE with the initial condition $\gamma(t_1) = \tilde{\gamma}(t_1)$, and thus agree in a neighborhood of t_1 . Since J is connected, $\mathcal{S}$ must be equal to J .

Thus any two integral curves defined on the same interval must be equal. So let us define $\mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ to be the union of all open intervals J with $0 \in J$ such that there is an integral curve of V starting at p defined on J . Then for $t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$, define $\theta^{(p)}(t) = \gamma(t)$ where γ is an integral curve of V starting at p defined at t . This is well-defined by our above argument, and clearly the unique maximal integral curve starting at p .

Now let $\mathcal{D} = \{(t, p) \in \mathbb{R} \times M \mid t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}\}$, and define $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ by $\theta(t, p) = \theta^{(p)}(t)$. θ satisfies the first point in our theorem statement. Now we need to verify that it satisfies the group laws. Clearly $\theta(0, p) = p$. For $p \in M$ and $s \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ let $q = \theta(s, p)$, then the curve $\gamma: \mathcal{D}^{(p)} - s \rightarrow M$ defined by $\gamma(t) = \theta^{(p)}(t + s)$ starts at q and is also integral (by translation). By uniqueness, γ and $\theta^{(q)}$ agree on the intersection of their domains, which is equivalent to the second group law:

$$\theta^{(p)}(t + s) = \theta^{(q)}(t) \iff \theta(t + s, p) = \theta(t, \theta(s, p)).$$

The maximality of $\theta^{(q)}$ further implies that γ 's domain is contained in $\mathcal{D}^{(q)}$. That is, $\mathcal{D}^{(p)} - s \subseteq \mathcal{D}^{(q)}$. Since $0 \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ this implies $-s \in \mathcal{D}^{(q)}$ and $\theta^{(q)}(-s) = \theta(-s, \theta(s, p)) = p$. So if we repeat the above argument with $p = \theta(-s, q)$, we see that $\mathcal{D}^{(q)} + s \subseteq \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ so that $\mathcal{D}^{(q)} - s = \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$, proving the second point.

Now we show that $\mathcal{D} \subseteq \mathbb{R} \times M$ is open, so that it is a flow domain, and that $\theta: \mathbb{R} \times M \rightarrow M$ is smooth. Define $W \subseteq \mathcal{D}$ to be the set of all $(t, p) \in \mathcal{D}$ where θ is smooth on a product neighborhood of (t, p) of the form $J \times U \subseteq \mathcal{D}$ where $0 \in J$ is a neighborhood and $U \subseteq M$ is a neighborhood of p . Then W is an open subset of $\mathbb{R} \times M$ and θ is smooth on W , so it is sufficient to show that $W = \mathcal{D}$.

Suppose not, so there is a $(\tau, p_0) \in \mathcal{D} - W$. We assume that $\tau > 0$, the proof for negative τ is similar. Define $t_0 = \inf \{t \in \mathbb{R} \mid (t, p_0) \notin W\}$. Taking a coordinate domain around p_0 , we see that by uniqueness of ODE solutions, θ is smooth in a product neighborhood around $(0, p_0)$, so $t_0 > 0$. Since $t_0 \leq \tau$ and $\mathcal{D}^{(p_0)}$ is an open interval containing 0, we have that $t_0 \in \mathcal{D}^{(p_0)}$. Let $q_0 = \theta^{(p_0)}(t_0)$, and then again by ODE uniqueness, there is an $\varepsilon > 0$ and a neighborhood U_0 of q_0 such that $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \times U_0 \subseteq W$. We will show that using the group action, we can extend θ smoothly to a neighborhood of (t_0, p_0) . By maximality of θ , this implies $(t_0, p_0) \in W$, but W is open and thus this is a contradiction (since then a sequence of points outside of W converge to a point in W).

Choose $t_1 < t_0$ such that $t_1 + \varepsilon > t_0$ and $\theta^{(p_0)}(t_1) \in U_0$ (which exists because $\theta^{(p_0)}$ is continuous). Since $t_1 < t_0$, we have that $(t_1, p_0) \in W$ and so there is a product neighborhood $(t_1 - \delta, t_1 + \delta) \times U_1 \subseteq W$. This implies that θ is defined and smooth on $[0, t_1 + \delta) \times U_1$, by definition of W . Because $\theta(t_1, p_0) \in U_0$, we can choose U_1 small enough so that θ maps $\{t_1\} \times U_1$ into U_0 . Define $\tilde{\theta}: [0, t_1 + \varepsilon) \times U_1 \rightarrow M$ by

$$\tilde{\theta}(t, p) = \begin{cases} \theta_t(p) & 0 \leq t < t_1 \\ \theta_{t-t_1} \circ \theta_{t_1}(p) & t_1 - \varepsilon < t < t_1 + \varepsilon \end{cases}.$$

The group action laws show that the two definitions agree where they overlap, and our choices of U_1, t_1, ε ensure that this is a smooth map.

Thus $t \mapsto \tilde{\theta}(t, p)$ is an integral curve of V for each $p \in U_1$, so $\tilde{\theta}$ is a smooth extension of θ to a neighborhood of (t_0, p_0) . This is a contradiction, so $W = \mathcal{D}$. Thus θ is the unique maximal flow with infinitesimal generator V .

We now show that M_t is open. Recall that

$$M_t = \{p \in M \mid (t, p) \in \mathcal{D}\},$$

so clearly M_t is open since $\mathcal{D}$ is (it is the preimage of $\mathcal{D}$ under the map $p \mapsto (t, p)$). We also have

$$p \in M_t \implies t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \implies \mathcal{D}^{(\theta_t(p))} = \mathcal{D}^{(p)} - t \implies -t \in \mathcal{D}^{(\theta_t(p))} \implies \theta_t(p) \in M_{-t}.$$

Thus θ_t is a map $M_t \rightarrow M_{-t}$, and smooth since θ is. The group laws show $\theta_t \circ \theta_{-t}$ is the identity, so that θ_t is then a diffeomorphism $M_t \rightarrow M_{-t}$ as desired. $\blacksquare$

9.2.8 Definition

The unique maximal flow with infinitesimal generator V , whose existence and uniqueness was proven above, is called the **flow generated by V** , or just the **flow of V** .

9.2.9 Proposition

Suppose $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{X}(N)$. Let θ be the flow of X and η the flow of Y . If X and Y are F -related then for each $t \in \mathbb{R}$, $F(M_t) \subseteq N_t$ and $\eta_t \circ F = F \circ \theta_t$ on M_t :

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M_t & \xrightarrow{F} & N_t \\ \theta_t \downarrow & & \downarrow \eta_t \\ M_{-t} & \xrightarrow{F} & N_{-t} \end{array}$$

Proof

For any $p \in M$, $F \circ \theta^{(p)}$ is an integral curve of Y starting at $F(p)$. By uniqueness of integral curves, the maximal integral curve $\eta^{(F(p))}$ must be defined at least on $\mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ and $F \circ \theta^{(p)} = \eta^{(F(p))}$ on $\mathcal{D}^{(p)}$. This means that

$$p \in M_t \implies t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \implies t \in \mathcal{D}^{(F(p))} \implies F(p) \in N_t,$$

so $F(M_t) \subseteq N_t$. And also

$$F \circ \theta^{(p)}(t) = \eta^{(F(p))}(t) \implies F \circ \theta_t(p) = \eta_t(F(p)) = \eta_t \circ F(p)$$

for all $p \in M_t$. $\blacksquare$

9.2.10 Corollary

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be a diffeomorphism. If $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ has flow θ , then the flow of F_*X is $\eta_t = F \circ \theta_t \circ F^{-1}$ with domain $N_t = F(M_t)$.

Proof

By the above proposition, and going in reverse as F_*X and X are F^{-1} -related. ■

9.2.11 Definition

A vector field is **complete** if its flow is global. Equivalently if for every $p \in M$, it has an integral curve starting at p defined on all of $\mathbb{R}$.

9.2.12 Lemma (Uniform time lemma)

Let $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ with flow θ . Suppose there is an $\varepsilon > 0$ such that for every $p \in M$, the domain of $\theta^{(p)}$ contains $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$. Then V is complete.

Proof

Suppose V is not complete, so for some $p \in M$ we have that $\mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ is not all of $\mathbb{R}$. Without loss of generality, we assume that $\mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ is bounded above, let b be its supremum. Then let $t_0 \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ such that $b - \varepsilon < t_0 < b$, and let $q \in \theta^{(p)}(t_0)$. The hypothesis implies that $\theta^{(q)}(t)$ is defined at least for $t \in (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$, so define $\gamma: (-\varepsilon, t + \varepsilon) \rightarrow M$ by

$$\gamma(t) = \begin{cases} \theta^{(p)}(t) & -\varepsilon < t < b \\ \theta^{(q)}(t - t_0) & t_0 - \varepsilon < t < t_0 + \varepsilon \end{cases}.$$

By the group action laws, the two definitions agree on their overlap: $\theta^{(q)}(t - t_0) = \theta(t - t_0, \theta(t_0, p)) = \theta(t, p)$. By the translation law, γ is an integral curve for V starting at p . But since $t_0 + \varepsilon > b$, this is a contradiction. ■

9.2.13 Theorem

Every compactly supported smooth vector field is complete.

Proof

Let V be compactly supported on M , and let $K = \text{supp} V$ be its support. For $p \in K$ there is a neighborhood U_p of p and a positive number ε_p such that the flow of V is defined on at least $(-\varepsilon_p, \varepsilon_p) \times U_p$, since the flow domain is open. By compactness, finitely many U_p cover K : say $U_{p_1}, \dots, U_{p_n}$ cover K . Let ε be the minimum of $\varepsilon_{p_1}, \dots, \varepsilon_{p_n}$, so that the flow is defined on $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \times K$. Since V is zero outside of K , every integral curve starting outside of K is constant and thus can be defined on all of $\mathbb{R}$. Thus by the above lemma, V is complete. ■

9.2.14 Corollary

Every vector field defined on a compact manifold is complete.

9.2.15 Theorem

Every left-invariant vector field on a Lie group is complete.

Proof

Let G be a Lie group and $X \in \text{Lie}(G)$ with flow θ . There is some $\varepsilon > 0$ such that $\theta^{(e)}$ is defined on $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$. Let $g \in G$ so that X is L_g -related to itself, so $L_g \circ \theta^{(e)}$ is an integral curve of g defined on $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$. Thus $\theta^{(g)}$ is defined on at least $(-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)$ for all $g \in G$, thus X is complete by the uniform time lemma. ■

9.3 Flowouts

Recall that for an immersed submanifold $S \subseteq M$, $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is **tangent to S** if $X_p \in T_p S \subseteq T_p M$ for all $p \in S$. Equivalently, iff it is ι -related to a smooth vector field on U denoted $X|_S \in \mathfrak{X}(S)$.

9.3.1 Definition

For an immersed submanifold $S \subseteq M$ and $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, we say that X is **nowhere tangent to S** if $X_p \notin T_p S$ for all $p \in S$.

9.3.2 Theorem (Flowout theorem)

Let M be a smooth manifold, $S \subseteq M$ be an embedded k -dimensional submanifold, and $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ nowhere tangent to S . Let $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ be V 's flow, let $\mathcal{O} = (\mathbb{R} \times S) \cap \mathcal{D}$, and $\Phi = \theta|_{\mathcal{O}}$. Then:

- (1) $\Phi: \mathcal{O} \rightarrow M$ is an immersion,
- (2) $\partial/\partial t \in \mathfrak{X}(\mathcal{O})$ is Φ -related to V ,
- (3) There exists a smooth positive function $\delta: S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that the restriction of Φ to $\mathcal{O}_\delta$ is injective, where

$$\mathcal{O}_\delta = \{(t, p) \in \mathcal{O} \mid |t| < \delta(p)\} \subseteq \mathcal{O}$$

is a flow domain. Thus $\Phi(\mathcal{O}_\delta)$ is an immersed submanifold of M containing S , and V is tangent to this submanifold.

- (4) If S has codimension 1, then $\Phi|_{\mathcal{O}_\delta}$ is a diffeomorphism onto an open submanifold of M .

Note:

The submanifold $\Phi(\mathcal{O}_\delta) \subseteq M$ is called a **flowout from S along V** .

Proof

First we prove (2). Fix $p \in S$ and let $\sigma: \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \times S$ be the curve $\sigma(t) = (t, p)$. Then $\Phi \circ \sigma(t) = \theta(t, p)$ is an integral curve of V , so for any $t_0 \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$ we have that

$$d\Phi_{(t_0, p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \Big|_{(t_0, p)} \right) = (\Phi \circ \sigma)'(t_0) = V_{(t_0, p)},$$

as desired.

Now we prove (1). The restriction of Φ to $\{0\} \times S$ is the restriction of the diffeomorphism $\{0\} \times S \cong S$ with the embedding $S \hookrightarrow M$ (since it is the map $\Phi(0, p) = \theta(0, p) = p$), and thus an embedding. So the restriction of $d\Phi_{(0, p)}$ to $T_p S$ (viewed as a subspace of $T_{(0, p)} \mathcal{O} \cong T_0 \mathbb{R} \oplus T_p S$) is the inclusion $T_p S \hookrightarrow T_p M$. Then $d\Phi_{(0, p)}$ maps the basis of $T_{(0, p)} \mathcal{O}$, $(\partial/\partial t|_{(0, p)}, E_1, \dots, E_k)$ with $E_1, \dots, E_k \in T_p S$, to $(V_p, E_1, \dots, E_k)$. Since V is nowhere tangent to S , V_p is not in the span of $E_1, \dots, E_k$ and thus this remains linearly independent. Thus $d\Phi_{(0, p)}$ is an injection.

To show that $d\Phi$ is injective elsewhere, let $(t_0, s_0) \in \mathcal{O}$ and let $\tau_{t_0}: \mathcal{O} \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \times S$ be the translation $\tau_{t_0}(t, p) = (t + t_0, p)$. By the group law for θ , the following diagram commutes (the horizontal maps may only be defined in a neighborhood of $(0, p_0)$ and p_0 respectively):

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \mathcal{O} & \xrightarrow{\tau_{t_0}} & \mathcal{O} \\ \Phi \downarrow & & \downarrow \Phi \\ M & \xrightarrow{\theta_{t_0}} & M \end{array}$$

Indeed, $\theta_{t_0} \circ \Phi(t, p) = \theta_{t+t_0}(p) = \Phi \circ \tau_{t_0}(t, p)$. The horizontal maps are local diffeomorphisms (τ_{t_0} clearly is, θ_t is by the flow theorem), and thus the induced commutative square

$$\begin{array}{ccc} T_{(0,p_0)}\mathcal{O} & \xrightarrow{d(\tau_{t_0})_{(0,p_0)}} & T_{(t_0,p_0)}\mathcal{O} \\ d\Phi_{(0,p_0)} \downarrow & & \downarrow d\Phi_{(t_0,p_0)} \\ T_{p_0}M & \xrightarrow{d(\theta_{t_0})_{p_0}} & T_{\Phi(t_0,p_0)}M \end{array}$$

has invertible horizontal maps. Thus the two vertical maps have the same rank, and so Φ has constant rank. Since it has full rank at $(0, p_0)$, it has full rank everywhere and is thus an immersion.

Now we prove (3). Let $p_0 \in S$ and let $(U, (x^i))$ be a chart for S centered at p_0 , so that $U \cap S$ is the set $x^{k+1} = \dots = x^n = 0$. Because V is not tangent to S , one of the $n - k$ last components of V_{p_0} is nonzero, say $V_{p_0}^j$. Shrinking U if necessary, we may assume that $|V^j(p)| \geq c$ for all $p \in U$.

Now $\Phi^{-1}U$ is open in $\mathbb{R} \times S$, so we may choose $\varepsilon_{p_0} > 0$ and a neighborhood W_{p_0} of p_0 such that $(-\varepsilon_{p_0}, \varepsilon_{p_0}) \times W_{p_0} \subseteq \mathcal{O}$ and $\Phi((-\varepsilon_{p_0}, \varepsilon_{p_0}) \times W_{p_0}) \subseteq U$. Let us write Φ in these local coordinates as

$$\Phi(t, p) = (\Phi^1(t, p), \dots, \Phi^n(t, p)).$$

Because Φ is the restriction of a flow, we have that $\Phi'(t, p) = V(\Phi(t, p))$, so in particular

$$\frac{\partial \Phi^j}{\partial t}(t, p) = V^j(\Phi(t, p)),$$

and thus by the fundamental theorem of calculus, $|\Phi^j(t, p)| \geq c|t|$. So for $(t, p) \in (-\varepsilon_{p_0}, \varepsilon_{p_0}) \times W_{p_0}$ we have that $\Phi(t, p) \in S$ iff $t = 0$ (otherwise its j th component is nonzero).

Now let $\{\psi_p\}_{p \in S}$ be a partition of unity subordinate to $\{W_p\}_{p \in S}$ and define $f: S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$f(q) = \sum_{p \in S} \varepsilon_p \psi_p(q).$$

This is smooth and positive. For $q \in S$ there are finitely many p such that $\psi_p(q) > 0$, and if we let ε_{p_0} is maximal among those p s then

$$f(q) \leq \varepsilon_{p_0} \sum_{p \in S} \psi_p(q) = \varepsilon_{p_0}.$$

Thus if $(t, q) \in \mathcal{O}$ and $|t| < f(q)$ then $(t, q) \in (-\varepsilon_{p_0}, \varepsilon_{p_0}) \times W_{p_0}$ so that $\Phi(t, q) \in S$ iff $t = 0$.

So define $\delta = \frac{1}{2}f$, and $\mathcal{O}_\delta$ as above:

$$\mathcal{O}_\delta = \{(t, p) \in \mathcal{O} \mid |t| < \delta(p)\}.$$

We show that Φ is injective on $\mathcal{O}_\delta$ (and thus its image is an immersed submanifold). Suppose $\Phi(t, q) = \Phi(t', q')$, and we can assume $f(q') \leq f(q)$. Our assumption means that $\theta_t(q) = \theta_{t'}(q')$, and thus $\theta_{t-t'}(q) = q' \in S$ by the group laws. Now we have

$$|t - t'| \leq |t| + |t'| \leq \frac{1}{2}f(q) + f(q') \leq f(q),$$

and thus as we showed this means $\theta_{t-t'}(q) = \Phi(t - t', q) \in S$ iff $t = t'$. It then follows that $q = q'$ (because we can recover the initial point from an integral flow).

Finally for (4), if S has codimension 1 then $\Phi|_{\mathcal{O}_\delta}$ is an injective smooth immersion between manifolds of the same dimension, and thus an embedding, and a diffeomorphism onto an open subset (the only submanifolds of codimension zero are open). ■

9.3.3 Definition

Let $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, a **singular point** of V is a point $p \in M$ such that $V_p = 0$. Otherwise $p \in M$ is a **regular point**.

9.3.4 Proposition

Let $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, and $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ be its flow. If $p \in M$ is a singular point of V , then $\mathcal{D}^{(p)} = \mathbb{R}$ and $\theta^{(p)}$ is the constant curve $\theta^{(p)}(t) = p$. If p is a regular point, then $\theta^{(p)}: \mathcal{D}^{(p)} \rightarrow M$ is a smooth immersion.

Proof

If $V_p = 0$, then the constant curve $\gamma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow M$ given by $\gamma(t) = p$ is clearly integral. By uniqueness and maximality, it must be equal to $\theta^{(p)}$.

Suppose that $\theta^{(p)}$ is not an immersion; we will show that p is singular. Since it is not an immersion, $\theta^{(p)'}(s) = 0$ for some $s \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$. Let $q = \theta^{(p)}(s)$ so that $V_q = 0$ and q is singular. But then $\theta^{(q)}$ is constant, and

$$\theta^{(p)}(t) = \theta(t, p) = \theta(t - s, \theta(s, p)) = \theta(t - s, q) = q,$$

so that $p = \theta^{(p)}(0) = q$ and so p is singular. ■

9.3.5 Definition

If $\theta: \mathcal{D} \rightarrow M$ is a flow, a point $p \in M$ is an **equilibrium point** of θ if $\theta(t, p) = p$ for all $t \in \mathcal{D}^{(p)}$.

The above proposition shows that if θ is V 's flow, then θ 's equilibrium points are precisely V 's singular points.

9.3.6 Theorem (Canonical form of flow)

Let $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $p \in M$ a regular point of V . Then there exist smooth coordinates (s^i) in a neighborhood of p such that V has the coordinate representation $\partial/\partial s^1$. If $S \subseteq M$ is an embedded hypersurface (embedded submanifold of codimension 1) with $p \in S$ and $V_p \notin T_p S$, then the coordinates can be chosen so that s^1 is a local defining map for S .

Note:

If $S \subseteq M$ is embedded, a **local defining map** for S is a smooth map $\Phi: U \rightarrow N$ with $U \subseteq M$ open, such that $S \cap U$ is a regular level set of Φ .

Proof

If no S is given, let $(U, (x^i))$ be any smooth coordinates centered at p and take $S \subseteq U$ to be the hypersurface defined by $x^j = 0$ where j is any index where $V^j(p) \neq 0$.

Regardless, we now just assume we have an embedded hypersurface containing p where $V_p \notin T_p S$. We can potentially shrink S so that V is nowhere tangent to it. The flowout theorem gives us a flow domain $\mathcal{O}_\delta \subseteq \mathbb{R} \times S$ such that the flow of V restricts to a diffeomorphism from $\mathcal{O}_\delta$ to an open subset $W \subseteq M$ containing S . Take a product neighborhood $(0, p) \in (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \times W$ in $\mathcal{O}_\delta$, and choose a smooth local parameterization $X: \Omega \rightarrow S$ where Ω is an open subset of $\mathbb{R}^{n-1}$ with coordinates denoted by $s^2, \dots, s^n$, and X 's image is contained in W_0 .

Then define $\Psi: (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon) \times \Omega \rightarrow M$ by

$$\Psi(t, s^2, \dots, s^n) = \Phi(t, X(s^2, \dots, s^n))$$

is a diffeomorphism onto a neighborhood of p in M . Because $(t, s^2, \dots, s^n) \mapsto (t, X(s^2, \dots, s^n))$ pushes $\partial/\partial t$ forward to itself, and $\Phi_*(\partial/\partial t) = V$ (since by the flowout theorem, $\partial/\partial t$ is Φ -related to V), it follows that $\Psi_*(\partial/\partial t) = V$.

Thus Ψ^{-1} is a smooth coordinate chart in which V has coordinate representation $\partial/\partial t$. Rename t to s^1 to complete the proof: $s^1 = 0$ gives W_0 , so it is a local defining map for S . ■

9.4 Lie derivatives

Tangent spaces allow us to make sense of directional derivatives of real-valued functions on manifolds; an element of $T_p M$ is viewed as a directional derivative at p . But what about the directional derivative of a vector field. In Euclidean space, if W is a vector field on $\mathbb{R}^n$ then we could define its directional derivative in the direction of $v \in T_p \mathbb{R}^n$ to be

$$D_v W(p) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_0 W_{p+tv} = \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{W_{p+tv} - W_p}{t}.$$

It is easy to see that

$$D_v W(p) = D_v W^i(p) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \right|_p,$$

where W^i are the components of W and $D_v W^i$ is the usual directional derivative.

In smooth manifolds, W_{p+tv} makes no sense, but we could instead replace $p + tv$ with a curve γ starting at p with initial velocity v . The issue is then that $W_{\gamma(t)}$ and W_p lie in different tangent spaces, and thus there is no good way of combining them.

Instead we can replace $v \in T_p M$ with a vector field $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, and so we can use the flow of V to push values of W back to p and then differentiate. This motivates the following.

9.4.1 Definition

Let M be smooth and without boundary, $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ with flow θ . For any other smooth vector field W , define a rough vector field on M , denoted $\mathcal{L}_V W$ and called the **Lie derivative** of W with respect to V , to be

$$(\mathcal{L}_V W)_p = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_0 d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(p)} (W_{\theta_t(p)}) = \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(p)} (W_{\theta_t(p)}) - W_p}{t},$$

provided the derivative exists. For small $t \neq 0$, θ_t is defined in a neighborhood of p , and θ_{-t} is its inverse, so both $d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(p)} (W_{\theta_t(p)})$ and W_p are both elements of $T_p M$.

Note that we are differentiating a function $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow T_p M$ here. Since $T_p M$ is Euclidean, this is well-defined as any linear isomorphism from $\mathbb{R}^n$ to it will give the same limit.

9.4.2 Lemma

The Lie derivative of W with respect to V exists for all $p \in M$ and $\mathcal{L}_V W$ forms a smooth vector field.

Proof

Let $p \in M$ and $(U, (x^i))$ be a smooth chart containing p . Choose an open interval $0 \in J_0$, and an open set $U_0 \subseteq U$ such that θ maps $J_0 \times U_0$ into U . For $(t, x) \in J_0 \times U_0$, write the components of θ as $(\theta^1(t, x), \dots, \theta^n(t, x))$. Then for any $(t, x) \in J_0 \times U_0$, the matrix of $d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(x)}: T_{\theta_t(x)} M \rightarrow T_x M$ is

$$\left(\frac{\partial \theta^i}{\partial x^j}(-t, \theta(t, x)) \right).$$

Thus

$$d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(x)}(W_{\theta_t(x)}) = \frac{\partial \theta^i}{\partial x^j}(-t, \theta(t, x)) W^j(\theta(t, x)) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_x.$$

Because θ^i and W^j are smooth, the coefficient of $\partial/\partial x^i|_x$ depends smoothly on (t, x) . It then follows that $(\mathcal{L}_V W)_x$, which is obtained by differentiating this and setting $t = 0$, exists for each $x \in U_0$ and depends smoothly on x . ■

9.4.3 Example

Let $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and W a smooth vector field on $\mathbb{R}^n$. Then $D_v W(p)$, which we defined above, is just $(\mathcal{L}_V W)_p$, where V is the vector field $v^i \partial/\partial x^i|$ with constant coefficients.

The definition of the Lie derivative is unwieldy for computations, but it turns out that it actually is just the Lie bracket in disguise.

9.4.4 Theorem

For $V, W \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, $\mathcal{L}_V W = [V, W]$.

Proof

Let $\mathcal{R}(V) \subseteq M$ be the set of regular points of V (points p where $V_p \neq 0$). By continuity, $\mathcal{R}(V)$ is open in M , and its closure is V 's support. We now show that $(\mathcal{L}_V W)_p = [V, W]_p$ for all $p \in M$ by considering three cases.

- (1) If $p \in \mathcal{R}(V)$, then we can find a local chart $(U, (u^i))$ around p where V has the coordinate representation $V = \frac{\partial}{\partial u^1}$. In these coordinates, V 's flow is then $\theta_t(u) = (u^1 + t, u^2, \dots, u^n)$ (this boils down to the Euclidean case discussed in above examples). Then for each fixed t , the matrix $d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(u)}$ in these coordinates is the identity. Thus

$$d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(u)}(W_{\theta_t(u)}) = d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(u)} \left(W^j(u^1 + t, u^2, \dots, u^n) \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} \Big|_{\theta_t(u)} \right) = W^j(u^1 + t, u^2, \dots, u^n) \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} \Big|_u.$$

And so by the definition of the Lie derivative,

$$(\mathcal{L}_V W)_u = \frac{d}{dt} \Big|_0 W^j(u^1 + t, u^2, \dots, u^n) \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} \Big|_u = \frac{\partial W^j}{\partial u^1}(u^1, \dots, u^n) \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} \Big|_u.$$

Conversely,

$$[V, W] = \left[\frac{\partial}{\partial u^1}, W^j \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} \right] = \left(V^i \frac{\partial}{\partial W^j} u^i - W^i \frac{\partial}{\partial V^j} u^i \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j} = (W^j) u^1 \frac{\partial}{\partial u^j},$$

since $V^1 = 1$ is constant and all other components are zero.

- (2) If $p \in \text{supp } V$ then by continuity we have the desired result.
- (3) If $p \notin \text{supp } V$ then $V = 0$ on a neighborhood of p , and so $[V, W]_p = 0$. Then θ_t is the identity map in a neighborhood of p , so $d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta_t(p)}(W_{\theta_t(p)}) = W_p$ and so $(\mathcal{L}_V W)_p = 0$ as well. ■

Thus we can extend the notion of a Lie derivative to manifolds with boundary simply by $\mathcal{L}_V W = [V, W]$. This is equivalent to embedding M into a smooth manifold without boundary $\tilde{M}$ (e.g. its double), extending V and W smoothly, and computing the Lie derivative there. By the above theorem, this just gives $[V, W]$, so is independent on the extension.

This also gives a geometric interpretation of the Lie bracket as the Lie derivative, i.e. a directional derivative.

9.4.5 Corollary

Let $V, W, X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, then

- (1) $\mathcal{L}_V W = -\mathcal{L}_W V$,
- (2) $\mathcal{L}_V[W, X] = [\mathcal{L}_V W, X] + [W, \mathcal{L}_V X]$,
- (3) $\mathcal{L}_{[V, W]} X = \mathcal{L}_V \mathcal{L}_W X - \mathcal{L}_W \mathcal{L}_V X$,
- (4) If $g \in C^\infty(M)$, then $\mathcal{L}_V(gW) = (Vg)W + g\mathcal{L}_V W$,
- (5) If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a diffeomorphism, $F_*(\mathcal{L}_V W) = \mathcal{L}_{F_*V} F_*W$.

9.5 Commuting vector fields

9.5.1 Definition

Two vector fields $V, W \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ **commute** if $VWf = WVf$ for all $f \in C^\infty(M)$, or equivalently if $[V, W] = 0$.

9.5.2 Definition

If θ is a smooth flow and $W \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, then W is **invariant under θ** if W is θ_t -related to itself for all t . More precisely, $W|_{M_t}$ is θ_t -related to $W_{M_{-t}}$:

$$d(\theta_t)_p(W_p) = W_{\theta(t,p)}$$

for all (t, p) in the flow domain.

9.5.3 Theorem

For $V, W \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, the following are equivalent:

- (1) V and W commute,
- (2) V is invariant under W 's flow,
- (3) W is invariant under V 's flow.

Proof

Let θ denote V 's flow. If W is invariant under it, then we see that

$$d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta(t,p)}(W_{\theta(t,p)}) = W_p,$$

and by the definition of the Lie derivative $\mathcal{L}_V W = 0$ so $[V, W] = 0$.

Now if $\mathcal{L}_V(W) = [V, W] = 0$ then the derivative of $d(\theta_{-t})_{\theta(t,p)}(W_{\theta(t,p)})$ is zero and thus it is constant over t . Plugging in $t = 0$ we see that it is equal to W_p , and thus we have the desired result. ■

9.5.4 Corollary

Every vector field is invariant under its own flow.

We would like to discuss what it means for two flows to commute. For global flows, we could just require that $\psi_s \circ \theta_t = \theta_t \circ \psi_s$, but for local flows this may not always be defined. But even if we require that this only hold when both sides are defined, commuting vector fields may not have commuting flows. The issue is that if $\theta_t \circ \psi_s(p)$ is defined for $t = t_0, s = s_0$, then it must be defined for all t in some interval containing 0 and t_0 , but ψ_s may not be defined all the way to $s = t_0$.

9.5.5 Definition

If θ, ψ are smooth flows on M , then we say they **commute** if whenever $p \in M$ and J, K are open intervals containing 0 such that one of $\theta_t \circ \psi_s(p), \psi_s \circ \theta_t(p)$ exist for all $(t, s) \in J \times K$, then both exist and are equal.

9.5.6 Theorem

Smooth vector fields commute iff their flows commute.

Proof

Let $V, W \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and θ, ψ be their respective flows. Suppose V and W commute and J, K are intervals such that $\psi_s \circ \theta_t(p)$ is defined for all $(t, s) \in J \times K$. Since V is invariant under ψ by assumption, let $s \in K$ and consider the curve $\gamma: J \rightarrow M$ given by $\gamma(t) = \psi_s \circ \theta_t(p)$. Then $\gamma(0) = \psi_s(p)$ and its velocity at $t \in J$ is

$$\gamma'(t) = d(\psi_s)_{\theta(t,p)}(\theta^{(p)'}(t)) = d(\psi_s)_{\theta(t,p)}(V_{\theta(t,p)}) = V_{\psi(s,\theta(t,p))} = V_{\gamma(t)},$$

so that $\gamma(t)$ is integral for V . Then

$$\gamma(t) = \theta^{(\psi(s,p))}(t) = \theta_t(\psi_s(p)),$$

so that θ, ψ commute.

Now if the flows commute, let $p \in M$ and $\varepsilon > 0$ small enough so that $\psi_s \circ \theta_t(p) = \theta_t \circ \psi_s(p)$ for $|t|, |s| < \varepsilon$. Now we have

$$W_{\theta_t(p)} = \left. \frac{d}{ds} \right|_{s=0} \psi^{(\theta_t(p))}(s) = \left. \frac{d}{ds} \right|_{s=0} \theta_t(\psi^{(p)}(s)) = d(\theta_t)_p(W_p).$$

Showing that W is θ_t -invariant, as desired. ■

9.5.7 Definition

A **commuting frame** for a smooth manifold M is a local frame (E_i) such that each E_i, E_j commute.

Note that coordinate frames $\partial/\partial x|_p$ are commuting, as shown in our discussion of Lie brackets. Thus if a frame doesn't commute, it cannot be a coordinate frame.

9.5.8 Theorem

Let M be smooth and $(V_1, \dots, V_k)$ be linearly independent commuting local vector fields, defined on an open subset W . Then for every $p \in W$ there exists a smooth coordinate chart $(U, (s^i))$ centered at p such that $V_i = \partial/\partial s^i$ for all $i = 1, \dots, k$.

If $S \subseteq M$ is embedded and of codimension k and $p \in S$ is such that $T_p S$ is complementary to the span of $V_1|_p, \dots, V_k|_p$, then the coordinate chart can be chosen so that $S \cap U$ is the slice given by $s^1 = \dots = s^k = 0$.

Proof

If no S is given, we can find one via an appropriate coordinate slice. Let $(U, (x^i))$ be the slice chart for S centered at p , with $U \subseteq W$ and $S \cap U$ being given by $x^1 = \dots = x^k = 0$. Our assumptions show that $V_1, \dots, V_k, \partial/\partial x^{k+1}, \dots, \partial/\partial x^n$ form a local frame defined on U . Since this theorem is local, we can assume $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$.

Let θ_i denote the flow of V_i . Then since the vector fields commute, there is an $\varepsilon > 0$ such that $(\theta_1)_{t_1} \circ \dots \circ (\theta_k)_{t_k}$ is defined when $|t_i| < \varepsilon$ and on a neighborhood Y of p . Define $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n-k}$ by

$$\Omega = \{(s^{k+1}, \dots, s^n) \mid (0, \dots, 0, s^{k+1}, \dots, s^n) \in Y\}.$$

Define $\Phi: (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)^k \times \Omega \rightarrow U$ by

$$\Phi(s^1, \dots, s^k, s^{k+1}, \dots, s^n) = (\theta_1)_{s^1} \circ \dots \circ (\theta_k)_{s^k}(0, \dots, 0, s^{k+1}, \dots, s^n).$$

By construction $\Phi(\{0\} \times \Omega) = S \cap Y$. Now we will show that $\partial/\partial s^i$ is Φ -related to V_i for $i \leq k$. For any $i \leq k$ and $s_0 \in (-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)^k \times \Omega$, we have

$$d\Phi_{s_0} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial s^i} \Big|_{s_0} \right) f = \frac{\partial}{\partial s^i} \Big|_{s_0} f(\Phi(s^1, \dots, s^n)) = \frac{\partial}{\partial s^i} \Big|_{s_0} f((\theta_1)_{s^1} \circ \dots \circ (\theta_k)_{s^k}(0, \dots, 0, s^{k+1}, \dots, s^n)).$$

Since the flows commute, we can reorder this composition to put θ_i first. And $t \mapsto (\theta_i)_t(q)$ is integral for V_i so this is equal to the derivative of f composed with this integral curve, equal to $V_i|_{\Phi(s_0)} f$ as desired.

Now we will show that $d\Phi_0$ is invertible. Since $d\Phi_0(\partial/\partial s_0^i) = V_i|_p$ by our above computation, and $\Phi(0, \bar{s}) = (0, \bar{s})$ we see that

$$d\Phi_0 \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial s^i} \Big|_0 \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial s^i} \Big|_p, \quad i > k.$$

Thus $d\Phi_0$'s image of the coordinate basis is itself a basis, so it is invertible.

So Φ is a diffeomorphism in a neighborhood of 0, and $\varphi = \Phi^{-1}$ is a smooth coordinate chart around p where V_i 's coordinate representation is $\partial/\partial s^i$ and takes S to the slice $s^1 = \dots = s^k = 0$. ■

10 Vector Bundles

10.1 Vector bundles

10.1.1 Definition

Let X be a topological space. A (real) **vector bundle** of rank k is a topological space E along with a surjective continuous map $\pi: E \rightarrow X$ satisfying the following conditions:

- (1) for each $p \in M$, the fiber $E_p = \pi^{-1}p$ is endowed with a k -dimensional real vector space structure,
- (2) for each $p \in M$ there is a neighborhood $p \in U \subseteq M$ and a homeomorphism $\Phi: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$, called a **local trivialization** of E over U , satisfying
 - (i) $\pi_U \circ \Phi = \pi$ where $\pi_U: U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is the projection,
 - (ii) for each $q \in U$, the restriction of Φ to E_q is a vector space isomorphism from E_q to $\{q\} \times \mathbb{R}^k \cong \mathbb{R}^k$.

E is called the **total space** of the bundle, X is its **base**, and π the **projection**.

When $X = M$ and E are smooth manifolds, π is smooth, and the local trivializations are diffeomorphisms, then E is called a **smooth vector bundle**. The trivializations are called **smooth local trivializations**.

If there is a trivialization of E over all of M , then it is called a **global trivialization** and the bundle is called a **trivial bundle**. In such a case E is necessarily homeomorphic to $M \times \mathbb{R}^k$; when the bundle is smooth this is of course a diffeomorphism.

The requirement that $\pi_U \circ \Phi = \pi$ means that for $p \in U$ and $v \in E_p$, $\Phi(v) = (p, \bullet)$.

Note:

Unless specified otherwise, all vector bundles are assumed to be smooth.

10.1.2 Example

Define $E = M \times \mathbb{R}^k$, and $\pi: M \times \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow M$ the obvious projection. Then $\pi^{-1}p = \{p\} \times \mathbb{R}^k$ has an obvious k -dimensional structure. This is a trivial bundle in the obvious way, when M is smooth it is a smooth trivial bundle.

The tangent bundle is the prototypical example of a vector bundle.

10.1.3 Proposition

Let M be a smooth n -manifold, and TM its tangent bundle. With the ordinary projection map, the usual vector space structure on each fiber $(T_p M)$, and the usual topology and smooth structure, TM forms a smooth vector bundle of rank n over M .

Proof

For any smooth chart (U, φ) of M with coordinate functions (x^i) , define $\Phi: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$\Phi \left(v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \right) = (p, v^1, \dots, v^n).$$

Notice that the composite

$$\pi^{-1}U \xrightarrow{\Phi} U \times \mathbb{R}^n \xrightarrow{\varphi \times \text{id}} \varphi(U) \times \mathbb{R}^n$$

is the smooth atlas of TM corresponding to the chart (U, φ) . It and $\varphi \times \text{id}$ are diffeomorphisms, thus Φ is smooth.

And clearly we have

$$\pi_U \circ \Phi = \pi,$$

completing the proof. ■

10.1.4 Proposition

Smooth vector bundles are smooth submersions.

Proof

Let $p \in M$, so there exists a neighborhood $p \in U$ with a diffeomorphism $\Phi: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ such that $\pi = \pi_U \circ \Phi$. Now π_U and Φ are submersions, and thus so is $\pi|_{\pi^{-1}U}$. These $\pi^{-1}U$ cover E and so it is globally a smooth submersion. ■

10.1.5 Lemma

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth vector bundle of rank k . Suppose that $\Phi: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ and $\Psi: \pi^{-1}(V) \rightarrow V \times \mathbb{R}^k$ are two smooth local trivializations with $U \cap V$ being nonempty. Then there is a smooth map $\tau: U \cap V \rightarrow \text{GL}_k(\mathbb{R})$ such that the composition $\Phi \circ \Psi^{-1}: (U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow (U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k$ has the form

$$\Phi \circ \Psi^{-1}(p, v) = (p, \tau(p)v).$$

Proof

Note that restricting Φ to $\pi^{-1}(U \cap V)$ maps into $(U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k$: $\pi_1 \circ \Phi = \pi$, meaning Φ 's first coordinate is in $\pi \circ \pi^{-1}(U \cap V) = U \cap V$.

The following diagram commutes

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} (U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k & \xleftarrow{\Psi} & \pi^{-1}(U \cap V) & \xrightarrow{\Phi} & (U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k \\ & \searrow \pi_1 & \downarrow \pi & \swarrow \pi_1 & \\ & & U \cap V & & \end{array}$$

Meaning that $\pi_1 = \pi_1 \circ \Psi^{-1} \circ \Phi$, so $\Psi^{-1} \circ \Phi$ doesn't change the first coordinate. So there is a smooth map $\sigma: (U \cap V) \times \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ such that

$$\Phi \circ \Psi^{-1}(p, v) = (p, \sigma(p, v)).$$

For a fixed $p \in U \cap V$, $\sigma(p, \bullet)$ is an invertible linear map $\mathbb{R}^k$ to $\mathbb{R}^k$. Thus there is an invertible matrix $\tau(p) \in \text{GL}_k(\mathbb{R})$ such that $\sigma(p, v) = \tau(p)v$. The map τ is constant, as its columns are given by $C_i \tau(p) = \sigma(p, e_i)$ (e_i are the standard basis vectors), which are smooth. ■

10.1.6 Definition

The map described in the above lemma, $\tau: (U \cap V) \rightarrow \text{GL}_k(\mathbb{R})$, is called the **transition function** between the local trivializations Φ and Ψ .

10.1.7 Lemma

Let M be a smooth manifold, and suppose for each $p \in M$ we are given a real vector space E_p of some fixed dimension k . Let $E = \coprod_{p \in M} E_p$, and let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be the obvious projection (its component on E_p is the constant map to p). Suppose further that we have:

- (1) an open cover $\{U_\alpha\}_\alpha$ of M ;
- (2) for each α , a bijective map $\Phi_\alpha: \pi^{-1}(U_\alpha) \rightarrow U_\alpha \times \mathbb{R}^k$ whose restriction to each E_p for $p \in U_\alpha$ is a vector space isomorphism $E_p \rightarrow \{p\} \times \mathbb{R}^k$;
- (3) for each α, β where $U_\alpha \cap U_\beta$ is nonempty, a smooth map $\tau_{\alpha\beta}: U_\alpha \cap U_\beta \rightarrow \text{GL}_k(\mathbb{R})$ such that the map $\Phi_\alpha \circ \Phi_\beta^{-1}$ on $(U_\alpha \cap U_\beta) \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is given by

$$\Phi_\alpha \circ \Phi_\beta^{-1}(p, v) = (p, \tau_{\alpha\beta}(p)v).$$

Then E has a unique topology and smooth structure making it into a smooth vector bundle over M of rank k , with π the projection, and $\{(U_\alpha, \Phi_\alpha)\}$ the trivializations.

Proof

For each $p \in M$, choose a U_α containing it, and a smooth chart (V_p, φ_p) for M with $p \in V_p \subseteq U_\alpha$. Then let $\hat{V}_p = \varphi_p(V_p) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ or $\mathbb{H}^n$, with $n = \dim M$. Define the map $\tilde{\varphi}_p: \pi^{-1}V_p \rightarrow \hat{V}_p \times \mathbb{R}^k$ by

$$\tilde{\varphi}_p: \pi^{-1}\hat{V}_p \xrightarrow{\Phi_\alpha} V_p \times \mathbb{R}^k \xrightarrow{\varphi_p \times \text{id}} \hat{V}_p \times \mathbb{R}^k.$$

We will now show that the collection of charts $\{(\pi^{-1}V_p, \tilde{\varphi}_p)\}_{p \in M}$ make E into a vector bundle.

As a composition of bijective maps, $\tilde{\varphi}_p$ is bijective, and its image $\hat{V}_p \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is open in either $\mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^k$ or $\mathbb{H}^n \times \mathbb{R}^k \cong \mathbb{H}^{n+k}$. For $p, q \in M$ we have

$$\tilde{\varphi}_p(\pi^{-1}V_p \cap \pi^{-1}V_q) = \varphi_p(V_p \cap V_q) \times \mathbb{R}^k$$

because Φ_α maps $\pi^{-1}(X)$ to $X \times \mathbb{R}^k$ bijectively for $X \subseteq U_\alpha$. This is open, as φ_p is a homeomorphism. Furthermore, if two charts overlap then

$$\tilde{\varphi}_p \circ \tilde{\varphi}_q^{-1} = (\varphi_p \times \text{id}) \circ \Phi_\alpha \circ \Phi_\beta^{-1} \circ (\varphi_q \times \text{id})^{-1}.$$

The maps $\varphi_p \times \text{id}$ and $\Phi_\alpha \circ \Phi_\beta^{-1}$ are diffeomorphisms, as desired.

The open cover $\{V_p\}_p$ of M has a countable subcover, so there is a countable subcovering of E by charts.

Finally we need to show that E is Hausdorff. If two points in E lie in the same E_p , then they lie in $\pi^{-1}V_p$. And if $\xi \in E_p$ and $\eta \in E_q$ for $p \neq q$, then taking disjoint $p \in V_p$ and $q \in V_q$, we have that $\xi \in \pi^{-1}V_p$ and $\eta \in \pi^{-1}V_q$ are disjoint neighborhoods. Thus E is a smooth manifold.

We now just need to verify that the data given forms a vector bundle. Φ_α is a diffeomorphism, because in terms of $(\pi^{-1}V_p, \tilde{\varphi}_p)$ for E and $(V_p \times \mathbb{R}^k, \varphi_p \times \text{id})$ for $U_\alpha \times \mathbb{R}^k$, the coordinate representation of Φ_α is just the identity. The coordinate representation of π relative to (V_p, φ_p) for M and its induced chart for E is

$$\varphi_p \circ \pi \circ \tilde{\varphi}_p^{-1}(x, v) = \varphi_p \circ \pi \circ \Phi_\alpha^{-1}(\varphi_p^{-1}x, v) = \varphi_p(\varphi_p^{-1}x) = x,$$

which is smooth. By assumption, Φ_α maps E_p to $\{p\} \times \mathbb{R}^k$ so that $\pi_1 \circ \Phi_\alpha = \pi$.

This being the unique smooth structure follows from the requirement that Φ_α be diffeomorphisms. They are local diffeomorphisms whose domains cover E , and thus define the smooth structure on E . ■

10.1.8 Example

Suppose we have two vector bundles on M , $E' \rightarrow M$ and $E'' \rightarrow M$ of rank k', k'' respectively. Then we can define their **Whitney sum** to be the vector bundle $E \rightarrow M$ whose fiber at $p \in M$ is $E'_p \oplus E''_p$. The total space is $E = \coprod_{p \in M} E'_p \oplus E''_p$ and $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ is the obvious projection. For $p \in M$ choose a neighborhood U small enough so that there exist local trivializations (U, Φ') of E' and (U, Φ'') of E'' . Then define $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^{k'} \times \mathbb{R}^{k''}$ by

$$\Phi(v', v'') = (\pi'(v'), \pi_{k'} \circ \Phi'(v'), \pi_{k''} \circ \Phi''(v'')),$$

where $\pi_{k'}: \mathbb{R}^{k'} \times \mathbb{R}^{k''} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{k'}$ is the projection. Note that Φ 's restriction to $E_p = E'_p \oplus E''_p$ is a linear isomorphism to $\{p\} \times \mathbb{R}^{k'} \times \mathbb{R}^{k''}$ given by the linear isomorphisms of Φ', Φ'' .

Now if we have another pair of local trivializations $(\tilde{U}, \tilde{\Phi}'), (\tilde{U}, \tilde{\Phi}'')$ with transition maps $\tau': U \cap \tilde{U} \rightarrow \text{GL}_{k'}(\mathbb{R})$ and $\tau'': U \cap \tilde{U} \rightarrow \text{GL}_{k''}(\mathbb{R})$. Then the transition function for $E' \oplus E''$ has the form

$$\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1}(p, v', v'') = (p, \tau(p)(v', v'')), \quad \tau(p) = \tau'(p) \oplus \tau''(p),$$

where the direct sum of matrices is given by the diagonal block matrix.

So by the above lemma, there is a unique vector bundle $E \rightarrow M$. This vector bundle $E = E' \oplus E''$ is called the **Whitney sum**.

10.1.9 Example

If $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ is a rank- k vector bundle, and $S \subseteq M$, then define the **restriction** of E to S to be the set $E|_S = \bigcup_{s \in S} E_s$, and the projection $E|_S \rightarrow S$ obtained by restricting π . If $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is a local trivialization, it restricts to a bijective map $\Phi|_S: (\pi|_S)^{-1}(U \cap S) \rightarrow (U \cap S) \times \mathbb{R}^k$. These form local trivializations for a continuous vector bundle structure on $E|_S$.

If $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold, then it can be shown by the above lemma that $E|_S$ has a smooth structure making it into a smooth vector bundle over S . When $E = TM$, $TM|_S$ is called the **ambient tangent bundle** over M .

10.2 Sections of vector bundles

10.2.1 Definition

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a vector bundle. A **section** of E is a section of the map π , i.e. a map $\sigma: M \rightarrow E$ such that $\pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}_M$ (i.e. $\sigma(p) \in E_p$). If we do not assume that σ is continuous, we call it a **rough section**, and if σ is smooth it is a **smooth section**.

For an open subset $U \subseteq M$, a (rough/continuous/smooth) **local section** is a (rough/continuous/smooth) map $\sigma: U \rightarrow E$ such that $\pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}_U$. Sections on all of M are also called **global sections**.

The set of sections on E is denoted by $\Gamma(E)$.

The simplest example of a section is the **zero section**: $\zeta: M \rightarrow E$ which maps $p \in M$ to the zero vector of E_p . This is a smooth section, as for every $p \in M$ we can take a local trivialization (U, Φ) . Consider the composition

$$U \xrightarrow{\zeta} \pi^{-1}U \xrightarrow{\Phi} U \times \mathbb{R}^k,$$

which maps $p \in U$ to $(p, 0)$ (since $\zeta(p) = 0 \in E_p$ and Φ restricts to a linear isomorphism), and this is smooth. Since Φ is a diffeomorphism, ζ is smooth in U , and thus on all of M .

Note that sections of TM are the same as vector fields on M , so $\Gamma(TM) = \mathfrak{X}(M)$.

10.2.2 Example

A section of the ambient tangent bundle $TM|_S \rightarrow S$ is called a **vector field along S** . It is a map $X: S \rightarrow TM$ such that $X_p \in T_pM$ for $p \in S$. This is not a vector field *on* S which requires $X_p \in T_pS$.

10.2.3 Example

If $E = M \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is a trivial bundle, then there is a natural correspondence between sections of E and maps $M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$. A map $F: M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ then defines the section $\tilde{F}: M \rightarrow M \times \mathbb{R}^k$ by $\tilde{F}(p) = (p, F(p))$, and vice versa.

In particular there is a natural correspondence between $C^\infty(M)$ and sections of the trivial line bundle $M \times \mathbb{R} \rightarrow M$.

10.2.4 Proposition

$\Gamma(E)$ is a $C^\infty(M)$ -module under pointwise addition and multiplication: for $\sigma_1, \sigma_2 \in \Gamma(E)$ and $f \in C^\infty(M)$,

$$(\sigma_1 + \sigma_2)(p) = \sigma_1(p) + \sigma_2(p), \quad (f\sigma)(p) = f(p)\sigma(p)$$

are sections of E .

Proof

Note that at least as maps, these are well-defined, since $\sigma_i(p) \in E_p$ which is a vector space. For $p \in M$ let (U, Φ) be a local trivialization with $p \in U$. Then since Φ is a linear space isomorphism on E_p ,

$$\Phi \circ (\sigma_1 + \sigma_2)(p) = (p, \Phi \circ \sigma_1(p) + \Phi \circ \sigma_2(p)),$$

which is smooth, as desired. Similarly

$$\Phi \circ (f\sigma)(p) = (p, f(p)\Phi \circ \sigma),$$

which is again smooth. ■

10.2.5 Lemma

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth vector bundle. Then for any $A \subseteq M$ closed contained in an open neighborhood U , and a section $\sigma: A \rightarrow E$ which is smooth (meaning it can be extended to a smooth map in a neighborhood of any $p \in A$), then there exists a global section $\tilde{\sigma}: M \rightarrow E$ restricting to σ on A supported in U .

Proof

The proof is pretty much the same as the one for vector fields. ■

10.2.6 Definition

Let $E \rightarrow M$ be a vector bundle, and $U \subseteq M$ open. A tuple of local sections of E over U , $(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_k)$, is **linearly independent** if $(\sigma_1(p), \dots, \sigma_k(p))$ is linearly independent in E_p for all $p \in U$. Similarly they **span** E if their values at p span E_p for all $p \in U$. A **local frame** for E over U is a linearly independent tuple of local sections over U which span E , i.e. their values form a basis for E_p for every $p \in U$.

10.2.7 Proposition

Let $E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth vector bundle of rank k .

- (1) For any $p \in U$ and any linearly independent tuple of local sections of E over U , there is a neighborhood $p \in V \subseteq U$ such that the tuple can be extended to a local frame for E over V .
- (2) If $(v_1, \dots, v_k)$ are linearly independent elements in E_p , there exists a neighborhood of p and a local frame over that neighborhood whose values at p are v_i .
- (3) If $A \subseteq M$ is closed and $(\tau_1, \dots, \tau_k)$ are smooth linearly independent sections of $E|_A$, then there is a smooth local frame $(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n)$ for E over some neighborhood of A such that $\sigma_i|_A = \tau_i$.

Proof

Suppose that $(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_k)$ is linearly independent but not a local frame. We show that we can extend it by another linearly independent section, and the result follows by inducting. Let (V, Φ) be a trivialization with $p \in V \subseteq U$, then $\Phi \circ \sigma_i(p) \in \{p\} \times \mathbb{R}^k$ are linearly independent and smooth. We want to construct a smooth map $\sigma: V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ which is linearly independent to these, and then $\Phi^{-1}\sigma$ gives the desired extension. Choose $v \in E_p$ to be linearly independent of $\Phi \circ \sigma_i(p)$, and then for a chart (V', φ) with $\varphi(p) = e_1$, define $\sigma(q) = \varphi(q)_1 v$ (where $\varphi(q)_1$ is the first coordinate of the real vector); this is clearly smooth. Then $\sigma(p) = v$ is linearly independent of $\Phi \circ \sigma_i(p)$, the matrix $\Phi \circ \sigma_i(p), \sigma(p)$ is full rank, and since the set of full rank matrices is open, there is a neighborhood of p where $\Phi \circ \sigma_i, \sigma$ is still full rank and thus linearly independent.

The construction for the second point is similar to the first.

For the last point, we can extend τ_i to a local frame of $E|_A$. Then we can extend them to a neighborhood of A using a partition of unity. Then this extension is still linearly independent in a neighborhood of A , by virtue of being smooth and linear independence being an open property. ■

10.2.8 Example

If $E = M \times \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow M$ is a trivial bundle, then the standard basis $e_1, \dots, e_k$ for $\mathbb{R}^k$ defines a global frame $(\tilde{e}_i)$ for E by $\tilde{e}_i(p) = (p, e_i)$.

10.2.9 Example

Suppose $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ is a smooth vector bundle and $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ a smooth local trivialization to construct a local frame for E over U . Define $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_k: U \rightarrow E$ by $\sigma_i(p) = \Phi^{-1}(p, e_i) = \Phi^{-1} \circ \tilde{e}_i(p)$. This is smooth as Φ is a diffeomorphism, and is a section since $\pi \circ \sigma_i(p) = \pi \circ \Phi^{-1}(p, e_i) = \pi_1(p, e_i) = p$. These form a basis over each E_p since $\Phi^{-1}(p, \bullet)$ is a linear isomorphism.

10.2.10 Proposition

Every local frame for a smooth vector bundle is associated with a smooth local trivialization as in the above example. That is, every local frame is of the form $\Phi^{-1} \circ \tilde{e}_i$ for a local trivialization Φ .

Proof

If (σ_i) is a local frame for E over $U \subseteq M$, define $\Psi: U \times \mathbb{R}^k \rightarrow \pi^{-1}(U)$ by

$$\Psi(p, v^1, \dots, v^k) = v^i \sigma_i(p).$$

This is a bijection, since (σ_i) is a local frame. And $\sigma_i = \Psi \circ \tilde{e}_i$, so if we can show Ψ^{-1} is a local trivialization, we are finished.

To show that Ψ is a diffeomorphism, it is sufficient to show it is a local diffeomorphism as it is bijective. For $q \in U$, choose a neighborhood $q \in V$ such that there exists a smooth trivialization $\Phi: \pi^{-1}V \rightarrow V \times \mathbb{R}^k$. Since Φ is a diffeomorphism, if we can show that $\Phi \circ \Psi$ is as well, then we will have that Ψ is a local diffeomorphism.

For each section σ_i , $\Phi \circ \sigma_i|_V: V \rightarrow V \times \mathbb{R}^k$ is smooth, and thus $\Phi \circ \sigma_i(p) = (p, \sigma_i^1(p), \dots, \sigma_i^k(p))$ for smooth σ_i^j . Thus

$$\Phi \circ \Psi(p, v^1, \dots, v^k) = \Phi(v^i \sigma_i(p)) = (p, v^i \sigma_i^1(p), \dots, v^i \sigma_i^k(p)),$$

which is clearly smooth.

To show that $(\Phi \circ \Psi)^{-1}$ is smooth, note that the matrix $(\sigma_i^j(p))$ is invertible, as $\sigma_i(p)$ form a basis. Taking the inverse of a matrix is smooth, and its inverse $(\tau_i^j(p))$ is smooth. We also have

$$(\Phi \circ \Psi)^{-1}(p, w^1, \dots, w^k) = (p, w^i \tau_i^1(p), \dots, w^i \tau_i^k(p))$$

which is also smooth. ■

10.2.11 Corollary

A smooth vector bundle is smoothly trivial iff it admits a global frame.

Proof

A global frame induces a global trivialization by the above proposition, and a global trivialization induces a global frame by the example above. ■

10.2.12 Definition

A smooth manifold M is **parallelizable** if TM admits a global frame.

The above corollary shows that M is parallelizable iff $TM \rightarrow M$ is trivial.

If (σ_i) is a local frame for E over $U \subseteq M$, and $\tau: M \rightarrow E$ is a rough section, then since $(\sigma_i(p))$ span E_p there are unique functions $\tau^i: M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$\tau(p) = \tau^i(p)\sigma_i(p)$$

for all $p \in U$. These functions are called τ 's **component functions** with respect to the local frame.

10.2.13 Proposition

A rough section is smooth on U iff its component functions with respect to a (equivalently, any) local frame over U are smooth.

Proof

Let $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ be the local trivialization associated to the local frame (σ_i) . Then for $\tau: U \rightarrow E$ rough, it is smooth iff $\Phi \circ \tau$ is, and

$$\Phi \circ \tau(p) = \Phi(\tau^i(p)\sigma_i(p)) = (p, \tau^1(p), \dots, \tau^n(p)),$$

so that it is smooth iff each τ^i is. ■

10.2.14 Proposition

The topology and smooth structure on the tangent bundle TM is the unique one making it a vector bundle over M , with the given vector space structure on the fibers of the projection $\pi: TM \rightarrow M$, such that all coordinate vector fields are smooth local sections.

Proof

Suppose TM is endowed with some topology and smooth structure making it into a smooth vector bundle with the given properties. Let (U, φ) is any local chart, with the corresponding coordinate frame $(\partial/\partial x^i|_p)$ over U . Then there is a local trivialization $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^n$ associated with this local frame. By definition,

$$\Phi(v^i \partial/\partial x^i|_p) = (p, v^1, \dots, v^n).$$

Then the map $(\varphi \times \text{id}) \circ \Phi$ is the map $v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \big|_p \mapsto (\varphi(p), v^1, \dots, v^n)$. This is precisely $\tilde{\varphi}$, the chart associated with φ . Thus TM must contain all such charts, which means it has the canonical smooth structure we gave it. ■

10.3 Bundle morphisms

10.3.1 Definition

If $\pi: E \rightarrow M, \pi': E' \rightarrow M'$ are vector bundles, then a **bundle morphism** is a continuous map $F: E \rightarrow E'$ such that there exists a continuous $f: M \rightarrow M'$ making the below diagram commute

$$\begin{array}{ccc} E & \xrightarrow{\quad F \quad} & E' \\ \pi \downarrow & & \downarrow \pi' \\ M & \xrightarrow{\quad f \quad} & M' \end{array}$$

And further that for each $p \in M$, $F|_{E_p}: E_p \rightarrow E'_{f(p)}$ is linear. We say that F **covers** f .

Let $\zeta: M \rightarrow E$ be the zero section, then if $f \circ \pi = \pi' \circ F$, we have $f = \pi' \circ F \circ \zeta$. Thus if the vector bundles and F are smooth, so is ζ , and thus so is f . So requiring that f be smooth for a smooth bundle morphism does not add any restriction.

Bundle morphisms, and smooth bundle morphisms, can obviously be composed, and thus form a category. So we can talk about bundle isomorphisms, and isomorphic (or smoothly isomorphic) vector bundles.

10.3.2 Definition

If $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ and $\pi': E' \rightarrow M$ are vector bundles over the same base M , a **bundle morphism over M** is a bundle morphism $F: E \rightarrow E'$ over id_M . Equivalently it is a map $F: E \rightarrow E'$ such that $\pi = \pi' \circ F$ and $F|_{E_p}: E_p \rightarrow E_p$ is linear.

Clearly morphisms over a base M form a subcategory, so we can discuss **smooth bundle isomorphisms over M** .

10.3.3 Proposition

If $\pi: E \rightarrow M, \pi': E' \rightarrow M$ are smooth vector bundles over M , a bijective smooth bundle morphism over M , $F: E \rightarrow E'$, is an isomorphism over M .

Proof

We have that $\pi = \pi' \circ F$ and so $\pi \circ F^{-1} = \pi'$ is smooth. Since vector bundles are surjective submersions, this means that F^{-1} is smooth. It restricts linearly to the fibers because F does. ■

10.3.4 Example

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, $dF: TM \rightarrow TN$ is a smooth bundle morphism covering F .

Now if $E \rightarrow M, E' \rightarrow M$ are smooth bundles, let $\Gamma(E), \Gamma(E')$ be their space of smooth global sections. Then if $F: E \rightarrow E'$ is a smooth bundle morphism over M , it induces a map $\tilde{F}: \Gamma(E) \rightarrow \Gamma(E')$ by

$$\tilde{F}(\sigma)(p) = (F \circ \sigma)(p).$$

This is indeed a section of π' , since $\pi' \circ (F \circ \sigma) = \pi \circ \sigma = \text{id}$.

This map is a morphism of $C^\infty(M)$ -modules:

$$\tilde{F}(u_1\sigma_1 + u_2\sigma_2) = F \circ (u_1\sigma_1) + F \circ (u_2\sigma_2) = u_1(F \circ \sigma_1) + u_2(F \circ \sigma_2),$$

since F is linear on fibers.

10.3.5 Lemma

All $C^\infty(M)$ -morphisms $\Gamma(E) \rightarrow \Gamma(E')$ arise in this way.

Proof

Let $\mathcal{F}: \Gamma(E) \rightarrow \Gamma(E')$ be a $C^\infty(M)$ -morphism. We claim that $\mathcal{F}$ acts locally, so that if $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2$ in an open $U \subseteq M$, then $\mathcal{F}(\sigma_1) = \mathcal{F}(\sigma_2)$ in U as well. By $\mathcal{F}$'s linearity it is sufficient to prove this for $\sigma = 0$ in U .

For $p \in U$ let $\psi \in C^\infty(M)$ be a smooth bump function supported in U and equal to 1 at p . Then $\psi\sigma$ is zero on M and thus

$$0 = \mathcal{F}(\psi\sigma) = \psi\mathcal{F}(\sigma),$$

and then plugging in p we see that $\mathcal{F}(\sigma)(p) = 0$ for all $p \in U$ as desired.

Now we show that if $\sigma_1(p) = \sigma_2(p)$ then $\mathcal{F}(\sigma_1)(p) = \mathcal{F}(\sigma_2)(p)$. Again it is sufficient to assume $\sigma(p) = 0$. Let $(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n)$ be a local frame for E in a neighborhood U of p , and let $\sigma = u^i\sigma_i$. Then $\sigma(p) = 0$ means that $u^i(p) = 0$ for all i . By our above point, since $\sigma = u^i\sigma_i$ locally,

$$\mathcal{F}(\sigma)(p) = (u^i\mathcal{F}(\sigma_i))(p) = 0$$

as desired.

Now define $F: E \rightarrow E'$ as follows. For $p \in M$ and $v \in E_p$, define $F(v) = \mathcal{F}(\tilde{v})(p) \in E'_p$ where $\tilde{v}$ is any global section of E such that $\tilde{v}(p) = v$. This is independent on choice of $\tilde{v}$, as we just showed. And it is linear in E_p since $\tilde{v} + \tilde{u}$ is a section mapping p to $v + u$, and $\lambda\tilde{v}$ is one mapping p to λv . Also we have

$$\pi' \circ F(v) = \pi'(\mathcal{F}(\tilde{v})(p)) = \pi' \circ \mathcal{F}(\tilde{v})(p) = p = \pi(v),$$

since $\mathcal{F}(\tilde{v})$ is a section of π' . For $p \in M$ and $\sigma \in \Gamma(E)$, by definition

$$(F \circ \sigma)(p) = \mathcal{F}(\widetilde{\sigma(p)})(p) = \mathcal{F}(\sigma)(p),$$

so that $F \circ \sigma = \mathcal{F}(\sigma)$ as desired.

We need only show that F is smooth. For $p \in M$, let (σ_i) be a local frame for E in a neighborhood of p . We can extend these to global sections $(\tilde{\sigma}_i)$ in a smaller neighborhood of p . Potentially shrinking the neighborhood smaller, we can assume there is a local frame (σ'_j) for E' in that neighborhood, call it U .

Then $\mathcal{F}(\tilde{\sigma}_i)|_U = A_i^j\sigma'_j$ for $A_i^j \in C^\infty(U)$.

Then for any $q \in U$ and $v \in E_q$, we have $v = v^i\sigma_i(q)$ for some real numbers v^i and so

$$F(v^i\sigma_i(q)) = \mathcal{F}(v^i\tilde{\sigma}_i)(q) = v^i\mathcal{F}(\tilde{\sigma}_i)(q) = v^iA_i^j(q)\sigma'_j(q).$$

If Φ, Φ' are the local trivializations associated with σ_i, σ'_j then

$$\Phi' \circ F \circ \Phi^{-1}(q, v^1, \dots, v^k) = \Phi' \circ F(v^i\sigma_i(q)) = \Phi'(v^iA_i^j(q)\sigma'_j(q)) = (q, v^iA_i^1(q), \dots, v^iA_i^n(q)),$$

which is smooth. Since Φ', Φ^{-1} are diffeomorphisms, this shows that F is smooth on $\pi^{-1}U$. ■

10.4 Subbundles

10.4.1 Definition

Let $\pi_E: E \rightarrow M$ be a vector bundle. A **subbundle** is a topological subspace $D \subseteq E$ and a vector bundle $\pi_D: D \rightarrow M$ which is the restriction of π_E to D . Furthermore we require that for each $p \in M$, the subset $D_p = D \cap E_p$ is a linear subspace of E_p . A **smooth subbundle** is a continuous subbundle where $D \subseteq E$ is an embedded submanifold, and $\pi_D: D \rightarrow M$ is a smooth bundle.

10.4.2 Lemma

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth bundle, and suppose that for each $p \in M$ we have an m -dimensional subspace $D_p \subseteq E_p$. Then $D = \bigcup_p D_p \subseteq E$ is a smooth subbundle of E iff for every $p \in M$ there is a neighborhood $p \in U$ with smooth local sections $\sigma_i: U \rightarrow E$ such that $\sigma_i(q)$ form a basis for D_q at each $q \in U$.

Proof

If D is a smooth subbundle, then each $p \in M$ has a local trivialization over a neighborhood $p \in U$. Then there is a local frame (σ_i) over D . Then composing σ_i with the inclusion $D \hookrightarrow E$ gives the desired local sections for E .

Now suppose that π has rank k . To show that D is embedded, it is sufficient to show that for each $p \in M$ there is a neighborhood $p \in U$ such that $D \cap \pi^{-1}(U) \subseteq E$ is embedded. Let $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_m$ be the local sections in the assumption of the lemma in a neighborhood $p \in U$. We can then complete these to a local frame $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_k$ over E in a potentially smaller neighborhood. This is associated with a trivialization $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ mapping

$$\Phi(s^i \sigma_i(q)) = (q, s^1, \dots, s^k).$$

Then Φ takes $D \cap \pi^{-1}(U)$ to the subset $\{(q, s^1, \dots, s^m, 0) \in U \times \mathbb{R}^k\}$, which is an embedded submanifold of $U \times \mathbb{R}^k$. Thus $D \cap \pi^{-1}(U)$ is an embedded submanifold of E , as desired. Projecting this down to $\mathbb{R}^k$ gives the diffeomorphism $\pi_{\mathbb{R}^k} \circ \Phi: D \cap \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^m$, showing that D is also a smooth vector bundle itself. ■

10.4.3 Theorem

Let E, E' be smooth bundles over M , and $F: E \rightarrow E'$ be a smooth morphism over M . Define $\ker F \subseteq E, \operatorname{im} F \subseteq E'$ by

$$\ker F = \bigcup_{p \in M} \ker(F|_{E_p}), \quad \operatorname{im} F = \bigcup_{p \in M} \operatorname{im}(F|_{E_p}).$$

Then $\ker F, \operatorname{im} F$ are smooth subbundles of E, E' respectively iff F has constant rank.

Proof

Note that $\ker(F|_{E_p})$ has codimension equal to the rank of F on $E|_p$, and similar for the image. Thus in order for $\ker F, \operatorname{im} F$ to be subbundles F must have constant rank.

Now suppose F has constant rank r , and suppose E, E' have respective ranks k, k' . Let $p \in M$ and choose a local frame σ_i for E over U . For each i , $F \circ \sigma_i: U \rightarrow E'$ is a smooth local section of E' , and necessarily spans $(\operatorname{im} F)|_U$. Then we can assume $F \circ \sigma_1(p), \dots, F \circ \sigma_r(p)$ forms a basis for $\operatorname{im}(F|_{E_p})$, and then by continuity they remain linearly independent in a neighborhood of p . Since F has constant rank, these must form a basis for each $\operatorname{im}(F|_{E_q})$ for every q in the neighborhood. By the above lemma, we have finished.

For the kernel, let σ_i be as above, defined on U . Let $V \subseteq E|_U$ be the smooth subbundle spanned by σ_i , so that $F|_V: V \rightarrow (\operatorname{im} F)|_U$ is bijective, and thus a smooth bundle isomorphism. Define $\Psi: E|_U \rightarrow E|_U$ by $\Psi(v) = v - (F|_V)^{-1} \circ F(v)$. If $v \in V$ then $F(v) = F|_V(v)$ so that $F \circ \Psi(v) = F(v) - F \circ (F|_V)^{-1} \circ F(v) = F(v) - F(v) = 0$. And on the other hand, if $v \in \ker F$ then $\Psi(v) = v$, so again $F \circ \Psi(v) = 0$. Since V and $(\ker F)|_U$ span $E|_U$ together, we see that Ψ maps into $(\ker F)|_U$. It is the identity on the kernel, so it

is actually a projection onto $(\ker F)|_U$. Thus Ψ has constant rank, and then $(\ker F)|_U = \text{im } \Phi$ is a smooth subbundle of $E|_U$ by the above argument. This is true around each point, as desired. ■

11 The Cotangent Bundle

11.1 Covectors

Recall that for a finite-dimensional space V , its **dual** is the vector space $V^* = \text{hom}(V, \mathbb{R})$ of all linear functionals. A basis (E_i) for V defines a **dual basis** (ε^i) for V^* by

$$\varepsilon^i(E_j) = \delta_{ij},$$

and extending by linearity. Then for $\omega \in V^*$, we have that $\omega = a_i \varepsilon^i$ where $\omega(E_i) = a_i$. There is a natural isomorphism between V and its double dual V^{**} by mapping $v \in V$ to the map $\hat{v}: V^* \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ given by $\hat{v}(\sigma) = \sigma(v)$.

11.1.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold, and $p \in M$. The **cotangent space** of M at p is defined to be $T_p^*M = (T_p M)^*$, the dual of the tangent space of M at p . Elements of the cotangent space are called **covectors**.

Given a coordinate chart (x^i) in an open subset $U \subseteq M$, for each $p \in U$ the local frame $(\partial/\partial x^i|_p)$ for $T_p M$ gives rise to its dual basis $(\lambda^i|_p)$ in T_p^*M (we will give λ better notation soon). Then any covector $\omega \in T_p^*M$ can be write $\omega = \omega_i \lambda^i|_p$ where

$$\omega_i = \omega \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \right).$$

If $(\tilde{x}^i)$ is another coordinate chart whose domain contains p , then it defines the dual basis $(\tilde{\lambda}^i|_p)$. We know that

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(p) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_p,$$

and so if $\omega = \omega_i \lambda^i|_p = \tilde{\omega}_j \tilde{\lambda}^j|_p$, we have

$$\omega_i = \omega \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \right) = \omega \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(p) \frac{\partial}{\partial \tilde{x}^j} \Big|_p \right) = \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}(p) \tilde{\omega}_j.$$

11.1.2 Definition

The **cotangent bundle** of a smooth manifold is the vector bundle $\pi: T^*M \rightarrow M$ given by mapping T_p^*M to p .

11.1.3 Proposition

There is a unique smooth structure on M making the cotangent bundle a vector bundle, where each fiber is given the linear structure of T_p^*M .

Proof

For a smooth chart (U, φ) for M , define $\Phi: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$\Phi(\xi_i \lambda^i|_p) = (p, \xi_1, \dots, \xi_n),$$

where for $p \in \pi^{-1}(U)$, $\lambda^i|_p$ is the dual basis of T_p^*M . The restriction of Φ to T_p^*M is clearly a linear isomorphism.

If $(\tilde{U}, \tilde{\varphi})$ is another smooth chart with associated trivialization $\tilde{\Phi}$, we see that

$$\Phi \circ \tilde{\Phi}^{-1}(p, \tilde{\xi}_1, \dots, \tilde{\xi}_n) = \left(p, \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^1}(p) \tilde{\xi}_j, \dots, \frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^n}(p) \tilde{\xi}_j \right),$$

which is smooth (the transition function is the Jacobian $\frac{\partial \tilde{x}^j}{\partial x^i}$). Thus T^*M is a vector bundle. ■

The associated charts for these trivializations are $\tilde{\varphi}: \pi^{-1}(U) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{2n}$ given by $\tilde{\varphi} = (\varphi \times \text{id}_{\mathbb{R}^n}) \circ \Phi$, i.e.

$$\tilde{\varphi}(\xi_i \lambda^i|_p) = (\varphi(p), \xi_1, \dots, \xi_n).$$

11.1.4 Definition

A section of T^*M is called a **covector field**.

As before we consider also rough and continuous covector fields. For a chart (U, φ) of M we have local covector fields $\lambda^i: U \rightarrow T^*M$ mapping $p \in U$ to $\lambda^i|_p$. These are local frames by construction, as the local trivializations in the above proposition are associated to them. If $\omega: M \rightarrow T^*M$ is a rough covector field, then it has a local representation $\omega = \omega_i \lambda^i|_p$ with $\omega_i: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. As before, ω is smooth iff ω_i all are.

If X is a vector field of M , and ω a covector field, then we define $\omega(X): M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$\omega(X)(p) = \omega_p(X_p).$$

If we write $\omega = \omega_i \lambda^i|_p$ and $X = X^j \partial/\partial x^j|_p$ in terms of local coordinates from (U, φ) , then $\omega(X)$'s coordinate representation is

$$\omega(X) = \omega_i X^i.$$

11.1.5 Proposition

Let M be a smooth manifold, and $\omega: M \rightarrow T^*M$ a rough covector field. The following are equivalent:

- (1) ω is smooth,
- (2) In every smooth coordinate chart, the components of ω are smooth,
- (3) each point of M is contained in a coordinate chart in which ω has smooth components,
- (4) for every $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, $\omega(X)$ is smooth,
- (5) for every open $U \subseteq M$ and every smooth local vector field $X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$, $\omega(X): U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is smooth.

Proof

The first three are equivalent for general sections, and imply the fourth clearly, which implies the last. For the last point, notice that $\partial/\partial x^i|_p$ is a smooth local vector field and

$$\omega\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}\Big|_p\right) = \omega_i,$$

its i th component. So the last point implies the third. ■

11.2 Dual bundles

We can generalize the results from the previous section.

11.2.1 Definition

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a vector bundle. Its **dual bundle** is the bundle $E^* = \coprod_{p \in M} E_p^*$, with the obvious projection onto M .

If we have a local frame (σ_i) for E , it defines its **dual frame** (Σ^i) for E^* where $\Sigma^i|_p \in E_p^*$ is defined to be the dual basis of $\sigma_i|_p$ for each p in the neighborhood of the local frame. If $(\tilde{\sigma}_j)$ is another local frame, consider the associated trivializations $\Phi, \tilde{\Phi}$, so that

$$\Phi(\xi^i \sigma_i|_p) = (p, \xi^1, \dots, \xi^n).$$

So if $\sigma_i|_p = \tilde{\xi}^j \tilde{\sigma}_j$, then

$$\tilde{\Phi}(\sigma_i|_p) = (p, \tilde{\xi}).$$

Thus

$$\sigma_i|_p = \tilde{\Phi}^j(\sigma_i|_p) \tilde{\sigma}_j|_p.$$

And so if $\omega = \omega_i \Sigma^i|_p = \tilde{\omega}_i \tilde{\Sigma}^i|_p$ then

$$\omega_i = \omega(\sigma_i|_p) = \omega(\tilde{\Phi}^j(\sigma_i|_p) \tilde{\sigma}_j|_p) = \tilde{\Phi}^j(\sigma_i|_p) \tilde{\omega}_j|_p.$$

Recall that $\sigma_i|_p = \Phi^{-1}(p, e_i)$ so we can also write this as

$$\omega_i = \tilde{\Phi}^j \circ \Phi^{-1}(p, e_i) \tilde{\omega}_j|_p = (\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1})^j(p, e_i) \tilde{\omega}_j|_p.$$

11.2.2 Proposition

The dual bundle of a smooth vector bundle is a smooth vector bundle itself; it has a unique smooth structure making it into one. The double dual of a bundle is isomorphic to the original bundle.

Proof

Let $\pi: E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth vector bundle, and $\pi_*: E^* \rightarrow M$ be the projection. If (σ^i) is a local frame for E defined in U , then define the local trivialization $\Phi: \pi_*^{-1}(U) \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$\Phi(\xi_i \Sigma^i(p)) = (p, \xi_1, \dots, \xi_n),$$

where $\Sigma^i: U \rightarrow E^*$ is defined at each point to be the dual basis for $\sigma^i(p)$. Then if we have another local frame $(\tilde{\sigma}^i)$ and local trivialization $\tilde{\Phi}$, we have

$$\Phi \circ \tilde{\Phi}^{-1}(p, \xi_1, \dots, \xi_n) = \Phi(\xi_i \tilde{\Sigma}^i|_p) = \Phi((\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1})^j(p, e_i) \xi_j \Sigma^i|_p) = (p, (\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1})^j(p, e_i) \xi_j),$$

which is smooth.

The double dual is diffeomorphic to E since the smooth structure is unique. ■

If ω is a section of E^* , and (U, φ) is a chart for M with an associated section of E , (σ_i) , and (Σ^i) its dual frame, then $\omega = \omega_i \Sigma^i$ with

$$\omega_i|_p = \omega_p(\sigma_i|_p).$$

And as before if ω is a section of E^* and X a section of E , then define $\omega(X): M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by $\omega(X)(p) = \omega_p(X_p)$ and the results above apply.

11.2.3 Proposition

If (σ_i) is a rough local frame on $U \subseteq M$ for E , and (Σ_i) its dual frame for E^* , then σ_i is smooth iff Σ^i is.

Proof

Take a smooth local frame around a point in U , call it e_i , and its dual ε^i . These are smooth by assumption, and so we have

$$\sigma_i = \alpha_i^j e_j, \quad \Sigma^i = b_j^i \varepsilon^j.$$

Then σ_i is smooth iff α_i^j are, and Σ^i are smooth iff b_j^i are. Now,

$$\delta_{ij} = \Sigma^i(\sigma_j) = b_j^i \alpha_i^j$$

implies that (α_i^j) and (b_j^i) are inverses matrices, and thus one is smooth iff the other. $\blacksquare$

Since E^* is a vector bundle, its space of sections $\Gamma(E)$ is a $C^\infty(M)$ -module. In particular for the cotangent bundle T^*M , we denote its space of sections by $\mathfrak{X}^*(M)$.

11.3 Differential of a function**11.3.1 Definition**

Let $f: M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be real valued and smooth. We define a covector field $df: M \rightarrow T^*M$ by mapping $p \in M$ to the linear functional $df_p \in T_p^*M$ by

$$df_p(v) = vf, \quad v \in T_pM.$$

11.3.2 Proposition

The differential of a smooth function is a smooth covector field.

Proof

df_p is indeed linear, so df is a rough covector field at least. Notice that for any vector field X on M , $df(X) = Xf$, which is smooth. $\blacksquare$

Let (x^i) be coordinates of $U \subseteq M$, and λ^i its corresponding coframe. Then $df_p = A_i(p)\lambda^i|_p$ for $A_i: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$A_i(p) = df_p\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}\Big|_p\right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}\Big|_p f = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p).$$

Thus

$$df_p = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p)\lambda^i|_p.$$

In the special case that f is a coordinate function $x^j: U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, we get that

$$dx_p^j = \frac{\partial x^j}{\partial x^i}(p)\lambda^i|_p = \lambda^j|_p.$$

So $\lambda^j|_p$ is equivalently viewed as $dx^j|_p$! So we can write

$$df = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} dx^i.$$

11.3.3 Proposition

Let $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$.

- (1) $d(af + bg) = a df + b dg$ for $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$;
- (2) $d(fg) = f dg + g df$;
- (3) $d(f/g) = (g df - f dg)/g^2$ when $g \neq 0$;
- (4) if $J \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is an interval containing f 's image and $h: J \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is smooth, then $d(h \circ f) = (h' \circ f)df$;
- (5) if f is constant, $df = 0$.

11.3.4 Proposition

If $f \in C^\infty(M)$, then $df = 0$ iff f is constant on M 's components.

Proof

We assume that M is connected and show that $df = 0$ iff f is constant. One direction is easy, so assume $df = 0$. Let $p \in M$ and define $\mathcal{C} = \{q \in M \mid f(p) = f(q)\}$, a closed subset of M . If $q \in \mathcal{C}$, let U be a smooth coordinate ball centered at q . Then $\partial f / \partial x^i = 0$ on U (representing df via dx^i), so then f is constant on U . Thus $\mathcal{C}$ is open; it is then nonempty clopen so must be equal to all of M . ■

11.4 Pullbacks of covector fields**11.4.1 Definition**

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ smooth, then the differential at $p \in M$ $dF_p: T_p M \rightarrow T_p N$ dualizes to give the **pullback** of F at p , or the **cotangent map** of F at p : $dF_p^*: T_p^* N \rightarrow T_p^* M$.

The dual of a map $f: V \rightarrow W$ is the map $f^*: W^* \rightarrow V^*$ defined by $f^*(\varphi)(v) = \varphi(f(v))$. Thus the cotangent map is given by

$$dF_p^*(\omega)(v) = \omega(dF_p(v)), \quad \omega \in T_p^* N, \quad v \in T_p M.$$

Note:

The correspondence $(M, p) \mapsto T_p^* M$ is contravariant by this definition. Which is unfortunate since elements of $T_p^* M$ are called *covectors* (covariant vectors).

Recall that the pushforward of vector fields are only defined in some cases, e.g. when the morphism is a diffeomorphism. But pullbacks of covector fields always exist.

11.4.2 Definition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, and $\omega \in \mathfrak{X}^*(N)$ a covector field. Its **pullback** by F is $F^*\omega \in \mathfrak{X}^*(M)$ defined by

$$(F^*\omega) = dF_p^*(\omega_{Fp}),$$

or explicitly,

$$(F^*\omega)_p(v) = \omega_{Fp}(dF_p(v)).$$

11.4.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, $u \in C^\infty(N)$, and $\omega \in \mathfrak{X}^*(N)$, then

$$F^*(u\omega) = (u \circ F)F^*\omega.$$

If u is in addition smooth, then

$$F^*du = d(u \circ F).$$

Proof

We compute,

$$(F^*(u\omega))_p = dF_p^*(u(F(p))\omega_{F(p)}) = u(F(p))dF_p^*(\omega_{F(p)}) = ((u \circ F)dF^*\omega)_p,$$

as desired. And for $v \in T_pM$, we have

$$(F^*du)_p(v) = (dF_p^*(du_{F(p)}))(v) = du_{F(p)}(dF_p(v)) = dF_p(v)u$$

by the definition of du , and by the definition of $dF_p(v)$,

$$= v(u \circ F) = d(u \circ F)_p(v). \quad \blacksquare$$

11.4.4 Proposition

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth and $\omega \in \mathfrak{X}^*(N)$, then $F^*\omega$ is smooth (if ω is continuous, then $F^*\omega$ is continuous).

Proof

Let $p \in M$ be arbitrary and choose coordinates (y^j) for a neighborhood V of $F(p)$. Let $U = F^{-1}(V)$, and write $\omega = \omega_j dy^j$ for continuous/smooth coordinates ω_j . Then we have, by the above proposition, (applied to $F|_U: U \rightarrow V$ smooth)

$$F^*\omega = F^*(\omega_j dy^j) = (\omega_j \circ F)F^*dy^j = (\omega_j \circ F)d(y^j \circ F).$$

This is continuous, and smooth if ω is. ■

We can write the formula in the above proof by

$$F^*\omega = (\omega_j \circ F)dF^j,$$

where F^j is the j th coordinate of F relative to the coordinates.

12 Tensors

This section will be rather short, assuming a basic familiarity with tensor products. The following definition is a brief overview of notation.

12.0.1 Definition

We denote the tensor product of modules by $A \otimes B$. We denote the dual of an R -module A by $A^* = \text{hom}_R(A, R)$.

Note:

Primitive elements of the tensor product $A \otimes B$ are written $a \otimes b$; all other elements are sums of these.

The tensor product is associative (in a natural way), and we denote the tensor of n modules without parentheses. In an n -fold tensor product, we write the primitive elements without parentheses.

If $B_i = (b_1^i, \dots, b_{n_i}^i)$ is a basis for each V_i , then

$$B = \{b_{j_1}^1 \otimes b_{j_2}^2 \mid b_{j_i}^i \in B_i\} \subseteq V_1 \otimes \dots \otimes V_n$$

is a basis for the tensor product. In particular the dimension of a tensor product of vector spaces is the product of the dimensions of the vector spaces.

If A is an R -module, then $A \otimes R \cong A$ naturally. This natural isomorphism is given by mapping $a \otimes r \mapsto ra$.

The tensor product is functorial: if $F_i: A_i \rightarrow B_i$ are maps for $i = 1, 2$ then define $F_1 \otimes F_2: A_1 \otimes A_2 \rightarrow B_1 \otimes B_2$ by

$$(F_1 \otimes F_2)(a_1 \otimes a_2) = (F_1(a_1)) \otimes (F_2(a_2))$$

and extending by linearity. This is well-defined.

In the case of linear functionals $\varphi_i: A_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ we have that $\mathbb{R} \otimes \mathbb{R} \cong \mathbb{R}$, and this map is naturally isomorphic to

$$(\varphi_1 \otimes \varphi_2)(a_1 \otimes a_2) = \varphi_1(a_1)\varphi_2(a_2).$$

The universal property of the tensor product is that

$$\text{hom}(V_1 \otimes \dots \otimes V_n, A) \cong L(V_1, \dots, V_n; A)$$

naturally, where the right side is the space of multilinear maps $V_1 \otimes \dots \otimes V_n \rightarrow A$.

Note:

For a field k and a finite-dimensional k -linear space V , we know that $\dim V^* = \dim V$. For a basis $B = (v_1, \dots, v_n)$ we define its **dual basis** $B^* = (v_1^*, \dots, v_n^*)$ in V^* as the linear functionals defined by

$$v_i^*(v_j) = \delta_{ij},$$

and extending by linearity. These are linearly independent, and thus must be a basis considering dimensions.

There is a natural map from a space to its double dual, $V \rightarrow V^{**}$. For $v \in V$ define $\hat{v} \in V^{**}$ by $\hat{v}(\varphi) = \varphi(v)$ for all $\varphi \in V^*$. This is injective, and considering dimensions is an isomorphism. It is natural, and thus for finite-dimensional spaces V and V^{**} are naturally isomorphic.

For infinite-dimensional spaces, $\dim V^*$ is strictly greater than $\dim V$, so in particular V is naturally a proper subspace of V^{**} , but they are not isomorphic.

12.0.2 Proposition

Let $V_1, \dots, V_n$ be vector spaces, then there is a natural isomorphism

$$(V_1 \otimes \dots \otimes V_n)^* \cong V_1^* \otimes \dots \otimes V_n^*.$$

Proof

They have the same dimension, and thus we need only find an injective map. We define a map $V_1^* \otimes \dots \otimes V_n^*$

to the dual space on the left by mapping $\varphi_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes \varphi_n$ to the literal tensor product of maps:

$$(\varphi_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes \varphi_n)(a_1, \dots, a_n) = \varphi_1(a_1) \cdots \varphi_n(a_n).$$

If we choose a dual basis for each V_i^* , we see that it maps to a linearly independent set, and thus this is injective. ■

In particular, we then have the natural isomorphisms

$$V_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n \cong (V_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n)^{**} \cong (V_1^* \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n^*)^*.$$

Thus,

$$V_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n \cong \text{hom}(V_1^* \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n, \mathbb{R}) \cong L(V_1^*, \dots, V_n^*, \mathbb{R}).$$

So we can identify the tensor product $V_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n$ with multilinear maps $V_1^* \times \cdots \times V_n^* \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ naturally. Similarly, $V_1^* \otimes \cdots \otimes V_n^*$ can naturally be identified with multilinear maps $V_1 \times \cdots \times V_n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.

12.0.3 Definition

For a space A , denote by $T^k(A)$ the k -fold tensor product of A with itself:

$$T^k(A) = A \otimes \cdots \otimes A.$$

The empty tensor product is taken to be the ambient ring, so $T^0(A) = R$.

12.0.4 Definition

Let V be a finite-dimensional real vector space. A **covariant k -tensor** for $k > 0$ is an element of $V^* \otimes \cdots \otimes V^*$. Equivalently, it is a multilinear map $V \times \cdots \times V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. If α is a covariant k -tensor for some k , it is called a **covariant tensor** and its **rank** is k . The space of covariant k -tensors is $T^k(V^*)$.

A **contravariant k -tensor** for $k > 0$ is an element of $V \otimes \cdots \otimes V = T^k(V)$. Equivalently, a multilinear map $V^* \times \cdots \times V^* \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. The rank is defined similarly.

For $k, \ell \neq 0$ nonnegative, we define a **tensor of type (k, ℓ)** to be an element of

$$T^{(k, \ell)}(V) = V \otimes \cdots \otimes V \otimes V^* \otimes \cdots \otimes V^* = T^k(V) \otimes T^\ell(V^*).$$

Note that

$$T^{(0, k)}(V) = T^k(V^*), \quad T^{(\ell, 0)}(V) = T^\ell(V).$$

12.0.5 Definition

We define an action of S_k on $T^k(V)$, viewed as multilinear maps, by

$${}^\sigma \alpha(v_1, \dots, v_n) = \alpha(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(n)})$$

for $\sigma \in S_k, \alpha \in T^k(V)$. This is indeed a group action, moreover it preserves the linear structure of $T^k(V)$ in that

$${}^\sigma(\alpha + \beta) = {}^\sigma \alpha + {}^\sigma \beta, \quad {}^\sigma(c\alpha) = c {}^\sigma \alpha.$$

Viewing $T^k(V)$ as the k -fold tensor product of V , ${}^\sigma$ acts on primitive elements by

$${}^\sigma(v_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes v_k) = v_{\sigma^{-1}(1)} \otimes \cdots \otimes v_{\sigma^{-1}(k)},$$

and extending by linearity.

12.0.6 Definition

A covariant k -tensor $\alpha \in T^k(V^*)$ is **symmetric** if swapping its inputs does not change its value. Equivalently it has a trivial orbit under the above action: ${}^\sigma\alpha = \alpha$ for all $\sigma \in S_k$ (since transpositions generate S_k). Denote the space of symmetric covariant k -tensors by $\Sigma^k(V^*) \subseteq T^k(V^*)$.

Similarly a covariant k -tensor $\alpha \in T^k(V^*)$ is **antisymmetric** if swapping its inputs swaps the sign of its value. Equivalently if ${}^\sigma\alpha = \text{sgn}\sigma\alpha$ for all $\sigma \in S_k$. Denote the space of alternating covariant k -tensors by $\Lambda^k(V^*) \subseteq T^k(V^*)$. Antisymmetric tensors are also called **exterior forms** or **multi-covectors**.

Define the map $\text{Sym}: T^k(V^*) \rightarrow \Sigma^k(V^*)$ by

$$\text{Sym}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} {}^\sigma\alpha.$$

This map is called **symmetrization**, and it is a projection onto $\Sigma^k(V^*)$. Indeed,

$${}^\tau\text{Sym}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} {}^{\tau\sigma}\alpha = \text{Sym}\alpha$$

so that Sym is well-defined, and $\text{Sym}\alpha = \alpha$ iff α is symmetric. Clearly the equality implies α 's symmetry since $\text{Sym}\alpha$ is symmetric, and if α is symmetric then

$$\text{Sym}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \alpha = \alpha.$$

12.0.7 Definition

If $\alpha \in \Sigma^k(V^*)$ and $\beta \in \Sigma^\ell(V^*)$ are symmetric, then their tensor $\alpha \otimes \beta$ is not symmetric in general. Define their **symmetric product** to be the symmetrification of their tensor product:

$$\alpha\beta = \text{Sym}(\alpha \otimes \beta).$$

Explicitly,

$$\alpha\beta(v_1, \dots, v_{k+\ell}) = \frac{1}{(k+\ell)!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+\ell}} \alpha(v_{\sigma 1}, \dots, v_{\sigma k}) \beta(v_{\sigma(k+1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma \ell}).$$

12.0.8 Proposition

The symmetric product satisfies the following:

- (1) it is bilinear,
- (2) it is commutative,
- (3) it is associative.

We will not prove this.

We can also define the **alternation** of a tensor by

$$\text{Alt}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \text{sgn}\sigma {}^\sigma\alpha.$$

This is indeed antisymmetric,

$${}^\tau\text{Alt}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma} \text{sgn}\sigma {}^{\tau\sigma}\alpha = \text{sgn}\tau \text{Alt}\alpha.$$

If α is already antisymmetric then

$$\text{Alt}\alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma} \text{sgn}\sigma \alpha = \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{\sigma} (\text{sgn}\sigma)^2 \alpha = \alpha$$

so this is also a projection.

Notice that $\text{Sym}\alpha = 0$ for antisymmetric tensors of dimension > 1 and similarly $\text{Alt}\alpha = 0$ for symmetric tensors of dimension > 1 .

12.1 Tensor fields

12.1.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold. Define its **bundle of covariant k -tensors** by

$$T^k T^* M = \coprod_{p \in M} T^k(T_p^* M)$$

where $T_p^* M$ is the dual space of $T_p M$. Similarly the **bundle of contravariant k -tensors** by

$$T^k T M = \coprod_{p \in M} T^k(T_p M),$$

and in general the **bundle of (k, ℓ) -tensors** by

$$T^{(k, \ell)} T M = \coprod_{p \in M} T^{(k, \ell)}(T_p M).$$

To show that $T^{(k, \ell)} T M$ has the unique structure of a vector bundle over M , we prove that in general the tensor of two vector bundles is a vector bundle.

12.1.2 Definition

Let $\pi': E' \rightarrow M$ and $\pi'': E'' \rightarrow M$ be vector bundles over M . Define their **tensor** to be $E = \coprod_{p \in M} E'_p \otimes E''_p$ with the obvious projection $\pi: E \rightarrow M$.

Let (σ_i) and $(\tilde{\sigma}_i)$ be local frames defined in an open set U , and let $\Phi, \tilde{\Phi}$ be their local trivializations. Meaning

$$\Phi(a^i \sigma_i|_p) = (p, \bar{a}),$$

and by assumption there is a smooth transition function $\tau: U \rightarrow \text{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ such that

$$\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1}(p, \bar{a}) = (p, \tau(p)\bar{a}).$$

Then if $X = a^i \sigma_i = \tilde{a}^i \tilde{\sigma}_i$, we have

$$\tilde{\Phi} \circ \Phi^{-1}(p, \bar{a}) = \tilde{\Phi}^{-1}(X_p) = (p, \tilde{a}),$$

so that $\tilde{a} = \tau(p)\bar{a}$, i.e. $\tilde{a}^i = \tau(p)^i_{\bullet} \bar{a}^{\bullet}$ where $\bullet^i$ is the i th row.

In particular, $\sigma_i = \tau(p)^j_i \tilde{\sigma}_j$.

12.1.3 Proposition

The tensor of two vector bundles has a unique smooth structure making it a vector bundle over M whose fibers are the tensors of the fibers of the original vector bundles.

Proof

Suppose E', E'' have rank k', k'' respectively. Let (σ_i) and (τ_j) be local frames of E', E'' respectively over an open subset $U \subseteq M$. Then define $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^{k'k''}$ by

$$\Phi(v^{ij}\sigma_i|_p \otimes \tau_j|_p) = (p, v^{ij}).$$

Then for another trivialization $\tilde{\Phi}$ associated with $(\tilde{\sigma}_i)$ and $(\tilde{\tau}_j)$ we have that $(T', T''$ being the transition functions),

$$\sigma_i \otimes \tau_j = ((T')^k_i \tilde{\sigma}_k) \otimes ((T'')^\ell_j \tilde{\tau}_\ell) = (T')^k_i (T'')^\ell_j (\tilde{\sigma}_k \otimes \tilde{\tau}_\ell).$$

So the transition function is $T_j^i = \sum_{k,\ell} (T')^k_i \cdot (T'')^\ell_j$, which is smooth (as the sum and product of smooth functions) and invertible (since $\sigma_i \otimes \tau_j$ and $\tilde{\sigma}_i \otimes \tilde{\tau}_j$ form bases). ■

We have that

$$T^{(k,\ell)}TM = \coprod_{p \in M} T^{(k,\ell)}(T_p M)$$

is just the tensor of TM tensored with itself k times and T^*M with itself ℓ times, and is thus a vector bundle. The local frames of $E \otimes E'$ are of the form $(\sigma_i \otimes \tau_j)$ for local frames σ_i of E and τ_j of E' . Thus the local frames of $T^{(k,\ell)}TM$ give representations of the form

$$A_{j_1 \dots j_\ell}^{i_1 \dots i_k} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_1}} \otimes \dots \otimes \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_k}} \otimes dx^{j_1} \otimes \dots \otimes dx^{j_\ell},$$

and $A_{j_1 \dots j_\ell}^{i_1 \dots i_k}$ are called the **components** of the local frame, we denote them also by A_J^I if the tuples I, J are understood.

We adopt the notation for the sections of the tensor bundles:

$$\mathcal{T}^k(M) = \Gamma(T^k T^* M), \quad \mathcal{T}^{(k,\ell)}(M) = \Gamma(T^{(k,\ell)} TM).$$

We do not give special notation to $\Gamma(T^k TM)$, as it is not as important to us. Sections of $T^k T^* M$ are called **covariant k -tensor fields**. Rough sections of $T^{(k,\ell)} TM$ are maps $A: M \rightarrow T^{(k,\ell)} TM$ such that for every $p \in M$,

$$A_p \in T^{(k,\ell)} T_p M = L(T_p^* M, \dots, T_p^* M, T_p M, \dots, T_p M; \mathbb{R}),$$

so A_p is a multilinear functional from k -times $T_p^* M$ and ℓ -times $T_p M$.

Note:

Note that a tensor of type (k, ℓ) is *contravariant* in its first k arguments and *covariant* in its last ℓ . This may seem unnatural, and indeed some authors think so! Some authors mean a tensor of type (k, ℓ) to mean it is *covariant* in the first k arguments and *contravariant* in its last ℓ ; $T^{(k,\ell)}$ may have opposite meanings for different authors!

The convention adopted here is from Lee, but the course at Hebrew University (2026) utilizes the opposite convention.

12.1.4 Proposition

Let M be a manifold, and $A: M \rightarrow T^{(k,\ell)} TM$ be a rough section. Then the following are equivalent:

- (1) A is smooth,
- (2) In every coordinate chart A 's components are smooth,
- (3) Each point in M is contained in a chart where A 's components are smooth,
- (4) If $X_1, \dots, X_\ell \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $\omega_1, \dots, \omega_k \in \mathfrak{X}^*(M)$, the function $A(\bar{\omega}, \bar{X}): M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by

$$A(\bar{\omega}, \bar{X})(p) = A_p(\bar{\omega}|_p, \bar{X}|_p)$$

is smooth.

- (5) Whenever $\overline{X}, \overline{\omega}$ are smooth vector and covector fields defined in some open subset $U \subseteq M$, $A(\overline{\omega}, \overline{X})$ is smooth on U .

Proof

The first three points are clearly equivalent, as they are for general vector bundles. We note that if $A = A_J^I \partial/\partial x^I \otimes dx^J$, then

$$A\left(dx^{j_1}, \dots, dx^{j_k}, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_1}}, \dots, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_\ell}}\right) = A_J^I,$$

so that the last point implies the first. And if A is smooth, then in terms of local coordinates we have that if $X_i = X_i^j \partial/\partial x^j$ and $\omega^i = \omega_j^i dx^j$ then

$$A(\overline{\omega}, \overline{X}) = A_J^I \partial/\partial x^I \otimes dx^J(\overline{\omega}, \overline{X}) = A_J^I \omega_I X^J,$$

where $X^J = X_1^{j_1} \cdots X_k^{j_k}$ and similar for ω_I . This is smooth, as desired. ■

12.1.5 Proposition

Let M be a manifold, $A \in \mathcal{T}^{(k, \ell)}(M)$, $B \in \mathcal{T}^{(k', \ell')}(M)$, and $f \in C^\infty(M)$. Then $A \otimes B$ is a smooth tensor field in $\mathcal{T}^{(k+k', \ell+\ell')}(M)$, and $fA \in \mathcal{T}^{(k, \ell)}(M)$.

Proof

It is not hard to see that if A has local coordinates A_J^I , B has $B_{J'}^{I'}$ then $A \otimes B$ has coordinates

$$(A \otimes B)_{JJ'}^{II'} = A_J^I B_{J'}^{I'},$$

where we split the tuples II', JJ' . And similarly

$$(fA)_J^I = f \cdot A_J^I.$$

These are all smooth, as desired. ■

Our above proposition showed that a tensor field $A \in \mathcal{T}^{(k, \ell)}(M)$ induces a map

$$\mathfrak{X}^*(M) \times \cdots \times \mathfrak{X}^*(M) \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \times \cdots \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \rightarrow C^\infty(M).$$

This is a multilinear $C^\infty(M)$ -module morphism, which can be verified coordinate-wise.

12.1.6 Lemma

Multilinear $C^\infty(M)$ maps $\mathfrak{X}^*(M)^k \times \mathfrak{X}(M)^\ell \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$ are precisely those induced by (k, ℓ) -tensor fields.

Proof

We prove this for $(0, k)$ -tensor fields, so $C^\infty(M)$ -maps $\mathfrak{X}(M)^k \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$; the general case is similar, but messier. Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a $C^\infty(M)$ -multilinear map. We first show that $\mathcal{A}$ acts locally, so if X_i vanishes in a neighborhood U of p then $0 = \mathcal{A}(\overline{X})$. Again, let ψ be a bump function supported in U such that $\psi(p) = 1$,

so that $\psi X_i = 0$. Then

$$0 = \mathcal{A}(X_1, \dots, \psi X_i, \dots, X_n)(p) = \psi(p) \mathcal{A}(\overline{X})(p) = \mathcal{A}(\overline{X})(p)$$

meaning $\mathcal{A}(\overline{X})$ vanishes on U .

Now we show that if $X_i|_p = 0$ then $\mathcal{A}(\overline{X})(p) = 0$ so that $\mathcal{A}(\overline{X})(p)$ is dependent only on $\overline{X}$'s values at p . Let $X_i = X_i^j \partial/\partial x^j$ in a neighborhood of p , so the two vector fields agree in a neighborhood and thus we can replace X with this coordinate representation and not change $\mathcal{A}$'s value. Then

$$\mathcal{A}(X_1, \dots, X_i, \dots, X_n)(p) = X_i^j(p) \mathcal{A}(X_1, \dots, \partial/\partial x^j, \dots, X_n) = 0,$$

as desired. Note that we need to extend $X_i^j \partial/\partial x^j$ to a global tensor field, which can be done by the extension lemma.

Now define $A: M \rightarrow T^k T^* M$ by

$$A_p(v_1, \dots, v_k)(p) = \mathcal{A}(V_1, \dots, V_k)(p)$$

where V_i are any vector fields with $V_i(p) = v_i$. This is independent of choice of V_i , as we showed, and gives the desired tensor field (it is smooth since it induces $\mathcal{A}$ which is smooth). ■

Thus we can identify tensor fields with multilinear $C^\infty(M)$ morphisms.

There is a natural isomorphism $\text{hom}(V, W) \cong V^* \otimes W$ given by mapping $\varphi \otimes w$ to the linear map $v \mapsto \varphi(v)w$. To show that this is an isomorphism, note that the dimensions are equal, and that it maps a basis to a linearly independent set. In particular, this gives a natural isomorphism

$$L(V, \dots, V; V) \cong \text{hom}(T^k(V), V) \cong T^k(V^*) \otimes V \cong T^{(1,k)}V.$$

This extends to tensor fields: there is a natural isomorphism of multilinear maps $\mathfrak{X}(M)^k \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and multilinear maps $\mathfrak{X}(M)^k \times \mathfrak{X}(M)^* \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$. This is because given $\mathcal{A}: \mathfrak{X}(M)^k \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M)$ we define $\tilde{\mathcal{A}}: \mathfrak{X}(M)^k \times \mathfrak{X}(M)^* \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$ by

$$\tilde{\mathcal{A}}(X_1, \dots, X_n, \omega) = \omega(\mathcal{A}(X_1, \dots, X_n)),$$

recalling that cotangent fields act on vector fields smoothly. Conversely given $\tilde{\mathcal{A}}$ we define $\mathcal{A}$ by

$$\mathcal{A}(X_1, \dots, X_n)\omega = \tilde{\mathcal{A}}(X_1, \dots, X_n, \omega)$$

recalling that by duality a vector field is just a multilinear map $X: \mathfrak{X}(M)^* \rightarrow C^\infty(M)$.

12.1.7 Proposition

$(1, k)$ -tensor fields are naturally isomorphic to $C^\infty(M)$ -multilinear maps

$$\mathfrak{X}(M) \times \dots \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M).$$

In general $(\ell + 1, k)$ -tensor fields are naturally isomorphic to $C^\infty(M)$ -multilinear maps

$$\mathfrak{X}^*(M)^\ell \times \mathfrak{X}(M)^k \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M).$$

This is an important basic result as many tensor fields are given in this manner.

12.1.8 Example

The Lie bracket $[\bullet, \bullet]$ is a map $\mathfrak{X}(M) \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M)$. But it is not multilinear over $C^\infty(M)$, and thus is *not* a tensor.

12.1.9 Definition

A **symmetric tensor field** is a covariant tensor field whose image consists of symmetric tensors.

12.1.10 Definition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, then at any $p \in M$ and any k -tensor $\alpha \in T^k(T_p^*N)$ we define $dF_p^*(\alpha) \in T^k(T_p^*M)$ by

$$dF_p^*(\alpha)(v_1, \dots, v_n) = \alpha(dF_p(v_1), \dots, dF_p(v_n)).$$

This is the **pullback of F at p** . Then for a covariant k -tensor field A on N , we define the **pullback of A by F** to be the rough k -tensor field on M given by

$$(F^*A)_p = dF_p^*(A_{Fp}).$$

This acts on vectors $v_1, \dots, v_k \in T_pM$ by

$$(F^*A)_p(v_1, \dots, v_k) = A_{Fp}(dF_p(v_1), \dots, dF_p(v_k)).$$

12.1.11 Proposition

For $F: M \rightarrow N$ and $G: N \rightarrow P$ smooth, A, B covariant k -tensor fields on N , and $f \in C^\infty(N)$,

- (1) $F^*(fB) = (f \circ F)F^*B$,
- (2) $F^*(df) = d(f \circ F)$,
- (3) $F^*(A \otimes B) = F^*A \otimes F^*B$,
- (4) $F^*(A + B) = F^*A + F^*B$,
- (5) F^*B is continuous, and smooth if B is smooth,
- (6) $(G \circ F)^*B = F^*(G^*B)$,
- (7) $(\text{id}_N)^*B = B$.

Proof

Similar to before, by definitions. ■

12.1.12 Corollary

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, and $B \in \mathcal{T}^k(N)$. If $p \in M$ and (y^i) are smooth coordinates for N in a neighborhood of $F(p)$, then F^*B has the representation in a neighborhood of p :

$$F^*(B_I dy^I) = (B_I \circ F) d(y^{i_1} \circ F) \otimes \cdots \otimes d(y^{i_k} \circ F).$$

Proof

Immediate from the above proposition. ■

12.2 Lie derivatives of tensor fields

Suppose $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is a smooth vector field with flow θ with flow domain $\mathcal{D}$. Recall that for $t \in \mathbb{R}$, $\theta_t: M_t \rightarrow M_{-t}$ is a diffeomorphism with inverse θ_{-t} . For $p \in M$ and t small enough we have that $(t, p) \in \mathcal{D}$, and thus θ_t is a diffeomorphism from an open neighborhood of p to an open neighborhood of $\theta_t(p)$. So $d(\theta_t)_p^*$ pulls back tensors $T^k(T_{\theta(t,p)}^*M)$ to ones at p by

$$d(\theta_t)_p^*(A_{\theta_t(p)})(v_1, \dots, v_k) = A_{\theta_t(p)}(d(\theta_t)_p v_1, \dots, d(\theta_t)_p v_k).$$

This is the value of the pullback tensor field θ_t^*A at p .

12.2.1 Definition

If $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ is a smooth vector field, and A a covariant tensor field on M , define its **Lie derivative** with respect to V by

$$(\mathcal{L}_V A)_p = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} (\theta_t^* A)_p = \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{d(\theta_t)_p^*(A_{\theta(t,p)}) - A_p}{t}.$$

12.2.2 Lemma

The Lie derivative exists for every p and defines a covariant tensor field on M .

Proof

For $p \in M$ let $(U, (x^i))$ be a smooth chart containing p . Choose an open interval $0 \in J_0$ and an open set $U_0 \subseteq U$ such that θ maps $J_0 \times U_0$ into U . For $(t, x) \in J_0 \times U_0$ we can write θ relative to the coordinates by

$$\theta(t, x) = (\theta^1(t, x), \dots, \theta^n(t, x)).$$

Then $d(\theta_t)_x: T_x M \rightarrow T_{\theta(t,x)}$ has matrix representation

$$\left(\frac{\partial \theta^i}{\partial x^j}(t, x) \right).$$

If A has coordinate representation

$$A = A_J dx^J,$$

then

$$d(\theta_t)_x^*(A_{\theta(t,p)}) \left(\left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^I} \right|_x \right) = A_{\theta(t,p)} \left(\frac{\partial \theta^{i_k}}{\partial x^k}(t, x) \left. \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_k}} \right|_{\theta(t,x)} \right) = \frac{\partial \theta^{i_1}}{\partial x^1}(t, x) \cdots \frac{\partial \theta^{i_k}}{\partial x^k}(t, x) \cdot A_{i_1, \dots, i_k}.$$

This is a smooth coordinate representation and thus has a smooth derivative. ■

12.2.3 Proposition

Let $V \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ be smooth, $f \in C^\infty(M)$ (which can be regarded as $T^0 TM$), and A, B are smooth covariant tensor fields on M (of potentially different type).

- (1) $\mathcal{L}_V f = Vf$,
- (2) $\mathcal{L}_V(fA) = (\mathcal{L}_V f)A + f(\mathcal{L}_V A)$,

$$(3) \quad \mathcal{L}_V(A \otimes B) = (\mathcal{L}_V A) \otimes B + A \otimes (\mathcal{L}_V B),$$

(4) if $X_1, \dots, X_k$ are smooth vector fields and A has type k , then

$$\mathcal{L}_V(A(X_1, \dots, X_k)) = (\mathcal{L}_V A)(X_1, \dots, X_k) + A(\mathcal{L}_V X_1, \dots, X_k) + \dots + A(X_1, \dots, \mathcal{L}_V X_k).$$

Since $\mathcal{L}_V X = [V, X]$ for vector fields X , we have (by the first point the left-hand side above is just V on A 's value),

$$(\mathcal{L}_V A)(X_1, \dots, X_n) = V(A(X_1, \dots, X_n)) - A([V, X_1], \dots, X_k) - \dots - A(X_1, \dots, [V, X_k]).$$

Proof

Let θ be V 's flow, then

$$\theta_t^*(f(p)) = f(\theta_t(p)) = f \circ \theta^{(p)}(t).$$

So the Lie derivative $\mathcal{L}_V f$ is the derivative of this:

$$(\mathcal{L}_V f)(p) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} f \circ \theta^{(p)} = df_p(\theta^{(p)'}(0)) = df_p(V_p) = Vf(p).$$

For the other points, if p is a regular point then we choose a coordinate domain where V has representation $\partial/\partial u^1$. Then V 's flow is just $\theta_t(u) = (u^1 + t, u^2, \dots, u^n)$ and then in these coordinates if $A = A_J dx^J$ we have that $\mathcal{L}_V A$'s coordinate representation is just A_J 's partial derivatives with respect to u^1 . Then all the other points follow by the product rule.

Then for points in V 's support it follows by continuity, and for points outside of the support everything becomes 0. ■

For $f \in C^\infty(M)$ we have the covariant 1-tensor df given by $df(X) = Xf$. Notice then that

$$(\mathcal{L}_V df)(X) = V(df(X)) - df([V, X]) = V(Xf) - [V, X]f = VXf - V[Xf] + XVf = XVf,$$

and this is just $df(XV)$ which is equal to $d(Vf)(X)$ and by above this is equal to $d(\mathcal{L}_V f)(X)$. Thus we have

$$\mathcal{L}_V df = d(\mathcal{L}_V f),$$

for all $f \in C^\infty(M)$.

12.2.4 Definition

If A is a covariant tensor field on M , and θ is a flow on M , then A is **invariant under θ** if for all (t, p) in θ 's domain

$$d(\theta_t)_p^*(A_{\theta_t(p)}) = A_p.$$

12.2.5 Theorem

A is invariant under V 's flow iff $\mathcal{L}_V A = 0$.

13 Riemannian Manifolds

13.1 Riemannian manifolds

A symmetric 2-tensor $\alpha \in \text{Sym}^2(V^*)$ is **positive definite** if $\alpha(v, v) > 0$ for all $v \neq 0$. A symmetric covariant 2-tensor field is positive definite if it is positive definite at every point.

13.1.1 Definition

Let M be a smooth manifold, a **Riemannian metric** on M is a smooth symmetric covariant 2-tensor field on M . A **Riemannian manifold** is a smooth manifold M equipped with a Riemannian metric g .

Since g_p is an positive semidefinite and symmetric, it forms an inner product on $T_p M$. We denote this by $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle_g$.

Note:

Equivalently, we can characterize a Riemannian metric to be an association to each $p \in M$ an inner product $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle_g$ on $T_p M$ which is smooth in the sense that $\langle X, Y \rangle_g$ is in $C^\infty(M)$ for every $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$.

In any smooth coordinate chart (x^i) , a Riemannian metric has components

$$g = g_{ij} dx^i \otimes dx^j.$$

Note then that by symmetry, $g_{ij} = g_{ji}$ and so

$$g = \frac{1}{2}(g_{ij} dx^i \otimes dx^j + g_{ji} dx^j \otimes dx^i) = \frac{1}{2}(g_{ij} dx^i \otimes dx^j + g_{ji} dx^i \otimes dx^j) = \frac{1}{2}(g_{ij} dx^i \otimes dx^j + g_{ij} dx^j \otimes dx^i) = g_{ij} dx^i dx^j,$$

where $dx^i dx^j$ is the symmetric product.

13.1.2 Example

The **Euclidean metric** on $\mathbb{R}^n$ is $\bar{g}$ given by gloabl coordinates

$$\bar{g} = \delta_{ij} dx^i dx^j.$$

Writing α^2 for the symmetric product of α with itself, we have that

$$\bar{g} = (dx^1)^2 + \cdots + (dx^n)^2.$$

Then for $v, w \in T_p \mathbb{R}^n$ we have

$$\bar{g}_p(v, w) = \delta_{ij} v^i w^j = \sum_i v^i w^i = v \cdot w,$$

so that the Euclidean metric is the Euclidean inner product on $T_p \mathbb{R}^n$.

13.1.3 Example

If (M_1, g^1) and (M_2, g^2) are Riemannian manifolds, we can define a Riemannian metric $g = g^1 \oplus g^2$ on $M_1 \times M_2$ by

$$g((v_1, w_1), (v_2, w_2)) = g^1(v_1, v_2) + g^2(w_1, w_2),$$

for $(v_i, w_i) \in T_p M_1 \oplus T_q M_2 \cong T_{(p,q)}(M_1 \times M_2)$. This is the sum of two smooth tensor fields, and thus smooth itself, and symmetric. It is positive definite at each point because g^1, g^2 are.

Given local coordinates (x^i) for M_1 and (y^j) for M_2 , if g^1 has components $g^1_{ij} dx^i dx^j$ and g^2 has components $g^2_{ij} dy^i dy^j$, then g 's coordinate representation is

$$(g_{ij}) = \begin{pmatrix} g^1_{ij} & \\ & g^2_{ij} \end{pmatrix}.$$

13.1.4 Proposition

Every smooth manifold admits a Riemannian metric.

Proof

Let $(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)$ cover M by countably many coordinate charts. Then $\varphi_\alpha: U_\alpha \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ is smooth and thus we can pull back the Euclidean metric to U_α by $g_\alpha = \varphi_\alpha^* \bar{g}$. Its coordinate representation is $\delta_{ij} dx^i dx^j$ relative to φ_α . Now let $\{\psi_\alpha\}$ be a partition of unity subordinate to U_α , and define

$$g = \sum_{\alpha} \psi_{\alpha} g_{\alpha}.$$

This is smooth, by local finiteness. It is also obviously symmetric, so only positivity needs to be checked. All the functions in question are nonnegative, so we need to show that $g(v, v) \neq 0$ when $v \neq 0$. Indeed,

$$g(v, v) = \sum_{\alpha} \psi_{\alpha}(p) g_{\alpha}(v, v),$$

and if $0 \neq v \in T_p M$ then some $\psi_{\alpha}(p)$ must be positive (since they sum to 1), and thus $g(v, v) \geq \psi_{\alpha}(p) g_{\alpha}(v, v) > 0$. ■

Note that such a choice of Riemannian metric is not natural.

13.1.5 Definition

If (M, g) is a Riemannian metric, then the **norm** of $v \in T_p M$ is defined to be $|v| = \langle v, v \rangle_g^{1/2} = g_p(v, v)^{1/2}$. $v, w \in T_p M$ are **orthogonal** if $\langle v, w \rangle_g = 0$.

13.1.6 Proposition

Let (M, g) be a Riemannian manifold, and (X_j) a smooth local frame for M over an open subset $U \subseteq M$. Then there is a smooth local frame (E_j) over U which is orthonormal at every point, and $\text{span}(E_1|_p, \dots, E_j|_p) = \text{span}(X_1|_p, \dots, X_j|_p)$ for all $j = 1, \dots, n$.

In particular for every $p \in M$ there is an orthonormal frame in a neighborhood around p .

Proof

Apply Gram-Schmidt, and note that the resulting fields are smooth. ■

13.1.7 Definition

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is smooth, and g is a Riemannian metric on N , then the pullback F^*g is a smooth 2-tensor field on M . If it is positive definite, it is a Riemannian metric on M , called the **pullback metric**.

13.1.8 Proposition

The pullback F^*g is Riemannian iff F is a smooth immersion.

Proof

The pullback is defined by

$$F^*g_p(v, w) = g(dF_p v, dF_p w),$$

and in general $\langle F\bullet, F\bullet \rangle$ is an inner product only when F is injective. ■

13.1.9 Definition

If (M, g) and $(N, \tilde{g})$ are Riemannian manifolds, a smooth map $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a **(Riemannian) isometry** if it is a diffeomorphism which satisfies $F^*\tilde{g} = g$. A **local isometry** is one where for every $p \in M$ there is a neighborhood U of p such that $F|_U: U \rightarrow N$ is an isometry onto an open subset of N . Equivalently, if it satisfies $F^*\tilde{g} = g$ and F is a local diffeomorphism.

If there exists an isometry between Riemannian manifolds, we say they are **isometric**. A Riemannian n -manifold is a **flat Riemannian manifold** (and the metric is a **flat metric**) if it is locally isometric to $(\mathbb{R}^n, \tilde{g})$.

13.1.10 Proposition

Let (M, g) be a Riemannian manifold. The following are equivalent:

- (1) g is flat;
- (2) Each point of M is contained in the domain of a smooth coordinate chart in which g has the coordinate representation $g = \delta_{ij} dx^i dx^j$;
- (3) Each point of M is contained in the domain of a smooth coordinate chart in which the coordinate frame is orthonormal;
- (4) Each point of M is contained in the domain of a commuting orthonormal frame.

Proof

The downwards implications are clear.

TODO: Revisit after doing flows

■
13.1.11 Definition

If $S \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold with (M, g) Riemannian, then S inherits the pullback metric ι^*g where $\iota: S \hookrightarrow M$ is the inclusion. This is called the **induced metric**.

The induced metric is indeed a metric since ι is by definition an immersion. Under this metric S is called a **Riemannian submanifold**.

13.1.12 Example

The induced metric ι^*g induced on S^n by the inclusion $S^n \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is called the **round** or **standard metric** on the sphere.

13.1.13 Definition

Let (M, g) be a Riemannian n -manifold, and $S \subseteq M$ a k -dimensional submanifold. We say that for $p \in S$, a vector $v \in T_p M$ is **normal to S** if it is orthogonal to $T_p S$ with respect to $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle_g$. The **normal space to S at p** is the subspace $N_p S \subseteq T_p M$ of all vectors orthogonal to $T_p S$ (i.e. $N_p S = (T_p S)^\perp$).

Let $NS = \coprod_{p \in S} N_p S$, and $\pi_{NS}: NS \rightarrow S$ to be the obvious projection.

13.1.14 Proposition

$NS \rightarrow S$ forms a smooth $(n - k)$ -rank vector bundle over S , with a unique smooth structure where the linear structures on the fibers are given by $N_p S$. For each $p \in S$ there is a smooth frame for NS on a neighborhood of p that is orthonormal with respect to g .

Proof

Take a coordinate frame (X_i) for $T_p S$, and then we can extend it and apply Gram-Schmidt to get a coordinate frame (X_i, Y_j) where Y_j are in $N_p S$. These form a basis, and thus satisfy the local frame criterion for subbundles. ■

13.2 The Riemannian distance function**13.2.1 Definition**

Suppose (M, g) is a Riemannian manifold, and $\gamma: [a, b] \rightarrow M$ a piecewise smooth curve segment. γ 's **length** is

$$L_g(\gamma) = \int_a^b |\gamma'(t)|_g dt.$$

This is well-defined since $\gamma'(t)$ is defined at all but finitely many values of t .

Note that if $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a local isometry, then since $F^*g_N = g_M$ we have that F preserves lengths: if $\gamma: [a, b] \rightarrow M$ is piecewise smooth,

$$L_{g_N}(F \circ \gamma) = \int_a^b |(F \circ \gamma)'(t)| = \int_a^b |dF_{\gamma(t)} \circ \gamma'(t)| = \int_a^b |\gamma'(t)| = L_{g_M}(\gamma).$$

13.2.2 Definition

A **reparametrization** of a curve $\gamma: [a, b] \rightarrow M$ is a curve of the form $\tilde{\gamma} = \gamma \circ \varphi$ where $\varphi: [c, d] \rightarrow [a, b]$ is a diffeomorphism.

13.2.3 Proposition

Curve length is invariant under reparametrization.

Proof

Let $\varphi: [c, d] \rightarrow [a, b]$ be a diffeomorphism and $\gamma: [a, b] \rightarrow M$ a piecewise smooth curve. Since φ is a diffeo-

morphism, either $\varphi' > 0$ or $\varphi' < 0$ everywhere. Assume φ' is always positive, then

$$L_g(\gamma \circ \varphi) = \int_c^d |(\gamma \circ \varphi)'(t)| = \int_c^d |\varphi'(t)\gamma'(\varphi(t))| = \int_c^d |\gamma'(\varphi(t))| \varphi'(t) = \int_a^b |\gamma'(t)|,$$

where the final equality is due to change of variables. If $\varphi' < 0$ then we'd have to multiply the second to last term by -1 , then change of variables swaps the sign again. ■

13.2.4 Definition

Let (M, g) be a connected Riemannian manifold. For $p, q \in M$ define their **Riemannian distance**, denoted $d_g(p, q)$, to be the infimum over $L_g(\gamma)$ over all piecewise smooth curves γ from p to q .

13.2.5 Example

Consider $\mathbb{R}^n$ with the Euclidean metric g . Then $d_g(p, q) = |p - q|$, i.e. the Riemannian distance is the same as Euclidean distance.

Indeed, $\gamma: [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ with $\gamma(t) = tp + (1 - t)q$ has $\gamma'(t) = p - q$ and thus

$$L_g(\gamma) = \int_0^1 |p - q| = |p - q|.$$

So $d_g(p, q) \leq |p - q|$.

Now if γ is any other piecewise smooth curve, we need to show that $L_g(\gamma) \geq |p - q|$. We have that

$$L_g \gamma = \int_a^b |\gamma'(t)| dt \geq \left| \int_a^b \gamma'(t) \right| = |\gamma(b) - \gamma(a)| = |p - q|,$$

as desired.

13.2.6 Lemma

Let g be a Riemannian metric on an open subset $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$. Given a compact subset $K \subseteq U$, there exist positive constants c, C such that for all $x \in K$ and $v \in T_x \mathbb{R}^n$,

$$c|v|_{\bar{g}} \leq |v|_g \leq C|v|_{\bar{g}}.$$

Proof

Define $L \subseteq T\mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$L = \left\{ (x, v) \in T\mathbb{R}^n \mid x \in K, |v|_{\bar{g}} = 1 \right\}.$$

Under the canonical identification of $T\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^n$, this is just $L = K \times S^{n-1}$, which is compact. Since $|v|_g$ is continuous and strictly positive on L , there are positive constants c, C such that $c \leq |v|_g \leq C$ ($|v|_g$ obtains its maximum and minimum on a compact set) for all $(x, v) \in L$. If $x \in K$ and $v \in T_x \mathbb{R}^n$ is nonzero, let $\lambda = |v|_{\bar{g}}$ so that $(x, \lambda^{-1}v) \in L$ so

$$|v|_g = \lambda |\lambda^{-1}v|_g \leq \lambda C = C|v|_{\bar{g}},$$

and similar for c . ■

13.2.7 Theorem

The Riemannian distance function on a connected Riemannian manifold (M, g) is a metric in the usual sense. It induces the same topology on M as its manifold topology.

Proof

All of the conditions for d_g being a metric are clear, other than positivity. Note that the triangle inequality is because if γ connects a to b , and $\tilde{\gamma}$ connects b to c , then we can concatenate the curves to get a curve from a to c whose length is the sum of the curves.

Now we need to show that $d_g(p, q) \neq 0$ when $p \neq q$. Let U be a chart containing p but not q . We use the coordinate map to identify U with an open subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$, and let $\bar{g}$ be the Euclidean metric in these coordinates. Let V be a regular coordinate ball of radius ε centered at p such that $\bar{V} \subseteq U$. Then the above lemma shows that there are constants $c, C > 0$ such that $c|v|_{\bar{g}} \leq |v|_g \leq C|v|_{\bar{g}}$ for all $v \in T_x M$ when $x \in \bar{V}$. Then for any smooth curve γ lying in $\bar{V}$, $cL_{\bar{g}}(\gamma) \leq L_g(\gamma) \leq CL_{\bar{g}}(\gamma)$.

Now suppose $\gamma: [a, b] \rightarrow M$ is piecewise smooth from p to q . Let t_0 be the infimum of all t such that $\gamma(t) \notin \bar{V}$. By continuity, $\gamma(t_0) \in \partial V$ and so $\gamma(t) \in \bar{V}$ for $a \leq t \leq t_0$. Thus

$$L_g(\gamma) \geq L_g(\gamma|_{[a, t_0]}) \geq cL_{\bar{g}}(\gamma|_{[a, t_0]}) \geq cd_{\bar{g}}(p, \gamma(t_0)) = c\varepsilon.$$

The final inequality is because $d_{\bar{g}}$ agrees with normal Euclidean distance, and $|p - \gamma(t_0)| = \varepsilon$ since $\gamma(t_0) \in \partial V$. Thus we conclude that $d_g(p, q) \geq c\varepsilon > 0$ as desired.

Finally to show that the two topologies coincide, we show that open sets in one are open in the other and vice versa. Suppose that $U \subseteq M$ is open, and let $p \in U$, and let V be a regular coordinate ball of radius ε around p such that $\bar{V} \subseteq U$. We have that $d_g(p, q) \geq c\varepsilon$ when $q \notin \bar{V}$, and thus if $d_g(p, q) < c\varepsilon$ then $q \in \bar{V} \subseteq U$. So the open ball of radius $c\varepsilon$ centered around p is contained in U , since p was arbitrary this means U is open.

Conversely if W is open in the metric topology, let $p \in W$. Let V be a regular coordinate ball around p of radius r , and let $\bar{g}$ be the Euclidean metric on $\bar{V}$. Then we have positive constants $c, C > 0$ bounding the metric of d_g by $d_{\bar{g}}$ as before. Let $\varepsilon < r$ be small enough such that the metric ball around p of radius $C\varepsilon$ is contained in W , and let V_ε be the set of points of $\bar{V}$ whose Euclidean distance from p is less than ε . If $q \in V_\varepsilon$ let γ be the straight line segment from p to q , then

$$d_g(p, q) \leq L_g(\gamma) \leq CL_{\bar{g}}(\gamma) < C\varepsilon.$$

Thus V_ε is contained in the metric ball of radius $C\varepsilon$ around p , and thus in W . V_ε is open in the manifold topology (since it is an open set under the coordinate chart of $\bar{V}$), and $p \in V_\varepsilon$, we see that W is open in the manifold topology. ■

13.2.8 Definition

A Riemannian manifold (M, g) is **complete**, and g is a **complete Riemannian metric**, if (M, d_g) is a complete metric space. A subset $B \subseteq M$ is **bounded** if it is bounded in the metric space.

13.2.9 Corollary

Every smooth manifold is metrizable.

Proof

If M is a manifold without boundary, then choose a Riemannian metric g on M . If M is connected, then

the above proposition shows that it is metrizable by d_g . Otherwise, let $\{M_i\}$ be the components of M , each of which is metrizable by $d_g|_{M_i}$. The disjoint union of metrizable spaces is metrizable: let $p_i \in M_i$ and define

$$d_g(x, y) = d_g(x, p_i) + 1 + d_g(p_j, y),$$

when x, y are not in the same component.

If M has boundary, it can be embedded into a manifold without boundary (its double), which is metrizable. Subspaces of metrizable spaces are metrizable. ■

13.3 The tangent-cotangent isomorphism

If V is a finite-dimensional inner product space, there is a natural isomorphism $V \rightarrow V^*$ given by $v \mapsto \langle v, \bullet \rangle$. This is clearly linear and injective, since if $\langle v, \bullet \rangle = 0$ then $\langle v, v \rangle = 0$ so $v = 0$. We can also compute its inverse: let e_i be an orthonormal basis of V , then for $\varphi \in V^*$ define $v = \sum_i \varphi(e_i)e_i$.

In our case, if (M, g) is a Riemannian manifold, we define $\hat{g}: TM \rightarrow T^*M$ where for $v \in T_p M$ we define $\hat{g}(v) \in T_p^* M$ by

$$\hat{g}(v)(u) = g_p(v, u).$$

Its action on smooth vector fields is then

$$\hat{g}(X)(Y) = g(X, Y), \quad X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(M).$$

Now, $\hat{g}(X)(\bullet)$ is $C^\infty(M)$ -linear, and thus $\hat{g}(X)$ is a smooth covector field. And $\hat{g}(\bullet)$ is $C^\infty(M)$ -linear and thus a bundle morphism as desired. As we explained, $\hat{g}$ is bijective, and thus a bundle isomorphism.

In smooth coordinates (x^i) , we have $g = g_{ij}dx^i dx^j$. Thus if X, Y are smooth vector fields,

$$\hat{g}(X)(Y) = g_{ij}X^i XY^j,$$

so that the covector field $\hat{g}(X)$ has coordinates

$$\hat{g}(X) = g_{ij}X^i dx^j.$$

So $\hat{g}$ is the bundle homomorphism whose matrix with respect to coordinate frames for TM and T^*M is the same as g 's matrix.

It is customary to write

$$\hat{g}(X) = X_j dx^j, \quad \text{where } X_j = g_{ij}X^j,$$

so we say that $\hat{g}(X)$ is obtained by “lowering an index”. The notation $X^\flat$ is often used for $\hat{g}(X)$ because of this; $\flat$ is musical notation for lowering a tone. The inverse map $\hat{g}^{-1}: T^*M \rightarrow TM$'s matrix is the inverse of (g_{ij}) , which we denote (g^{ij}) . That is,

$$g_{ij}g^{jk} = g^{ij}g_{jk} = \delta_{ik}.$$

The inverse of a symmetric matrix is symmetric, and so for $\omega \in \mathfrak{X}^*(M)$, the vector field $\hat{g}^{-1}(\omega)$ has coordinate representation

$$\hat{g}^{-1}(\omega) = \omega^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}, \quad \text{where } \omega^i = g^{ij}\omega_j.$$

And so $\hat{g}^{-1}(\omega)$ is obtained by “raising an index”, and so we denote $\hat{g}^{-1}(\omega)$ also by $\omega^\sharp$ (raising a tone).

$\hat{g}$ and its inverse $\hat{g}^{-1}$ are thus called **musical isomorphisms**. Note that by definition, $\omega^\sharp = \hat{g}^{-1}(\omega)$ is the unique vector field such that for $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$,

$$\omega(X) = \langle \omega^\sharp, X \rangle_g.$$

Under the musical isomorphisms, we can define the **gradient** of a function $f \in C^\infty(M)$ by

$$\text{grad} f = (df)^\sharp = \hat{g}^{-1}(df).$$

So $\text{grad} f$ is the unique vector field such that

$$\langle \text{grad} f, X \rangle_g = df(X) = Xf.$$

Equivalently,

$$\langle \text{grad} f, \bullet \rangle = df.$$

Since $df = \partial f / \partial x^i dx^i$, we get that

$$\text{grad} f = g^{ij} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}.$$

In particular, with the Euclidean metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$ we see that

$$\text{grad} f = \delta^{ij} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} = \sum_i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i},$$

which is just the usual gradient of a real-valued function.

14 The Exponential Map

14.1 The exponential map

14.1.1 Definition

Let G be a Lie group, a **one-parameter subgroup** is a Lie group morphism $\gamma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow G$.

Note that a one-parameter subgroup is not a subgroup of G , it is a morphism, but its image is a subgroup (but we care about γ too).

14.1.2 Theorem

Let G be a Lie group, then the one-parameter subgroups of G are precisely the maximal integral curves of left-invariant vector fields starting at $e \in G$.

Proof

If γ is a maximal integral curve of $X \in \text{Lie}(G)$ starting at e , then since left-invariant vector fields are complete, γ is defined on all of $\mathbb{R}$. Since X is L_g -related to itself for all $g \in G$, this means that $L_g \circ \gamma$ is integral for X starting at g . In particular $L_{\gamma(s)} \circ \gamma$ is integral for X starting at $\gamma(s)$. But $t \mapsto \gamma(t+s)$ is as well, so $\gamma(t+s) = \gamma(s) \circ \gamma(t)$, meaning γ is a Lie group morphism.

Conversely if γ is a one-parameter subgroup, let $X = \gamma_*(d/dt)$ be the pushforward of $d/dt \in \mathfrak{X}(\mathbb{R})$. Since d/dt is left-invariant on $\mathbb{R}$, X is left-invariant on G . We just need to show that γ is integral for X . Now,

$$\gamma'(t_0) = d\gamma_{t_0} \left(\frac{d}{dt} \Big|_{t_0} \right) = X_{\gamma(t_0)}$$

as desired. ■

Given $X \in \text{Lie}(G)$, the one-parameter subgroup of G defined as above is said to be **generated** by it. Because X is determined by its value at the identity, a one-parameter subgroup is determined by its velocity at e . So we have correspondences

$$\{\text{one-parameter subgroups of } G\} \leftrightarrow \text{Lie}(G) \leftrightarrow T_e G.$$

14.1.3 Proposition

For any $A \in \mathfrak{gl}_n(\mathbb{R})$ define

$$e^A = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{k!} A^k.$$

This converges to an invertible matrix in $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$, and the one-parameter subgroup of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ generated by A is $\gamma(t) = e^{tA}$.

Proof

See homework. ■

14.1.4 Proposition

Let $H \subseteq G$ be a Lie subgroup. Then the one-parameter subgroups of H are precisely the one-parameter subgroups of G whose initial velocities lie in $T_e H$.

Proof

If $\gamma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow H$ is a one-parameter subgroup, then composing with the inclusion $H \hookrightarrow G$ gives a one-parameter subgroup of G whose initial velocity is $d\iota_e(\gamma'(0)) \in d\iota_e(T_e H)$ which we identify with $T_e H \subseteq T_e G$.

Conversely if $\gamma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow G$ is a one-parameter subgroup whose initial velocity lies in $T_e H$, let $\tilde{\gamma}: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow H$ be the unique one-parameter subgroup whose initial velocity is the same as γ 's. By the previous paragraph, composing $\iota \circ \tilde{\gamma}$ gives a one-parameter subgroup of G with the same initial velocity as γ . By uniqueness, $\iota \circ \tilde{\gamma} = \gamma$. ■

14.1.5 Example

For a Lie subgroup H of $\mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$, its one-parameter subgroups are curves of the form e^{tA} where $A \in \mathrm{Lie}(H)$ (since the initial velocity of e^{tA} is A).

14.1.6 Definition

Let G be a Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{g}$. The **exponential map** of G is the map $\exp: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow G$ defined by

$$\exp X = \gamma(1)$$

where $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ is left-invariant and γ is the one-parameter subgroup generated by X .

14.1.7 Proposition

Let G be a Lie group, then for any $X \in \mathrm{Lie}(G)$, $\gamma(t) = \exp(tX)$ is the one-parameter subgroup of G generated by X .

Proof

Let $\gamma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow G$ be the one-parameter subgroup of G generated by X , so by the rescaling lemma $\tilde{\gamma}: t \mapsto \gamma(ts)$ is the integral curve of sX starting at e . Thus

$$\exp(sX) = \tilde{\gamma}(1) = \gamma(s),$$

as desired. ■

14.1.8 Example

For $G = \mathrm{GL}_n(\mathbb{R})$ this shows that the exponential map is $\exp(A) = e^A$, explaining the name.

14.1.9 Proposition

Let G be a Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{g}$.

- (1) The exponential map is smooth ($\mathfrak{g}$ is Euclidean).
- (2) For any $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $s, t \in \mathbb{R}$, $\exp(s+t)X = \exp(sX)\exp(tX)$.
- (3) For any $X \in \mathfrak{g}$, $(\exp X)^{-1} = \exp(-X)$.
- (4) For any $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, $(\exp X)^n = \exp(nX)$.
- (5) The differential $(d\exp)_0: T_0\mathfrak{g} \rightarrow T_e G$ is the identity map, under the canonical identification of $T_0\mathfrak{g}$ and $T_e G$ with $\mathfrak{g}$.
- (6) The exponential restricts to a diffeomorphism from a neighborhood of $0 \in \mathfrak{g}$ to a neighborhood of $e \in G$.
- (7) If H is another Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{h}$, and $\Phi: G \rightarrow H$ a Lie group morphism, the diagram commutes

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \mathfrak{g} & \xrightarrow{\Phi_*} & \mathfrak{h} \\ \exp \downarrow & & \downarrow \exp \\ G & \xrightarrow{\Phi} & H \end{array}$$

In other words, $\exp$ is a natural map from the Lie algebra functor (mapping $G \mapsto \mathfrak{g}$) to the identity functor of Lie groups.

- (8) The flow θ of $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ is given by $\theta_t = R_{\exp(tX)}$ (right multiplication by $\exp(tX)$).

Proof

For $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ denote its flow by $\theta_{(X)}$. For the first point, we need to show that $\theta_{(X)}^{(e)}(1)$ depends smoothly on X . Define a vector field Ξ on $G \times \mathfrak{g}$ by

$$\Xi_{(g,X)} = (X_g, 0) \in T_g G \oplus T_X \mathfrak{g} \cong T_{(g,X)}(G \times \mathfrak{g}).$$

This is smooth, as we show now. Let $X_1, \dots, X_n$ be a basis for $\mathfrak{g}$ and let (x^i) be the corresponding global coordinates of $\mathfrak{g}$ (the coordinates represented by this basis). Let (w^i) be any local coordinates for G , then for $f \in C^\infty(G \times \mathfrak{g})$ we have

$$\Xi f(w^i, x^i) = \Xi_{(w^i, X^i)} f = ((x^i X_i)_{w^i}, 0) f = x^i X_i f(w^j).$$

This is clearly a smooth function, so Ξ is smooth.

Let Θ be Ξ 's flow, we can see that

$$\Theta_t(g, X) = (\theta_{(X)}(t, g), X),$$

since differentiating this with respect to t gives $((\theta_{(X)}^{(g)})'(t_0), 0) = (X_{\theta_{(X)}^{(g)}(t_0)}, 0)$ which is equal to Ξ at $\Theta_{t_0}(g, X)$.

This is smooth as flow is smooth, and so $\Theta_1(e, X) = (\theta_{(X)}^{(e)}(1), X)$ is smooth, as desired.

The next three points are clear, since $t \mapsto \exp(tX)$ is a one-parameter subgroup, so a group morphism.

To prove (5), let $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ be arbitrary and $\sigma: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathfrak{g}$ be given by $\sigma(t) = tX$. Then $\sigma'(0) = X$ (under the identification $T_0\mathfrak{g} \cong \mathfrak{g}$, σ and X are identified),

$$(d\exp)_0(X) = (d\exp)_0(\sigma'(0)) = (\exp \circ \sigma)'(0) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} \exp(tX) = X,$$

since $\exp(tX)$ is the one-parameter subgroup of X .

Part (6) is due to the inverse function theorem.

To prove naturality we need to show $\exp(\Phi_*X) = \Phi(\exp X)$ for all $X \in \mathfrak{g}$. We show the more general

$$\exp(t\Phi_*X) = \Phi(\exp(tX))$$

for all $t \in \mathbb{R}$. The left-hand side is the one-parameter subgroup generated by Φ_*X . Let $\sigma(t) = \Phi(\exp(tX))$; we want to show that it is also the one-parameter subgroup of Φ_*X , i.e. it is a Lie group morphism satisfying $\sigma'(0) = (\Phi_*X)_e$. As the composition of Lie group morphisms, it itself is a Lie group morphism. And

$$\sigma'(0) = d\Phi_e \left(\left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} (\exp(tX)) \right) = d\Phi_e(X_e) = (\Phi_*X)_e.$$

For the final point we want to show $(\theta_{(X)})_t = R_{\exp(tX)}$. We use the fact that L_g maps integral curves of X to integral curves of X , so $t \mapsto L_g(\exp(tX))$ is an integral curve of X starting at g , so it is equal to $\theta_{(X)}^{(g)}$. Thus

$$R_{\exp(tX)}(g) = g \exp(tX) = L_g(\exp(tX)) = \theta_{(X)}^{(g)}(t) = (\theta_{(X)})_t(g)$$

as desired. ■

Note:

Importantly, the above proposition does not imply $\exp(X + Y) = \exp(X)\exp(Y)$. As it turns out, when G is connected this is only true if it is Abelian.

14.2 Normal subgroups

14.2.1 Lemma

Let G be a connected Lie group, and $H \subseteq G$ a connected Lie subgroup. Let $\mathfrak{g}, \mathfrak{h}$ be their respective Lie algebras, then H is normal in G iff for all $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{h}$,

$$\exp(X)\exp(Y)\exp(-X) \in H.$$

Proof

Since $\exp(-X) = \exp(X)^{-1}$, if H is normal this holds. Conversely, let $V \subseteq \mathfrak{g}$ be a neighborhood of 0 and $W \subseteq G$ such that $\exp: V \rightarrow W$ is a diffeomorphism. Since the exponential of H is the restriction of that of G , shrinking V if necessary, the restriction of $\exp$ to $V \cap \mathfrak{h}$ is a diffeomorphism to a neighborhood $U_0 \subseteq H$ of e . We can further assume that V is symmetric (if $X \in V$ then $-X \in V$) by potentially further shrinking V .

This implies that $ghg^{-1} \in H$ whenever $g \in U$ and $h \in U_0$ (since they are in the image of $\exp$). Recall that we showed that U_0 and U generate H, G respectively we get the desired result. ■

14.2.2 Definition

If $\mathfrak{g}$ is a Lie algebra, a **kernel** is a subspace $\mathfrak{h} \subseteq \mathfrak{g}$ which is closed under Lie bracketing from $\mathfrak{g}$: for $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{h}$, $[X, Y] \in \mathfrak{h}$.

For a Lie group G and $g \in G$, the map $C_g: G \rightarrow G$ given by conjugation with g : $C_g(h) = ghg^{-1}$ is a Lie group isomorphism, and so if we define its induced map $\text{Ad}(g) = (C_g)_*: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{g}$. This defines a map

$$\text{Ad}: G \rightarrow \text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$$

called the **Adjoint representation** of G .

14.2.3 Proposition

The adjoint representation is indeed a representation.

Proof

It is well-defined since C_g are Lie group isomorphisms so their induced maps are linear automorphisms of $\mathfrak{g}$. Since $C_{g_1 g_2} = C_{g_1} \circ C_{g_2}$ we see that $\text{Ad}(g_1 g_2) = \text{Ad}(g_1) \circ \text{Ad}(g_2)$, so it is a morphism. We need to show only that Ad is smooth.

Let $C: G \times G \rightarrow G$ be given by $C(g, h) = ghg^{-1}$, which is smooth. Let $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $g \in G$, so $\text{Ad}(g)X$ is the left-invariant vector field whose value at $e \in G$ is

$$(\text{Ad}(g)X)_e = ((C_g)_* X)_e = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} C_g(\exp tX) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} C(g, \exp tX) = dC_{(g,e)}(0, X_e).$$

Because dC is smooth, this is smoothly dependent on X and g . If we choose a basis (E_i) for $\mathfrak{g}$, then $\text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$ has a basis with respect to this. Let (ε^j) be the dual basis of (E_i) , then the matrix entries of $\text{Ad}(g)$ is $(\text{Ad}(g))_i^j = \varepsilon^j(\text{Ad}(g)E_i)$. Plugging in $X = E_i$ to the above we see that these coordinates are smooth. ■

14.2.4 Definition

If $\mathfrak{g}$ is a Lie algebra, define its **adjoint representation** $\text{ad}: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{gl}(\mathfrak{g})$ by

$$\text{ad}(X)Y = [X, Y].$$

Note that its codomain is $\mathfrak{gl}(\mathfrak{g})$, not $\text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$.

This is a smooth map, as it is a linear map between Euclidean spaces.

14.2.5 Theorem

Let G be a Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{g}$. Let $\text{Ad}: G \rightarrow \text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$ be its adjoint representation, then its induced Lie algebra representation $\text{Ad}_*: \mathfrak{g} \rightarrow \mathfrak{gl}(\mathfrak{g})$ is just $\text{Ad}_* = \text{ad}$.

Proof

Let $X \in \mathfrak{g}$, then $\text{Ad}_* X$ is determined by its value at the identity, an element of $\mathfrak{gl}(\mathfrak{g})$. Now, we have

$$(\text{Ad}_* X)Y = \left(\left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} \text{Ad}(\exp tX) \right) Y = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} (\text{Ad}(\exp tX)Y).$$

Now $C_g = R_{g^{-1}} \circ L_g$ so that $\text{Ad}(g) = (R_{g^{-1}})_* \circ (L_g)_*$, and thus

$$(\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))Y)_e = dR_{\exp(-tX)} \circ dL_{\exp(tX)}(Y_e) = dR_{\exp(-tX)}(Y_{\exp(tX)}),$$

since Y is left-invariant. Recall that the flow of X is given by $\theta_t(g) = R_{\exp(tX)}(g)$ so this is equal to

$$= d(\theta_{-t})(Y_{\theta_t(e)}).$$

Thus if we take the derivative of this with respect to t and setting $t = 0$, we get

$$((\text{Ad}_*X)Y)_e = \left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} d(\theta_{-t})(Y_{\theta_t(e)}) = (\mathcal{L}_X Y)_e = [X, Y]_e.$$

Since these vector fields are determined by their values at the identity, we see that $(\text{Ad}_*X)Y = \text{ad}(X)Y$ as desired. $\blacksquare$

14.2.6 Theorem

Let $H \subseteq G$ be a connected Lie subgroup, and denote the respective Lie algebras by $\mathfrak{h}, \mathfrak{g}$. Then H is a normal subgroup of G iff $\mathfrak{h}$ is an ideal of $\mathfrak{g}$.

Proof

Consider the commutative diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \mathfrak{g} & \xrightarrow{\text{Ad}(g)} & \mathfrak{g} \\ \exp \downarrow & & \downarrow \exp \\ G & \xrightarrow{C_g} & G \end{array}$$

for all $g \in G$. If $\mathfrak{h}$ is an ideal then for $Y \in \mathfrak{h}$ and $g = \exp X$ we see that

$$\exp(\text{Ad}(\exp X)Y) = C_{\exp X}(\exp Y) = (\exp X)(\exp Y)(\exp(-X)).$$

Conversely a similar commutative diagram for $\text{Ad}_* = \text{ad}$ yields

$$\text{Ad}(\exp X) = \exp(\text{ad}X)$$

so that

$$\text{Ad}(\exp X)Y = \exp(\text{ad}X)Y = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{k!} (\text{ad}X)^k Y.$$

Since $\mathfrak{h}$ is an ideal, $(\text{ad}X)Y = [X, Y] \in \mathfrak{h}$, and by induction $(\text{ad}X)^k Y \in \mathfrak{h}$. Furthermore $\mathfrak{h}$ is closed in $\mathfrak{g}$ so that $\text{Ad}(\exp X)Y \in \mathfrak{h}$, and thus its exponent is in $\mathfrak{h}$. So we have $(\exp X)(\exp Y)(\exp(-X)) \in \mathfrak{h}$, so H is normal.

Conversely if H is normal, then for $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ and $Y \in \mathfrak{h}$ then by the commutative diagram

$$\exp(\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))sY) = (\exp tX)(\exp sY)(\exp tX)^{-1} \in H.$$

Since $\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))$ is linear over $\mathbb{R}$, it follows that

$$\exp(s\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))Y) = \exp(\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))sY),$$

which is in H for all s , and thus $\text{Ad}(\exp(tX))Y \in \mathfrak{h}$ (since its integral curve lies in H). By above,

$$\left. \frac{d}{dt} \right|_{t=0} \text{Ad}(\exp(tX))Y = [X, Y],$$

so that $[X, Y] \in \mathfrak{h}$ and thus $\mathfrak{h}$ is an ideal. $\blacksquare$

14.3 Bi-invariant metrics

In this section we discuss metrics on Lie groups. Since Riemannian metrics are typically denoted by g , we will in this section denote elements of a Lie group by φ, ψ , etc.

14.3.1 Definition

Let G be a Lie group. A Riemannian metric g on G is **left-invariant** if $L_\varphi^* g = g$ for all $\varphi \in G$. Similarly we define **right-invariant** Riemannian metrics, and **bi-invariant metrics** are metrics which are both left- and right-invariant.

14.3.2 Lemma

Let G be a Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{g}$. Then a Riemannian metric g on G is left-invariant iff for all $X, Y \in \mathfrak{g}$ the function $g(X, Y) \in C^\infty(G)$ is constant.

Proof

Recall that $g(X, Y)(\varphi) = g_\varphi(X_\varphi, Y_\varphi)$; we claim that if g is left-invariant this is equal to $g_e(X_e, Y_e)$. Indeed, by left-invariance of g, X, Y ,

$$g_e(X_e, Y_e) = (L_\varphi^* g)_e(X_e, Y_e) = g_\varphi(d(L_\varphi)_e X_e, d(L_\varphi)_e Y_e) = g_\varphi(X_\varphi, Y_\varphi),$$

as desired. The same computation shows that $L_\varphi^* g = g$ when $g(X, Y)$ is constant. $\blacksquare$

From this lemma we deduce that every left-invariant Riemannian metric arises uniquely from an inner product on $\mathfrak{g}$. That is, $g \mapsto g_e$ is a bijection.

14.3.3 Definition

Let V be a Euclidean space, $\text{GL}(V)$ be its group of linear automorphisms. Let $H \subseteq \text{GL}(V)$ be a subgroup, then we say an inner product $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle$ is **H -invariant** if $\langle h\bullet, h\bullet \rangle = \langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle$ for all $h \in H$.

14.3.4 Proposition

Let G be a Lie group with Lie algebra $\mathfrak{g}$, and g a left-invariant Riemannian metric on G . Let $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle$ denote its associated inner product on $\mathfrak{g}$ (i.e. g_e). Then g is bi-invariant iff $\langle \bullet, \bullet \rangle$ is $\text{Ad}(G) \subseteq \text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$ -invariant.

Proof

For $\varphi \in G$ recall that $C_\varphi = R_{\varphi^{-1}} \circ L_\varphi$. So for $X \in \mathfrak{g}$ we have that

$$\text{Ad}(\varphi)X = (R_{\varphi^{-1}})_*(L_\varphi)_*X = (R_{\varphi^{-1}})_*X,$$

by left-invariance of X . Thus for all $\psi \in G$ and $X, Y \in \mathfrak{g}$,

$$(R_{\varphi^{-1}}^* g)_\psi(X_\psi, Y_\psi) = g_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}((R_{\varphi^{-1}})_*X_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}, (R_{\varphi^{-1}})_*Y_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}) = g_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}(\text{Ad}(\varphi)X_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}, \text{Ad}(\varphi)Y_{\psi\varphi^{-1}}).$$

By left-invariance of g this is just equal to

$$\langle \text{Ad}(\varphi)X, \text{Ad}(\varphi)Y \rangle.$$

So if the inner product is $\text{Ad}(G)$ -invariant we see that $(R_{\varphi^{-1}})^* g = g$ for all φ so that g is right-invariant as well, so bi-invariant.

Conversely if g is bi-invariant then we have that $(R_{\varphi^{-1}})^*g = g$. So setting $\psi = e$ we see that $g_e = \langle \text{Ad}(\varphi)\bullet, \text{Ad}(\varphi)\bullet \rangle$ so that g_e is $\text{Ad}(G)$ -invariant. ■

14.3.5 Lemma

Let V be a Euclidean space, and H a subgroup of $\text{GL}(V)$. Then there is an H -invariant inner product on V iff H has compact closure in $\text{GL}(V)$.

Proof

Omitted. ■

The following is then an immediate result of this lemma and the above proposition.

14.3.6 Theorem

A Lie group G has a bi-invariant Riemannian metric iff $\text{Ad}(G)$ has compact closure in $\text{GL}(\mathfrak{g})$.

14.3.7 Corollary

Every compact Lie group has a bi-invariant Riemannian metric.

Proof

$\text{Ad}(G)$ is the continuous image of G under Ad , and thus compact. ■

14.3.8 Example

If G is Abelian, then $C_g = \text{id}$ and thus Ad is trivial and so every left-invariant metric is bi-invariant.

15 Connections

15.1 Connections

15.1.1 Definition

Let $E \rightarrow M$ be a smooth vector bundle over M , and denote its space of sections by $\Gamma(E)$. A **connection** in E is a map

$$\nabla: \mathfrak{X}(M) \times \Gamma(E) \rightarrow \Gamma(E)$$

written $(X, Y) \mapsto \nabla_X Y$ which has the following properties:

- (1) $\nabla_X Y$ is $C^\infty(M)$ -linear in X :

$$\nabla_{f_1 X_2 + f_2 X_2} Y = f_1 \nabla_{X_1} Y + f_2 \nabla_{X_2} Y, \quad f_1, f_2 \in C^\infty(M).$$

- (2) $\nabla_X Y$ is $\mathbb{R}$ -linear in Y :

$$\nabla_X (a_1 Y_1 + a_2 Y_2) = a_1 \nabla_X Y_1 + a_2 \nabla_X Y_2, \quad a_1, a_2 \in \mathbb{R}.$$

(3) ∇ satisfies the product rule: for $f \in C^\infty(M)$:

$$\nabla_X(fY) = f\nabla_X Y + (Xf)Y.$$

15.1.2 Lemma

If ∇ is a connection over E , and $X, \tilde{X} \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y, \tilde{Y} \in \Gamma(E)$ are sections which agree on a neighborhood of $p \in M$, then

$$\nabla_X Y|_p = \nabla_{\tilde{X}} \tilde{Y}|_p.$$

Proof

By linearity it is sufficient to assume $X = 0$ or $Y = 0$ in a neighborhood of p and show that in each case $\nabla_X Y = 0$. For Y , suppose Y is zero in a neighborhood U of p . Let ψ a bump function which is 1 at p and supported in U . Thus $\psi Y = 0$, and so by the axioms

$$0 = \nabla_X(\psi Y) = \psi \nabla_X Y + (X\psi)Y.$$

Since Y is zero on ψ 's support, the second term is zero. So evaluating the first term at p gives

$$0 = \psi(p) \nabla_X Y|_p = \nabla_X Y|_p,$$

as desired.

Choosing a similar bump function for X gives

$$0 = \nabla_{\psi X} Y = \psi \nabla_X Y$$

and evaluating at p gives the desired result again. ■

15.1.3 Lemma

Let ∇ be a connection in $E \rightarrow M$. For an open subset $U \subseteq M$ there is a unique connection ∇^U on the restricted bundle $E|_U$ such that for all $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$ and $Y \in \Gamma(E)$,

$$\nabla_{X|_U}^U(Y|_U) = (\nabla_X Y)|_U.$$

Proof

First we show uniqueness. For $X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$ and $Y \in \Gamma(E|_U)$ arbitrary and $p \in U$ we use a bump function to define sections $\tilde{X} \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$ and $\tilde{Y} \in \Gamma(E|_U)$ such that $\tilde{X}$ and $\tilde{Y}$ agree with X, Y on a neighborhood of p so that

$$\nabla_X^U Y|_p = \nabla_{\tilde{X}|_U}^U(\tilde{Y}|_U)|_p = (\nabla_{\tilde{X}} \tilde{Y})|_p,$$

showing uniqueness. This also demonstrates how to construct ∇^U . By the above lemma $\nabla_{\tilde{X}} \tilde{Y}|_p$ is independent on choice of $\tilde{X}, \tilde{Y}$, and it is easy to see that the above formula defines a connection. ■

Note:

The restricted connection is usually denoted ∇ as well instead of ∇^U . This lemma shows there can be no confusion.

15.1.4 Proposition

$\nabla_X Y$ depends only on X 's value at p and Y 's values in any neighborhood of p .

Proof

The lemma before this showed that the connection only depends on X and Y in any neighborhood of p . To show that it depends only on X_p , it is sufficient to assume $X_p = 0$. Let U be a coordinate neighborhood of p and write $X = X^i \partial / \partial x^i$ so that $X^i(p) = 0$. Then at p by the above lemma on restricting the connection,

$$\nabla_X Y|_p = \nabla_{X^i \partial / \partial x^i} Y|_p = (X^i \nabla_{\partial / \partial x^i} Y)|_p = 0$$

since $X^i(p) = 0$. ■

Our main concern are connections in the tangent bundle, called just **connections on M** . These are connections

$$\nabla: \mathfrak{X}(M) \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M).$$

Let (E_i) be a smooth local frame for TM on an open subset $U \subseteq M$. Then for every i, j we can represent $\nabla_{E_i} E_j$ in U over this coordinate frame. So there are smooth functions $\Gamma_{ij}^k \in C^\infty(U)$ such that

$$\nabla_{E_i} E_j = \Gamma_{ij}^k E_k.$$

These are n^3 smooth functions ($n = \dim M$) called the **connection coefficients** of ∇ in the given frame.

15.1.5 Proposition

Let ∇ be a connection on M , E_i a local frame over U , and Γ_{ij}^k be ∇ 's connection coefficients in this frame. Then for $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$ with representations $X = X^i E_i, Y = Y^j E_j$, one has

$$\nabla_X Y = (X(Y^k) + X^i Y^j \Gamma_{ij}^k) E_k.$$

Proof

Shut up and compute.

$$\begin{aligned} \nabla_X Y &= \nabla_X (Y^j E_j) = X(Y^j) E_j + Y^j \nabla_X E_j = X(Y^j) E_j + Y^j \nabla_{X^i E_i} E_j \\ &= X(Y^j) E_j + X^i Y^j \nabla_{E_i} E_j \\ &= X(Y^j) E_j + X^i Y^j \Gamma_{ij}^k E_k. \end{aligned}$$
■

15.1.6 Proposition

Let ∇ be a connection on M , and (E_i) and $(\tilde{E}_j)$ are two local frames over U related by $\tilde{E}_i = A_i^j E_j$ for a matrix $A = (A_i^j)$. Let $\Gamma_{ij}^k, \tilde{\Gamma}_{ij}^k$ be the connection coefficients relative to these frames, then

$$\tilde{\Gamma}_{ij}^k = (A^{-1})_p^k A_i^q A_j^r \Gamma_{qr}^p + (A^{-1})_p^k A_i^q E_q(E_j^p).$$

Proof

Tedious computations. ■

15.1.7 Proposition

If TM has a global frame (E_i) then any choice of smooth functions $\Gamma_{ij}^k \in C^\infty(M)$ defines a connection on M with these as the connection coefficients relative to (E_i) .

Proof

Write $X = X^i E_i$ and $Y = Y^j E_j$, and show that the formula above

$$\nabla_X Y = (X(Y^k) + X^i Y^j \Gamma_{ij}^k) E_k$$

defines a connection on M . This is clear, or an easy set of computations. ■

15.1.8 Example

$T\mathbb{R}^n$ has a global frame $\partial/\partial x^i$. So define $\Gamma_{ij}^k = 0$ for all i, j, k , this gives us the **Euclidean connection**:

$$\bar{\nabla}_X Y = X(Y^i) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}.$$

Note:

Linear combinations of connections need not be connections. They are obviously still linear, but need not satisfy the product rule. For example if ∇ is a connection then

$$2\nabla_X(fY) = 2(XfY + f\nabla_X Y).$$

But the product rule requires

$$(2\nabla_X(fY)) = XfY + f(2\nabla_X)Y = XfY + 2f\nabla_X Y,$$

which are clearly not equal. Similarly for sums.

15.1.9 Proposition

Every manifold admits a connection on it.

Proof

Let M be a smooth manifold and cover it with coordinate charts $\{U_\alpha\}$. These are all diffeomorphic to Euclidean space and thus can be given the (restriction of the) Euclidean connection ∇^α . Let $\{\varphi_\alpha\}$ be a partition of unity subordinate to $\{U_\alpha\}$ and define

$$\nabla_X Y = \sum_\alpha \varphi_\alpha \nabla_X^\alpha Y.$$

Since partitions of unity are locally finite, this defines a smooth vector field on M . This is clearly still linear, but we need to show the product rule, as explained in the note above.

We have

$$\nabla_X(fY) = \sum_\alpha \varphi_\alpha (XfY + f\nabla_X^\alpha Y) = \left(\sum_\alpha \varphi_\alpha \right) XfY + f \sum_\alpha \varphi_\alpha \nabla_X^\alpha Y = XfY + f\nabla_X Y$$

because the sum of a partition of unity is one. ■

15.1.10 Proposition

Let ∇^0, ∇^1 be two connections on M , then the map $D: \mathfrak{X}(M) \times \mathfrak{X}(M) \rightarrow \mathfrak{X}(M)$ given by

$$D(X, Y) = \nabla_X^1 Y - \nabla_X^0 Y$$

is bilinear over $C^\infty(M)$ and thus defines a $(1, 2)$ -tensor field called the **difference tensor**.

Proof

Additivity is clear. Multiplicity is by multiplicity in the lower input and the product rule. ■

15.1.11 Theorem

Let ∇^0 be a connection on M , then the set $\mathcal{A}(TM)$ of all connections on M is equal to

$$\mathcal{A}(TM) = \left\{ \nabla^0 + D \mid D \in \mathcal{T}^{(1,2)} TM \right\},$$

where $\nabla^0 + D$ is the connection given by $(\nabla^0 + D)_X Y = \nabla_X^0 Y + D(X, Y)$.

Proof

The proposition above shows that $\mathcal{A}(TM)$ is contained in this affine space, and it is routine to show that elements of the affine space are all connections. ■

15.2 Covariant derivatives of tensor fields

Recall that a $(1, 1)$ -tensor over V is just a linear map $V \rightarrow V$. Thus we can naturally define the trace of such a tensor to be the trace of its corresponding linear map. In general we define the **trace operator**

$$\text{tr}: T^{(k+1, \ell+1)}(V) \rightarrow T^{(k, \ell)}(V)$$

by mapping $F \in T^{(k+1, \ell+1)}(V)$ to $\text{tr}(F) \in T^{(k, \ell)}(V)$ where $\text{tr}(F)(\omega^1, \dots, \omega^k, v_1, \dots, v_\ell)$ is defined to be the trace of the $(1, 1)$ -tensor

$$F(\omega^1, \dots, \omega^k, \bullet, v_1, \dots, v_\ell, \bullet) \in T^{(1, 1)}(V).$$

This is clearly a tensor by linearity of the trace. In terms of a basis

$$(\operatorname{tr} F)_J^I = F_{J,m}^{I,m}$$

summing over m .

Note that we can take the trace of a tensor on different indices, not just the last ones, as long as one is covariant and the other contravariant.

15.2.1 Proposition

Let M be a smooth manifold with connection ∇ . Then ∇ uniquely determines a connection on the tensor bundle $T^{(k,\ell)}TM$ also denoted ∇ , such that

- (1) In $T^{(1,0)}TM = TM$, ∇ agrees with the given connection.
- (2) In $T^{(0,0)}TM = M \times \mathbb{R}$ (whose sections are identified with real-valued functions), ∇ is ordinary differentiation of functions,

$$\nabla_X f = Xf.$$

- (3) ∇ satisfies the product rule with respect to tensor products,

$$\nabla_X(F \otimes G) = (\nabla_X F) \otimes G + F \otimes (\nabla_X G).$$

- (4) ∇ commutes with trace (contractions): if tr is the trace of a tensor on any pair of indices, one covariant and one contravariant, then

$$\nabla_X(\operatorname{tr} F) = \operatorname{tr}(\nabla_X F).$$

Furthermore the connection satisfies

- (1) For a vector field Y and covector field ω ,

$$\nabla_X \langle \omega, Y \rangle = \langle \nabla_X \omega, Y \rangle + \langle \omega, \nabla_X Y \rangle$$

where $\langle \omega, Y \rangle$ is just $\omega(Y)$.

- (2) For $F \in \mathcal{T}^{(k,\ell)}TM$, covector fields $\omega^1, \dots, \omega^k$, and vector fields $Y^1, \dots, Y^\ell$,

$$\begin{aligned} (\nabla_X F)(\omega^1, \dots, \omega^k, Y_1, \dots, Y_\ell) &= X(F(\bar{\omega}, \bar{Y})) \\ &\quad - \sum_{i=1}^k F(\omega^1, \dots, \nabla_X \omega^i, \dots, \omega^k, \bar{Y}) - \sum_{j=1}^\ell F(\bar{\omega}, Y_1, \dots, \nabla_X Y_j, \dots, Y_\ell). \end{aligned}$$

Proof

First we show that the conditions imply the two properties at the end. Note that $\langle \omega, Y \rangle = \omega_i Y^i = \operatorname{tr}(\omega \otimes Y)$. Thus

$$\nabla_X \langle \omega, Y \rangle = \nabla_X(\operatorname{tr}(\omega \otimes Y)) = \operatorname{tr} \nabla_X(\omega \otimes Y) = \operatorname{tr}(\nabla_X \omega \otimes Y + \omega \otimes \nabla_X Y) = \langle \nabla_X \omega, Y \rangle + \langle \omega, \nabla_X Y \rangle.$$

The second property is proven by induction, noting that

$$F(\bar{\omega}, \bar{Y}) = \operatorname{tr} \cdots \operatorname{tr}(F \otimes \bar{\omega} \otimes \bar{Y})$$

where we take $k + \ell$ traces, each operating on an upper index of F and the lower index of the corresponding covector field, or a lower index of F and the upper index of the corresponding vector field.

For uniqueness, notice that by the conditions and properties,

$$(\nabla_X \omega)(Y) = \langle \nabla_X \omega, Y \rangle = \nabla_X(\omega(Y)) - \omega(\nabla_X Y).$$

Thus we have a unique method of computing the covariant derivatives of covector fields, and by the second property this gives us an expression for $\nabla_X F$ for any tensor, showing uniqueness.

Now to show existence, define $\nabla_X \omega$ for covector fields as in the previous equation, and extend this to all tensors. Then $\nabla_X F$ is $C^\infty(M)$ -multilinear (as can be checked), thus defining a smooth tensor field. Checking that ∇_X actually defines a connection is similarly routine. ■

The expressions for the covariant derivative given in the proof/proposition above are not useful for computations.

15.2.2 Proposition

Let ∇ be a connection on M , (E_i) a local frame, (ε^j) its dual coframe, and Γ_{ij}^k the connection coefficients of ∇ with respect to (E_i) . Let $X = X^i E_i$ be a local vector field.

- (1) The covariant derivative of $\omega = \omega_i \varepsilon^i$ is given by

$$\nabla_X \omega = (X(\omega_k) - X^j \omega_i \Gamma_{jk}^i) \varepsilon^k.$$

TODO: Above.

15.3 Vector and tensor fields along maps

15.3.1 Definition

If $F: M \rightarrow N$ is a smooth map, and $\pi: E \rightarrow N$ a vector bundle on N , we define its **pullback** to be the vector bundle $\pi^*: F^*E \rightarrow M$ defined by

$$F^*E = \{(p, e) \in M \times E \mid F(p) = \pi(e)\} \subseteq M \times E,$$

where π^* is projection onto the first component.

Projecting onto the second component gives a map $f: F^*E \rightarrow E$ so that the following diagram commutes

$$\begin{array}{ccc} F^*E & \xrightarrow{\quad} & M \\ f \downarrow & \pi^* & \downarrow F \\ E & \xrightarrow{\quad \pi \quad} & N \end{array}$$

To show that this is indeed a vector bundle we need to give local trivializations. Let (U, Φ) be a local trivialization of E , where $\Phi: \pi^{-1}U \rightarrow U \times \mathbb{R}^k$, then $(F^{-1}U, \Phi^*)$ is a local trivialization of F^*E where

$$\Phi^*: (\pi^*)^{-1}(F^{-1}U) \rightarrow F^{-1}U \times \mathbb{R}^k, \quad \Phi^*(p, e) = (p, \text{proj}_2(\Phi(e))).$$

Note that this is well-defined, since $(\pi^*)^{-1}(F^{-1}U) = f^{-1}(\pi^{-1}U)$ so if (p, e) is in it then $e \in \pi^{-1}U$ and $Fp = \pi e$. Thus $\Phi(e)$ is defined, and $p \in F^{-1}U$.

Now Φ^* is also bijective. It is injective since if $\Phi^*(p, e) = \Phi^*(q, e')$ then clearly $p = q$, and so $Fp = \pi e = \pi e'$ so $e, e' \in E_{Fp}$. Then $\text{proj}_2 \Phi|_{E_{Fp}}$ is a bijection $E_{Fp} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$ so $e = e'$. It is surjective since if $(p, v) \in F^{-1}U \times \mathbb{R}^k$ then consider the bijection $\Phi|_{E_{Fp}}: E_{Fp} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^k$, there is an $e \in E_{Fp}$ such that $\Phi(e) = v$. And $e \in E_{Fp}$ means that $\pi e = Fp$ so (p, e) is the preimage of (p, v) .

And Φ^* 's restriction to $(\pi^*)^{-1}\{p\} = \{(p, e) \mid \pi e = Fp\}$ is

$$\Phi^*(p, e) = (p, \text{proj}_2 \Phi(e))$$

whose second component is $\text{proj}_2 \Phi|_{E_{Fp}}$ which is a linear isomorphism to $\mathbb{R}^k$.

If Ψ is another local trivialization, then

$$\Phi^* \circ (\Psi^*)^{-1}(p, v) = \Phi^*(p, \Psi^{-1}(Fp, v)) = (p, \text{proj}_2 \Phi \Psi^{-1}(Fp, v)),$$

and the second coordinate is linear, it is equal to $\tau(Fp)v$ where τ is the transition function between Φ, Ψ .

15.3.2 Proposition

Sections of the pullback bundle F^*E are equivalent to maps $\sigma: M \rightarrow E$ where $\sigma(p) \in E_{Fp}$. Viewing these as $C^\infty(M)$ -modules, they are isomorphic.

Proof

We want to give a natural correspondence

$$\Gamma(F^*E) = \{\sigma: M \rightarrow F^*E \mid \pi^* \circ \sigma = \text{id}\} \leftrightarrow \{\sigma: M \rightarrow E \mid \sigma(p) \in E_{Fp}\}.$$

If $\sigma \in \Gamma(F^*E)$ is a section, then define $\tilde{\sigma} = f \circ \sigma$. This is a smooth map and $f \circ \sigma(p) \in E_{Fp}$ since $\pi \circ f \circ \sigma(p) = F \circ \pi^* \circ \sigma(p) = F(p)$. Conversely if $\sigma: M \rightarrow E$ is smooth with $\sigma(p) \in E_{Fp}$ then define $\sigma^*(p) = (p, \sigma(p))$, which is well-defined since $\pi \sigma(p) = Fp$ by assumption. Then $\pi^* \circ \sigma^*(p) = \pi^*(p, \sigma(p)) = p$ so σ^* is a section.

These are inverses, since

$$(\tilde{\sigma})^*(p) = (p, \tilde{\sigma}(p)) = (p, f \circ \sigma(p)),$$

and this is equal to $\sigma(p)$ by definition ($\sigma(p) = (p, e)$ and $e = f(p, e)$). And

$$\widetilde{\sigma^*}(p) = f \circ \sigma^*(p) = f(p, \sigma(p)) = \sigma(p). \quad \blacksquare$$

Note that this gives us a map $\Gamma(E) \rightarrow \Gamma(F^*E)$ mapping $\sigma \in \Gamma(E)$ to $\sigma \circ F$. In particular if $E_i: U \rightarrow E$ is a local frame for E , then $E_i^* = E_i \circ F$ is a local frame for F^*E in $F^{-1}U$. This is because $E_i^*|_p = E_i|_{Fp}$ are linearly independent and the rank of E and F^*E are the same.

Now consider connections on pullback bundles, so maps

$$\nabla: \mathfrak{X}(M) \times \Gamma(F^*E) \rightarrow \Gamma(F^*E)$$

satisfying the conditions of a connection.

15.3.3 Proposition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, $\pi: E \rightarrow N$ a vector bundle on N , and $\pi^*: F^*E \rightarrow M$ its pullback bundle. Further let ∇ be a connection in E , then there is a unique connection ∇^* in F^*E such that

$$\nabla_X^*(Y \circ F)|_p = (\nabla_{dF_p(X_p)} Y)|_{Fp}$$

for all $X \in \mathfrak{X}(M)$, $Y \in \Gamma(E)$, and $p \in M$.

Proof

To show uniqueness, let $p \in M$ and let (E_i) be a local frame of $F(p) \in U \subseteq N$ and consider its pullback frame (E_i^*) of F^*E . Then ∇_X^* is determined by its values on $E_i^* = E_i \circ F$, which are given by the above

formula. Thus it is unique, and it is easy to check that ∇^* is a connection. ■

A specific case of interest are pullbacks of the tangent bundle, i.e. F^*TN .

15.3.4 Definition

Let $F: M \rightarrow N$ be smooth, then sections of the pullback F^*TN are called **vector fields along F** , and the space of sections is denoted

$$\Gamma(F^*TN) = \mathfrak{X}(F).$$

As we saw, a vector field along F amounts to a map $X: M \rightarrow TN$ such that $X_p \in T_{Fp}N$ for all $p \in M$.

References

This summary is based on the material taught in the course “Fundamentals of Differential Geometry” taught in the Hebrew University of Jerusalem during the spring semester of 2026, taught by Prof. Jacob Solomon.

Beyond that, material from the following books were used:

- (1) “Introduction to Smooth Manifolds” by John Lee,
- (2) “Introduction to Riemannian Manifolds” by John Lee.